

The Propaedeutic Logic

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Introduction.

I.

Formal and Speculative Logic.

By reflecting upon its own thinking, the subject is led to make clear to itself the various operations of thought and their mutual connection. The first requirement is that thinking be consistent and follow its own laws without any regard either to the psychical peculiarity of the thinking subject or to the character of the objects to which it might otherwise be applied. Formal logic therefore treats thinking as a given phenomenon of spirit, without asking after its origin or its objective validity. This question is nonetheless so momentous that the whole direction and destiny of philosophy depends upon the way in which it is answered. The sensualists teach that the soul (*tabula rasa*) receives its original content from the sensory impressions of the surrounding world (impressions), and end by making thinking a mere shadow of experience. Subjective idealism, on the contrary, vindicates the soul's infinite self-activity, and conceives the world of experience as the representing I's own unconscious product. Each of these theories misjudges human thought. Sensualism undervalues thinking, doubts the universal validity of the laws of thought, and can for that reason find no truth in the actual world; idealism overvalues subjective thinking, denies the world's true actuality, and ends in formal emptiness. Both one-sidednesses are overcome in speculative logic, which shows that our rational thinking mirrors the reason revealed in the universe.

Remark 1. By making sensation the source of cognition, sensualism was bound to lead to skepticism; for sensation refers only to the particular and contingent, not to the universal and necessary; experience teaches merely *that* something happens, but not *why* it happens; it shows that the one follows upon the other, but does not prove that the one is a consequence of the other; on such presuppositions it was accordingly consistent that Hume contested the concept of causality.

Remark 2. Against Hume's theory Kant raised his opposition. The fundamental thought of the Kantian critique of reason is this, that our pure sensory intuitions (time and space), categories of the understanding (unity and multiplicity, cause and effect, etc.) and ideas of reason (the soul, the world, God) cannot have been abstracted from a world of experience lying outside consciousness, since they themselves constitute the necessary presuppositions without which no experience is possible. But while Kant defended the subjective universal validity of the a priori forms, he denied them, on the other hand, all objective significance. The whole world of experience is consequently to be regarded as a product of two factors, namely of the a priori forms and of an unknown object ("das Ding an sich"), whose pure essence no one can cognize, because everyone who attempts to cognize it thereby at once takes it up into the subjective medium of his own consciousness.

Remark 3. The Kantian "Ding an sich" was contested by the elder Fichte. It is, according to Fichte's view, an absurdity to assume a "Ding an sich," since such a thing can neither be sensed nor thought. To an object that was supposed to lie wholly outside consciousness the subject cannot ascribe reality without falling into contradiction with itself; for if anyone says that he knows of the existence of such an object, then he has already drawn this existence into the circle of consciousness; he then says: I know something of an existence of which I nevertheless know nothing at all. "Das Ding an sich" was the last remnant of objectivity that the critical idealism left standing. By removing this unknown quantity, idealism became wholly subjective, and now concentrated itself in the proposition that the whole world is brought forth by the I. In order to understand this bold assertion, we must determine more closely the I's essence, its productivity, and its freedom.

- a) The I of which idealism speaks is not the empirical I, which finds itself immediately determined by the various expressions and states of the life of consciousness (I speak, grieve, rejoice, etc.); but the pure I = I, the I that in everything thinks itself, without regard to particular limitations and alterations.
- b) The productivity whereby the I brings forth the whole actual surrounding world is no loose play of fancy, nor an arbitrary imagination which the I could alter or arrest at its pleasure, but an act of necessity, whereby it presupposes those barriers whose infinite annulment conditions its freedom.

- c) The I's production of the world goes on unconsciously in its own obscure ground of life, and belongs, so to speak, to its nocturnal sphere; hence the universe comes forward with so imposing a power that the subject takes its own vision of the world for an outward, objective actuality. This popular view, however, is only a dream, which vanishes when philosophical thinking awakens. The transition from the standpoint of representation to the standpoint of philosophy is thus a transition from illusion to truth, from unfreedom to freedom.

Remark 4. Speculative logic has in recent times been founded by Hegel.

II.

The Aim of the Propaedeutic Logic.

It is thus a matter of fact that besides the so-called thinking of the understanding, which finds its immediate application in practical life and its higher cultivation in mathematics and the empirical sciences, there is yet another kind of thinking, namely the dialectical, which conditions all higher knowledge, and therefore has its proper home in speculative philosophy. Although both these main directions of thinking have their origin in one and the same source, the eternal reason, they nevertheless form, for the superficial view, so striking an opposition that it often seems as though truth were at strife with itself. This opposition shows itself not merely in a divergent terminology, but even in the way in which the laws of thought themselves are determined and presented, so that one may be very well practised in the thinking of the understanding without yet finding oneself able either to follow the course of philosophy or to appropriate its results. If, then, the propaedeutic logic is to answer to its true destination, if it is to orient us in the whole realm of thinking, it must necessarily engage with both of the opposed directions of thought. By keeping to formal thinking alone it would evidently give too little; by losing itself in the solution of speculative problems it would overstep its propaedeutic boundary: it therefore occupies a mediating place between formal and speculative logic.

Remark 1. In order to accomplish its task, the propaedeutic logic must give a comparative presentation of the formal and the speculative operations of thought.

If this presentation is to succeed, it must be shown step by step how a determinate thought-content, after first being regarded with the eye of the understanding, changes its appearance when viewed through the glass of dialectic. *The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept*, which constitutes the first part of the logic, therefore lets thinking seek its points of departure, step by step, in the firmer soil of the sense-world and of representation, in order thence to rise into the freer air-current of speculative cognition. By this movement from below upward we are everywhere led from experience into philosophy, from the circle of thought we call our own into that world of reason which reveals the divine Thinker. The exercise of thought and the insight into the essence of the concept that are hereby won introduce, in the next place, a more methodical development of the universal forms and principles of thinking and of existence, which is presented in the second part of the logic, i.e. *in the Doctrine of the Objective Concept*. But just as the first main division constantly points forward to a higher development of the concept, so must the latter in turn everywhere point back to the concepts' empirical existence, and cast light upon the actual world.

The Propaedeutic Logic's

First Part:

The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept.

First Chapter.

The Formation of the Subjective Concept.

§ 1.

The General Representation.

Likeness and unlikeness are the simplest forms in which the objects of the surrounding world can be presented to thinking consideration. The operation of thought that consists in bringing out and holding fast the like in unlike objects is an *abstraction*, and the result to which it leads a *general representation*, which may be characterized as a sense-image, a thought-image, and the fore-image of the concept.

Although two existing things cannot, in one and the same respect, be both like and unlike each other, it is nevertheless impossible to think likeness except by the help of unlikeness; the more sharply these categories are separated, the more clearly it appears that they pass over into each other: their boundary is consequently dialectical.

Remark 1. Several objects that have an essential likeness to one another we reduce in language to a single common designation, and thereby show that we overlook their accidental unlikeness. With language, abstraction begins at once; as the child learns to speak, it learns at the same time to abstract. The likeness of objects is observed by a comparison that is at first just as immediate as sensation itself, and abstraction proceeds, so far, quite unconsciously; but since likeness itself is no sensory object that could be removed, by outward separation, from the unlikenesses in which it finds its expression, abstraction shows itself to be an ideal act, whereby the subject itself takes the universal for the essential and lets the accidental modifications go — hence a beginning act of thinking, which needs only to be brought to consciousness in order that thinking proper may begin.

Remark 2. To see an object is, in other words, to form for oneself a representation corresponding to determinate sensory impressions. That the subject itself forms the representation is evident from the fact that the image of the object can be reproduced after the object itself has disappeared. By sensing a series of different objects there is developed in consciousness a circle of different images and representations; by

the application of comparison and abstraction a general representation is obtained. The general representation is in the beginning quite immediate. One represents the universal to oneself by setting up a single object as exemplar. Universality thus coincides with the image in which it is intuited, and is consequently to be regarded as a *sense-image*. But a closer examination shows that every exemplar that is to represent pure universality gives us both too much and too little. Besides the universal, the exemplar expresses also the peculiarity of a determinate object, and so contains too much; on the other side it shows universality only in a particular shape, and for that reason gives us too little. The subject, which now attempts to form a determinate representation of the universal, obtains then only an unsurveyable series of exemplars, each of which, taken by itself, is equally adequate and equally inadequate. The consequence is that the general representation, encumbered with sensuousness, vanishes like a phantom-image, and only the thought of the universal, which is itself a thought, remains behind. By passing over into thinking, the general image becomes, properly speaking, imageless. Thinking is negative insofar as the universal is at the same time the invisible, which cannot be represented or held fast in any image. Abstracting thought sets the universal free from all sensory admixtures; but when it is further considered that the universal never exists for itself, but is abstracted from the existing objects, then thinking must in turn annul the abstraction, and the eye of the understanding must behold the universal in its single exemplars and examples. Free thought hovers unceasingly between the imageless and the imaged, whereby the general image is transformed into a *thought-image*. Accordingly it encloses *and comprehends* all the single objects, and in this sense is to be posited as *the fore-image of the concept*.

Remark 3. When the universal is held fast by abstraction, it is called an abstractum; when on the contrary it is intuited in a determinate exemplar, we have it *in concreto*. Yet the relation between the abstract and the concrete is determined otherwise in formal than in speculative logic.

Remark 4. As regards the relation between pure likeness and unlikeness, it is in the first place evident that they mutually exclude each other, or, in other words, that they bound each other. But this does not settle the matter; for every negative bounding of thought must also be converted into a positive determination of thought. What is the like? Answer: the like is unlike the unlike, and thereby like itself. In this lies that the thought of likeness not only falls outside the thought of unlikeness, but

also coincides with it. He who thinks directly of the like thereby thinks indirectly of the unlike. Unlikeness is thus the category whereby likeness is determined. The boundary between pure likeness and unlikeness can never stand still; hence it is said, in the language of dialectic, that they pass over into each other. That this dialectic is not arbitrary is proved by the history of philosophy itself. For by making the boundary between the like and the unlike immovable and undialectical, the Eleatics could prove that all becoming was unthinkable. If becoming is to be thought, they said, then it must be either the like that comes from the unlike, or the like that arises from the like. In the latter case no becoming can take place, for since the like is = the like, there is no transition here; in the former case something would have to come to be out of nothing, for in the unlike the like cannot be contained at all. The Eleatic abstraction betrays its one-sidedness in that it will not let the one concept integrate the other.

§ 2.

The Clear and Distinct Intuition.

When the object of thinking consideration shows itself as a *unity* in a multiplicity, the subjective activity of thought consists: a) in an *analysis* or ideal singling-out, whereby the manifold marks and determinations that are to be distinguished with respect to the object are set apart from one another; b) in an ideal gathering-together or *synthesis*, whereby the singled-out plurality is led back to its unity. The result won by this double operation of thought is a *clear and distinct intuition*. By virtue of the intuition's clearness, the objectual unity is singled out from the infinite multiplicity of existence and posited as determinate singleness; by the intuition's being made distinct, the single object is itself determined by a multiplicity of single features, which are comprised within its own unity. Without an analysis and synthesis, albeit an unconscious one, no determinate sensation or experience is possible; but the analytic and synthetic activity of thinking is from the beginning so wholly lost in sensation that the clear and distinct intuition itself bears the immediate stamp of sensuousness. Nevertheless the concept is here too present as fore-image; for analysis and synthesis cannot be applied except to relations; but a relation is itself no sensory object.

When the immediate categories of relation — unity and multiplicity — are themselves made the object of a thinking inquiry, a dialectical problem arises.

Remark 1. Insofar as the universal is the common form in whose likeness the mutual unlikeness of the single exemplars vanishes, it shows itself as the unity under which the objects can be subsumed; insofar as it also finds its concrete expression in each exemplar by itself, its likeness is itself further determined by unlikeness, maintains itself in a repetition, and passes over into plurality. Hence also most *nomina appellativa* have both a singular and a plural.

Remark 2. When that which is apprehended refers not to the sense of sight but to that of hearing, there can indeed be no talk of intuition, but there can always be talk of a clear and distinct apprehension.

Remark 3. When one speaks of an eye of the understanding, or of a thought-vision, these expressions must not be understood merely figuratively; for the transition from sensation to thinking cannot take place by a leap. As a thinking lies at the ground of all sensation, so an ideal sensing also lies at the ground of free thinking; as there is a sensory intuition, so there is also an intellectual intuition, and just as one may speak of a physical blindness, one may also speak of a mental blindness. But when it is now to be stated with determinateness what that ideal is toward which thought's gaze turns, there at once arises the difficulty that thought never dwells upon anything that can be set out and pointed to as a determinate example or a resting shape. While sense settles down to rest with a bounded object, thought is on the contrary in eternal unrest, and oversteps every boundary. As the sensing eye dwells on the one thing, it has at the same time turned itself away from the other; when thought, on the contrary, is to hold fast one determination, it always takes another to its aid. Hence the clear thought-vision is properly a double vision: a *regard* (*Hensyn*). What the *regard* is from the subjective point of view, the *relation* is from the objective; therefore thinking always aims at finding the determinate relations. In consequence, analysis and synthesis acquire a quite different significance for intellectual than for sensory intuition. For sense, the intuition is clear when the object in its pure singleness comes forward with determinate outlines; but thinking does not forget that the singled-out object is itself one among several, that its singleness can therefore be determined only with regard to other single things, and that it must accordingly be posited as a *separate* object. From the sensory side, the intuition is made distinct when the plurality contained in the object's unity comes forward as a sum of single features; for thought, on the contrary, the intuition can be made distinct only by the given single features

being determined with regard to one another, and posited as members of separate relations.

Remark 4. The relation of unity to plurality is determined by merely representational thinking thus: that something which in one respect can be regarded as a plurality can in another respect be posited as a unity; but dialectical thinking is not content with so external a joining of opposed regards; it asks whether unity, when clearly and distinctly thought through, does not itself determine itself as a plurality. In Plato's dialogue, the *Parmenides*, Socrates has hit upon the problem, which he propounds roughly thus: That I, Socrates, am in one respect a unity, in another respect a multiplicity, is not so wonderful; but if anyone could prove to me that ἓν was πολλά and πολλά ἓν, then I should marvel greatly (ἀγαίμην ἂν θαυμάστως, ὦ Ζήνων). The Eleatics (Zeno) demonstrated the contradiction that lies in the category of plurality. "If it is assumed that several things exist, then their number must be both determinate and indeterminate. The things must be thought to make up a determinate number, for they must be just as many as they are (neither more nor fewer); but on the other side their number must also be thought to be indeterminate; for between the separated things there are yet other things, and outside the number of determinate things again a number of determinate things; consequently the number of things becomes infinite, indeterminable, and thereby in itself indeterminate. Since it is now a contradiction to think the number of things both as determinate and as indeterminate, plurality is assumed to be unthinkable." The truth in this is that abstract analysis can go on to infinity: every plurality consists of unities, each of these unities is again to be thought as a plurality with its unities, and so forth. Abstract synthesis likewise goes on to infinity; for the unity in which a plurality is gathered is again a member in a series of several similar unities; if these are now bound together by a new synthesis, we have once more a unity in a new series, and so on. In this respect we must therefore grant the Eleatics their point when they maintain that the number of things will become infinite if a plurality is assumed at all. But the thought of such an infinity stands in no insoluble contradiction with the proposition that the number must also be determinate. For when synthesis is everywhere joined with analysis, every unity becomes determined by *its* plurality, and the number of things in consequence *infinitely determinate*.

Remark 5. If the relation between unity and plurality is considered purely quanti-

tatively, unity is posited as continuity, plurality as discreteness. Every line represents such a continuity, whose discreteness is again to be sought in the line's innumerable points.

§ 3.

Insight, or the Subjective Concept.

If an existing object is also to be an object for a comprehending thinking, its content must let itself be apprehended in the form of *wholeness and parts*. As the whole and its parts are seen mutually to condition and determine each other, questions are thereby called forth about presupposition and consequence, about ground and consequent, and thinking, which now renders to itself an account of the whole complex of determinate relations, shows itself as a *reflection*, whereby the subject comes to a *concept of the thing*, or to an *insight* into the essence and character of things.

The contradiction that lies in the concept of totality itself was brought forward early by the Greek philosophers, just as it also plays an important role throughout the whole history of philosophy, especially with respect to the question of the infinite divisibility of matter. As a contradiction between the simple and the composite it was reduced by Kant to an antinomy, which in turn found its dialectical resolution in the Hegelian logic.

Remark 1. When unity is posited as wholeness, it is thereby expressed that it embraces a multiplicity of single elements, which make up its parts. For sensory consideration the whole shows itself merely as the aggregate of the parts; for intellectual apprehension, on the contrary, the whole is to be determined as the *general* connection of the parts, and the parts as members in the whole's *separate* connection. When the whole is given as presupposition, the character and mutual relation of the parts follow with necessary consequence. Hence it is said in Professor *Sibbern's* explicative logic that by cognizing the whole's *mode of existence* one comes to see into the parts' *ground of existence* (*ratio essendi*). For when something is posited directly in such wise that something else is thereby posited indirectly, the former is called the ground, the latter the consequent; therefore the ground is always the primitive member of the relation, and the consequent its consecutive member.

Remark 2. From the determinate relation between wholeness and parts it is evident that the true thought-vision is a double vision. As the whole is seen immediately, the parts come mediately into view, and conversely. The parts and the whole mirror or reflect one another; hence free, self-conscious thinking has also received the name of *reflection*.

- a) The word reflection is no doubt borrowed proximately from optics; but the natural light is also a copy of the light of thought. There is the same relation between thinking's opposed members as between "two mirrors, of which the one reflects the other's image, and in this reflection reflects its own" (cfr. Professor Heiberg: Grundtræk til Philosophiens Philosophie, Pg. 34).
- b) Reflection is also the expression for the *deliberating and testing* thinking. This signification of the word is derived from the foregoing. Only when the one thought is seen in the light of the other does it become evident how far they can subsist with each other or not.
- c) Finally, reflection can also designate the *reasoning and grounding* thinking; for when two thoughts strive against each other, it becomes a question which of them the subject is to give up, and which to hold fast; this can be decided only by a determinate regard, or by a presupposition that contains the determining ground. The thought of man's freedom, for example, cannot be reconciled with the thought of an inescapable fate: the thinking subject must now hold fast either freedom or fate; if regard is had to conscience and imputability, then the thought of an irresistible fate must be given up; if, on the contrary, regard is had merely to a mechanical necessity of nature, the thought of freedom must vanish. Which regard the subject will take in a given case may in turn depend upon other regards, and so on to infinity. Since every regard contains a partial ground, the thinking that is lost in external regards leads to a reasoning of grounds. Insofar as the actual surrounding world shows us things in their many different combinations and entanglements, reasoning thought becomes necessary in all empirical inquiries. But reasoning thought is nevertheless of finite nature; if it attempts to tear itself loose from given experience, it must end by adducing grounds *pro* and *contra*, without ever reaching the highest and last ground. Only

when all outer regards vanish in one fundamental view does reflecting thought take on a philosophical character, and find the infinite presupposition from which all finite relations can be deduced. From the standpoint of finitude, thinking is thorough when it apprehends the matter in its many different relations, the remoter as well as the nearer; from the standpoint of infinity it is thorough only when it seeks and finds the absolute ground. As it is a philosophical affectation to want to apply the infinite forms of dialectic to the finite content of everyday life, or to disdain a reasoning of grounds where what is in question is an understanding critique or an orientation in practical affairs, so on the other hand it betrays a scientific narrowness to want to make one's way through with a merely reasoning thinking when what is at stake is a cognition of the eternal truths.

Remark 3. The result of reflection carried through is *the concept*, as such, or the proper thought-result. The concept is thus a thought-whole, or a fundamental thought, that lets itself appear in a multiplicity of separate thought-determinations and their mutual connection. If it is now asked where the concept exists, it may in the first place be said to have its existence in the thinking subject's consciousness. The subject sees the object in its different relations, abstracts from it the determinate relations, sunders (analysis) and unites (synthesis) the partial thoughts in their fundamental thought (reflection), and is therefore said to form for itself a *concept of the thing*. But insofar as it is the existing object from which the subjective concept is abstracted, one can also speak of the object's own concept, or of the thought-whole expressed in the object. The difference between the object and its concept is, properly speaking, a difference between its intellectual and its sensory side, which is more closely to be determined as an opposition between the thing's *inner* and its *outer*. The outer is for sense, the inner for thought; hence the subjective *concept of the thing* is also said to be an *insight into the thing* (ἐπιστήμη — νοητόν).

Remark 4. In order to form a concept of those phenomena that come into view piecemeal, without the whole being immediately surveyable, it often becomes necessary to imagine for oneself an intellectual whole, or to set up a *hypothesis*. The cognition to which the hypothesis leads is, however, only finite and relative. Thought hovers between experience and reflection. In empirical respect the hypothesis is

insufficient; for the parts (the outer) *condition* but do not *ground* the whole (the inner), and in intellectual respect the insight rests upon a reasoning of grounds that lacks the sufficient ground. The hypothesis therefore yields only a probability, which must be raised to certainty either by a new experience, which then introduces a new inquiry of thought, or by a deeper insight into the connection's essential ground (the Copernican hypothesis, Newton). What the hypothesis is in relation to the whole, *the conjecture* is in relation to a single member missing in the whole. (Jfr. Sibberns Logik § 23.)

Remark 5. Representational thinking determines the relation between the whole and the parts thus: the whole is posited = the sum of the parts, but greater than any of its single parts. This way of seeing has its full validity so long as only finite magnitudes are in question; but it is wholly insufficient as soon as the inquiries are carried over into the territory of infinity. The spiritualists (Berkeley), who denied the being of matter, appealed to the contradiction that lies in the thought of an infinite divisibility. Matter, according to their contention, cannot exist at all; for since it is thought to consist of infinitely many infinitely small parts, every part must become = the whole. Suppose, for example, a (the part) $< A$ (the whole); by multiplying by ∞ on both sides one obtains $\infty a = \infty A$, and by again dividing both factors by the same magnitude, namely ∞ , there results: $a = A$. The mathematicians' objection, that such an operation is absurd, cannot refute the spiritualists' theory, for it rests precisely upon the admitted absurdity. Equally insufficient is the common remark that in the infinite itself no boundary can be set, and that greatness and smallness must therefore flow together in the fog of infinity; for the task is precisely to let the light of thought disperse this fog, or, in other words, to cognize how the finite and the infinite mutually determine each other. — Still more determinately did the problem come forward in the Kantian critique of reason, where it was reduced to an antinomy lying in the concept of substance:

Thesis: Every composite substance must consist of simple parts. If not, then every part would in turn be composite, and the resolution of the composition would have to be continued until at last the substance came to consist of nothing.

Antithesis: There exists no simple substance. For no composition is possible except in space; now if there were a substance consisting of simple parts, then space itself would have to consist of indivisible parts; but space can be divided to infinity.

The truth in the Kantian antinomy is, as Hegel has also shown, this: that the

thought of a whole always carries with it the thought of parts. When a certain determinate part is separated from its whole, it is itself posited as a whole. The same thing that from one point of view must be regarded as a whole must from another point of view be determined as a part; the relation turns itself about unceasingly, and every finite boundary is annulled. But each time a determinate whole is posited, it enters into a determinate opposition to its parts, so that the finite side of the boundary also comes into view. Everything then depends solely upon the relation itself being more closely determined. The relation between wholeness and parts has a certain likeness to the relation between unity and plurality, continuity and discreteness; nevertheless an essential difference is here to be observed. For when continuity is posited, discreteness has vanished; and when discreteness is posited, continuity is broken off. Continuity and discreteness can be exchanged with each other to infinity, but they do not, properly speaking, reflect each other. This, on the contrary, is the case with the whole and the parts; when the whole is posited, the parts are posited too, and conversely. Hence this relation is called a *relation of reflection* or an *essential relation*.

Remark 6. At its lowest stage, wholeness is a mechanical compositum, which shows us the relation from its finite side. On a higher stage stands the organic whole; hence there is also said to be an infinite relation between life and organism. In its highest development, wholeness is raised to a free totality, a reflected *singleness*, in which the concept coincides entirely with its object. Thus the whole I is present in each of its self-conscious expressions of life, and yet it is a singleness that cannot be divided. As sensation *begins* immediately with the single, so thinking *ends* with the reflected singleness.

§ 4.

The Apriority of the Concept.

Although the subjective concept in its original development is conditioned by experience, it nevertheless reflects its own essential determinations with such independence and consistency (concept-analysis) that it can by no means be a product or empty reflection of experience. Just as little can the world of experience be regarded as a product of the subjective I, although all experience is conditioned by a priori

thinking. Hence formal logic also makes a distinction between *a priori* and *a posteriori* concepts. The *a priori* concepts do not belong merely to the thinking subject, as though they formed an impassable gulf between subjective cognition and objective truth, but express those *general* fundamental forms which do not presuppose special experience, inasmuch as they everywhere find their application to the existing objects and their different relations. On the other side, the *a posteriori* concepts, which are abstracted from the objects met with in experience, must not be thought to stand indifferent to the subjective laws of thought, for thereby they would cease to be true concepts; they are much rather to be regarded as the *separate* forms in which *a priori* thinking recognizes its own peculiar content (normal-concepts).

The infinite interaction between subjective thinking and objective reason presupposes a creative freedom, as the absolute prius, from which all thinking and being have their common origin.

Remark 1. Professor Sibbern, in his explicative logic (2nd edition Pag. 190–200), has distinguished between the *pursuing*, the *general*, and the *pure concept-analysis*. The *pursuing* analysis carries the concept-determinations found in the object out beyond the empirical boundary, by making distinct the consequences lying within them. The *general* concept-analysis finds the concept in the living word, separates the word's original meaning from the derived, shows its kinship with other words (synonymics), thereby discovers the essential requisites of the concept sought, and is thus able not merely to determine but even to correct linguistic usage. The *pure* concept-analysis makes distinct thinking's own categories, and plays a chief role in the objective logic. In all these kinds of concept-analysis it appears that thinking goes out beyond the given, so that the sensualists are wrong in denying its independence.

Remark 2. The critical idealism, which indeed concedes to thinking a subjective apriority, but denies its power to cognize objective truth, and in proof of this appeals to the antinomies, finds its refutation in the dialectical resolution of these antinomies. On the other hand the subjective idealism, which refers the whole objective world-content to the I's infinite apriority, cannot be refuted by the fact that the development of thinking is conditioned by experience, since it is not the world of experience's necessity but its independence that it denies.

Remark 3. The Cartesian principle: *Cogito, ergo sum*, has found its consistent development in the Fichtean "Wissenschaftslehre." The absolute subject, I, can doubt

everything, only not its own thinking and being. The proposition: I *think*, falls immediately together with the proposition: I *am*. The subject cannot think without *being* thinking, and though it should doubt the validity of all single thoughts, it still cannot by any doubt whatever annul the certainty of thinking in general, since in order to doubt all thinking it must necessarily think, and consequently rely upon thinking in the same instant in which it doubts thinking's validity. Whatever does not have this incontestable certainty must fall outside science proper. Since science cannot be an aggregate of loose representations, since one fundamental truth must run through all single truths, all scientific propositions must also let themselves be led back to one irrefragable first principle, and from this in turn be deduced. If now the I has found this general first principle in its own thinking and being, then it has at the same time found the source of truth in itself, and philosophy, the pure science, would then according to this theory be in a position to comprehend the whole of existence in virtue of the supreme first principle, or, in other words, to construct its world *a priori*. The truth in this is that scientific thinking can acknowledge nothing but what the consistency of thought carries with it, and that the necessity with which truth compels from the thinking subject its acknowledgment is the purest touchstone of the certain and the uncertain. But the subjective idealism's constructing *a priori* carries with it nonetheless a one-sidedness that shows itself in several ways (Jacobi's knitting-stockings). The subject, which always has its gaze turned toward the formal I-hood, loses sight of the actual world and its concrete content. Either philosophical knowledge must then be restricted to a small number of abstract truths, or else the philosopher who undertakes to construct nature and history *a priori* will easily be convicted of having insinuated empirical presuppositions contrary to the principle set up. Unsuccessful attempts to construct *a priori* what can be cognized only in experience's *a posteriori* medium have contributed above all else to bringing philosophy into discredit.

Remark 4. The distinction between *a priori* and *a posteriori* concepts refers, according to formal logic, to their source or origin. The simplest form in which such a distinction can be held fast is this, that the *a priori* concepts are said to be *prior* to the things to which they are *applied*; the *a posteriori*, on the contrary, to follow *after the things* from which they are *abstracted*, so that the former have their origin from thinking itself, the latter from experience. But more closely considered, this opposition cannot maintain itself. It has already appeared that the concept of a thing is not to be

sought in its accidental outer, but in its inner, i.e. in its intelligible essentiality. That thinking abstracts its empirical concepts from the objects means then, in other words, that in their determinate essence it recognizes its own original essentiality. Experience is thus no proper source of concepts, but only the means whereby the subject's general thinking is enriched with a thought-content concrete and distinctly stamped in itself. The concept, which with respect to our apprehension may be a posteriori, insofar as a special experience has gone before, is yet with respect to the object itself a priori, since a thing's inner and outer always stand related as the primitive (*dignitate prius*) to the consecutive (*dignitate posterius*). The a priori interaction between the thing's concept and our comprehending thinking comes into view in the development of the so-called *normal-concepts* (jfr. Sibbern § 47). The normal-concept begins *a posteriori*, insofar as its general ground-lines are first discovered in an empirically given object; but it shows itself at the same time from an a priori side, insofar as it at once becomes evident that the actual object does not answer to its demands. This disproportion then leads the subject, thinking through the concept's consequences, to imagine or construct for itself an object so perfect that the intimated concept finds therein its adequate expression. The fruitful application that can in actuality be made of such normative concepts (for example in crystallography) proves clearly that thorough thinking has found the original meaning of things, or, what is the same, that the a priori demands that guide the thinker also govern actuality. All so-called a posteriori concepts, when they are not confused with mere representations or sensory intuitions, are properly to be regarded as special appearances of the universal reason, whose apriority is as objective as it is subjective. With respect to the method of our comprehension, on the other hand, the distinction between a priori and a posteriori concepts may so far have its significance, as it reminds the thinking subject of its finitude and intellectual limitation. Insofar as the concrete concepts are won *a posteriori*, experience must go hand in hand with comprehending thinking; insofar as the a posteriori concepts are the a priori thinking's own types, experience's sporadic content must be purified in the pure, universal dialectic. From the a posteriori side all our cognition is piecemeal, and our thinking discursive; according to comprehension's apriority the piecemeal must in turn be annulled in the scientific ground-cognition. As there must accordingly be empirical sciences, which rest upon the a posteriori and follow their own independent method, so there must necessarily also be a science of the sciences, namely philosophy,

which, according to its peculiar method, aims at cognizing truth in its apriority. The concrete carrying-through of philosophy is won only through experience, and the light that clears up experience streams forth in turn from philosophy.

Remark 5. The question of the subjective concept's relation to empirical actuality transforms itself, in the highest instance, into a problem concerning the relation between *thinking and being*. According to the subjective idealism, real being perishes in formal thinking; according to the crass empiricism (sensualism), free thinking goes to ground in contingent being. Since now each of these theories has shown itself in its one-sidedness; since subjective thinking cannot produce the fullness of existence, and objective existence can only be thought, because it is everywhere subject to the laws of thought, but cannot itself think, since it lacks subjective freedom: the finite opposition between thinking and being must be led back to its original ground-unity. In this primal ground, or original ground, the opposition loses its finitude; for thinking coincides at every point with being, and both are so far equally infinite. But on the other side this infinite unity cannot be without difference either. If thinking and being were in their deepest ground tautological, then the finite separation, which is precisely what is to be explained from the ground, would be without any ground. The result is accordingly this, that the finite, *consecutive* opposition between thinking and being seeks its sufficient, *primitive* ground in their infinite, absolute opposition, i.e. in that concept in which their separation is as infinite as their union, so that their outer difference is transformed into an inner, *living* unity. The absolute Being, which by virtue of its free thinking produces the actual existence, reveals at the same time the reality of its own existence in the product of its creative freedom. At this turning-point the *logical* passes over into the *theological*. Anselm's ontological proof of God's existence is a logical presentation of the absolute concept's infinite apriority. The objections that at different times (Gaunilo—Kant) have been brought against this proof strike not the substance but the form. For the proof's adequate form can properly be carried through only in ontology, or the objective logic.

§ 5.

The Totality of the Concept.

The complex of all determinations belonging to a concept makes up its inner totality or *content*; the number of the existing objects in which the concept finds its expression determines its outer totality or *extension*. With respect to content and extension, concepts have been divided in formal logic into *higher* (*conceptus superiores*) and *lower* (*conceptus inferiores*), such that the former, which have less content but greater extension, comprise the latter under themselves. Since this division applies especially to the natural relation between genus (*genus*) and species (*species*), the superordinate concepts have also generally been called *genus-concepts*, the subordinate *species-concepts*.

The dialectical relation between the concept's inner and outer totality led the Schoolmen of the Middle Ages to a metaphysical inquiry concerning the universality of concepts (*universalia*) and the singleness of things (*res, ens, entitas, hæcceitas*). The nominalists (*universalia post rem*) misjudged the concept's essential apriority; the one-sided realists (*universalia ante rem*) overlooked the *principium individuationis*. The true realism (*universalia in re*) is at the same time the highest idealism (*universalia in mente divina*). The divine thinking, which reflects the absolute concept, is one with the creative omnipotence, which brings forth that actuality in which the concept's inner totality is sundered and transformed into an outer totality of relative concepts, whose existence is posited in and *with* the existing things.

Remark 1. The actual concept is a thought-whole that finds its expression in a corresponding sensory whole; it is an inner that comes forward in its outer. If now the relation between the inner and the outer is to be more closely determined, these principal sides again step apart from each other as separate totalities. The outer, which is sensed but not thought, is indifferent to the inner, which is thought but not sensed; a thing's empirical or palpable outward can never be derived from its concept: the intellectual and the sensibly real are so far to be regarded as incommensurable magnitudes. But on the other side the concept cannot step out into actuality without presupposing a stuff or material in which it is realized and comes into view: every outer must answer to *its* inner, and the object's empirical totality satisfy the concept's demands. If the surrounding world is regarded with a sensory eye, it is wholly without concept; if on the contrary it is regarded with the eye of thought, the concept comes into view in the most various forms. The inadequate relation between concept and actuality makes itself known not merely in the normal-concepts being hindered in their full

emergence (for example, the perturbations of the planets; the human organism's want of perfect health), but shows itself especially in this, that the concept's content, owing to the outer separation of finite things, falls out of itself into so sporadic a multiplicity of partial concepts that subjective reflection is not able to discover their concrete connection. Instead of reducing the partial concepts to moments in the absolute concept's inner totality, subjective thinking sets about grouping them according to the various more abstract or more concrete fundamental forms, and thereby making distinct to itself the concept's outer totality. The *insight* into a concept's essential determinations (content) is laid at the ground of a *survey* of the number of the objects that are subsumed under it (extension). It lies then in the nature of the case that content and extension stand in inverse relation.

Remark 2. If the concepts are compared among themselves with respect to extension, the higher concept cannot be said to contain the lower within itself, just as little as it exhausts all the intellectual determinations of the single thing. The higher and the lower concepts then separate from one another, owing to the objects' outer existence, in such wise that the former, as the more abstract, are indifferent to the latter; they stand to one another as wider and narrower schemata, so that the whole comprehending is reduced to a mere schematizing.

There are cases in which subjective thinking is not able to derive all the object's special concept-determinations from one fundamental determination, but must seek different points of departure for its consideration, and content itself with a combination of several concurrent concepts, each of which belongs to a different sphere. Thus Prof. Sibbern adduces (§ 42) that the intellectual penetration into the nature and essence of the crystallization-forms of a mineral has its own point of support in the mathematical consideration, whereas its investigation in respect of lustre, color, and so on has quite another." Insofar as a fundamental concept's modifications arise from outer concurrences and empirically determined circumstances, they can be overlooked as unessential and indifferent; but what is thus in one respect unessential is, from another point of view, under the presupposition of another fundamental concept, to be regarded as essential, and the various regards and combinations that the empirical pursuit of thought requires do not concern logic as such.

If on the contrary the concepts' own relations are developed, it appears that the higher concepts always have their specific content-determinations in the lower. This is

already expressed when the superordinate concepts are determined as genus-concepts (γένη), the subordinate as species-concepts (εἶδη); for here it holds that every genus must contain its species. Life, regarded as genus-concept, requires not merely a plant-world and an animal-world, but also a human world for its complete expression. Organic nature presents this in such wise that the lower potencies of life, which win a sporadic existence in separate groups of individuals, whose genera and species are in turn relative concept-determinations, make up the basis upon which a higher potency of life develops itself. Thus man has the vegetative and animal life as basis for the rational. The partial appearances in which the concept of life is sundered and realized on the lower stages are gathered up and taken in as moments in the higher totality of human life. The proposition that man shall comprehend his life rests in the presupposition that the concept of life shall be realized in man.

Remark 3. When it is said that the concept, as such, is *the universal*, this proposition acquires an entirely different meaning according as subjective thinking comes to cognition of the universal by an *abstraction* or by a *reduction*. If the universal is held fast by abstraction, then the highest concept is reduced to an empty schema, an intellectual side, a common mark, which serves the reflection that orients itself in the outer multiplicity of things as a mere *ratio cognoscendi*. But when the universal is cognized in its true universality, it is not merely a side of everything, but the essential allness itself, the universal that penetrates everything, actualizes itself in everything, so that all single thoughts, all existing things, must let themselves be reduced to moments in its concrete content. In this sense the general concept is apprehended as the absolute concept, as the ground-unity that contains the *ratio essendi* of all separate concepts.

When it is further said that the concept is the *separate*, it is thereby expressed that multiplicity, difference and opposition belong to its intellectual essentiality, that the specific peculiarities and changing modifications (διαφορὰ, ἴδιον, συμβεβηκός) whereby things separate themselves from one another fall under thinking's point of view. Yet in this respect too it makes an essential difference whether the subject comes to cognition of separateness by mere *comparison* or by an immanent *deduction*. For the outer comparison the separate concepts fall apart from one another, so that their existence must be sought in the sporadic groups of objects, and *combination* unites them according to various regards. Universality is here again the empty schema. Deduction,

on the contrary, presupposes the fundamental concept's concrete universality, from which all separate concepts and concept-moments are derived. According to outer comparison there is an innumerable host of partial concepts; according to deduction the general concept is itself sundered into its separate determinations, and thereby completed in a *logical concept-system*. The more comprehensive the deduction is, the more it can make mere comparison and combination superfluous, the higher lies the concept's sphere, and the deeper is the insight.

When it is finally said that the concept itself is the *single*, a distinction must be made between the *sensory* and the *intellectual*, between the *immediate* and the *reflected* singleness. That the sensory singleness (that is to say here, the object in its merely empirical wholeness) does not as such concern the concept has already been shown in the foregoing, and becomes still more evident when we determine more closely the relation between the species-concept and its individuals. In relation to the genus, the species-concept is posited as a *separate* concept, in which the genus-concept's general content is specified; in relation to its individuals, the species-concept must on the contrary be developed into a single concept specified within itself, which as such is indifferent to the sensory singleness. The distinction Porphyry (in his introduction to the Aristotelian categories) has made between γένος, εἶδος, ἴδιον on the one side and διαφορὰ, συμβεβηκός on the other — that the former, namely, are used of a thing's "Qvidität" (ἐν τῷ τί ἐστι κατεγορεῖται), the latter of its "Qvalitet" (ἐν τῷ ὁποῖόν τί ἐστι κατ.) — is a merely empirical distinction, which falls away when comprehending thinking is carried through. The peculiar (τὸ ἴδιον) is just as much a qualitative as a "quidditative" determination, and the intellectual difference (ἡ διαφορὰ) is itself the moment whereby the transition is made from the genus-concept to its species-concept. The specification therefore cannot stop before the species-concept is absolutely individualized; but such a *species infima* is a single concept that maintains itself in the changing exemplars, insofar as these are apprehended merely from the sensory side. — Since now the genus-concept is always foundation for the species-concept, and this in turn is specified until the rational individuation is completed, the universal (the genus) and the separate (the species) merge into the concept's intellectual singleness (the logical individual).

The universal, the separate and the single concept are then, in consequence, not to be regarded as three sorts of concepts, since they much rather present the concept

reflected in absolute thinking from three principal sides; but just as little is their distinction an empty, formal one; for in finite existence they fall apart from one another under innumerable modifications and relations, and shape themselves into a world of real concepts.

Remark 4. Since the actual world presents itself at once both as an infinite complex of empirical objects, in which the concept is lost, and at the same time as an intellectual world, i.e. as a world of concepts, in which the sensory things vanish as indifferent magnitudes: there arises the metaphysical problem whether the reality of concepts is primarily to be sought in things, or the reality of things in concepts. While Plato declared himself especially for the latter, Aristotle on the contrary approached the former of these views, and Porphyry (Εἰσαγωγή: first section) puts the problem in the following terms: αὐτίκα περὶ γενῶν τε καὶ εἰδῶν, τὸ μὲν εἴτε ὑφέστηκεν, εἴτε καὶ ἐν μόναις ψιλαῖς ἐπινοίαις κεῖται, εἴτε καὶ ὑφεστηκότα σώματά ἐστιν, ἢ ἄσώματα, καὶ πότερον χωριστὰ, ἢ ἐν τοῖς αἰσθητοῖς, καὶ περὶ ταῦτα ὑφεστῶτα, παραιτήσομαι λέγειν, βαθυτάτης οὔσης τῆς τοιαύτης πραγματείας. Through the whole Middle Ages philosophy proper was occupied almost exclusively with the solution of this problem. The crass nominalism confused the concept's existence with the sensory singleness, negated the reality of concepts, and posited them as empty schemata (*nomina, flatus vocis*). The one-sided realism went to the opposite extreme, annulled the intellectual singleness, in that it wanted to negate the independence of the sensory things, and placed reality in the general fundamental forms and unchangeable types. The one-sidedness of both theories was demonstrated by Abelard. The fundamental thought in Abelard's demonstration is this, that neither party is able to give any true definition of the essence of a thing. The nominalists could not define, because they held fast the single without acknowledging the universal. For since definition rests upon an essential difference between *genus* and *species*, every nominalist definition that denies this difference must be wholly indifferent. If the concept *animal* is a mere *nomen*, then the concept *animal rationale* is also only a *nomen*, and the difference between beast and man consequently purely nominal. Just as little could the one-sided realists arrive at any true definition; for since they overlooked singleness, they had to confine themselves in every proposition to predicating the universal of the universal, whereby the concept's determinateness was wholly lost. If the man in Socrates, for example, were also man in all other individuals, then it would follow that the whole of mankind

must be sick every time Socrates was sick. These extremes the medieval philosophers, with all their reasoning acumen, could not reconcile. As realism developed itself to an acknowledgment of individuation, it had to seek the concepts' existence in things, and thus came to set up the theory of *universalia in re*. But when the existence of concepts and of things immediately coincides, thinking must again begin with singleness, and abstract the concept from the thing. The concept in its intellectual purity thus has validity only for abstracting and reflecting thought. The doctrine of *universalia in re* led in this way to the doctrine of *universalia in mente nostra*, whereby the developed realism passed over into a higher nominalism. The true yield of the Schoolmen's inquiries is the recognition that the concept's all-sided existence requires an intellectual as well as a sensuous medium. With intellectual freedom the concept exists only in comprehending thought (*in mente*); with immediate actuality it first comes forward in its sensory material (*in re*). But if its reflected being *in mente* is now to let itself be reconciled with its immediate existence *in re*, then both these extremes must seek their original ground in the divine thinking, which is one with the creative productivity. The theory of the empirical realism, that the concept exists *in re*, must then be raised to the truth that it is actualized by the comprehending omnipotence, which is the free cause of things; and the nominalist proposition, that *universalia* exist merely *in mente nostra*, subordinated to that proposition which is idealism's highest expression: that they exist *in mente divina*. Thus the subjective logic points once more to the objective.



Second Chapter.

The Presentation of the Subjective Concept: the Logical Judgment.

§ 6.

The Logical Form of the Judgment.

Language is the intellectual medium in which the thinking subject possesses its own concept-content and that of the surrounding world; hence the concept's rational purity and freedom can first be presented in words and sentences. Since no sentence may be meaningless, the concept is already discernible in every intelligible utterance; but if the meaning, as the merely represented concept, is to be expressed in the concept's own form, then the sentence itself must be transformed into a logical judgment. As the judgment's *single concept* (the subject) is subsumed by the copula "is" under its *general concept* (the predicate), *separateness*, or the determinate concept, comes into view in the difference and unity of the two. The unity of subject and predicate is an *identity*, which as such contains its difference; but since this difference is in turn different from the identity, *contradiction* enters.

The development of the mutual relation and logical significance of the principle of identity and the principle of contradiction affords one of the most essential points of dispute between the formal and the speculative logic.

Remark 1. Every object that answers to its concept can at the same time be said to *present* the concept. The simplest way in which a thinking subject can show that it has some concept of the thing will thus be to point out the objects in which the concept is to be sought. This mimic presentation is, however, highly imperfect, and proves that the subject has not got beyond "the general representation" and "the clear and distinct intuition." Hence it is also a criterion of merely representational thinking that it more easily produces an example than an adequate definition. — The concept is appropriated with greater freedom when it is possessed as guiding norm for an independent construction. The so-called "construction-concepts" (jfr. Sibberns Logik Pg. 137–163) may properly be said to lie on the boundary between theory and practice. The presentation of the concept here coincides immediately with its actualization. But the mechanical productions, considered in and for themselves, are only ambiguous testimonies of subjective insight, since bees, artisans and automata can up to a certain point present the concept in the same style. Of thoroughgoing significance, on the contrary, is the distinction between the artistic and the scientific, the plastic and the logical presentation of the concept's content. The plastic presentation keeps closest to *universalia in re*, the logical closest to *universalia in mente*. The artist, whose thoughts are intellectual visions, expresses the concept *in concreto* by presenting its image. That the concept really is in movement during artistic production is evident from the fact

that art's ideals can be developed in the theory of art, so that aesthetics constitutes an integral member in the system of philosophy. But the plastic presentation of the concept's content shows nonetheless its specific difference from the logical in this, that the artist's genial productivity by no means rises in the same degree as his reflecting cognition of the concept of art develops. The more sensuous art's material is, the more indifferently can it stand toward science; the more intellectual, on the contrary, the artistic medium shows itself, the more distinctly will the interaction between the logical and the plastic presentation come into view. Hence poetry enters into the most inward relation to philosophy; for poetry is the art of the word, and the word is the medium not only of intuition and representation, but also of thought and the concept.

Remark 2. In Plato's dialogue "Cratylus" the problem is treated whether the word, as such, is originally to be regarded as a natural copy of the thing (μίμημα), or perhaps rather as an arbitrary sign (θέσει); this is, in other words, the question whether language may be assumed to be a mere product of nature, or a means of communication chosen by common agreement. This inquiry concerning the origin of language concerns logic only insofar as the relation between the thinking subject's receptivity and spontaneity, between word and thought, representation and concept, hereby receives a closer determination. The Heraclitean view, that the sound of the word is originally a sensory imitation of the thing, corresponds to the sensualist theory of the *tabula rasa*. The soul, whose self-activity is lost in feeling and receptivity, is regarded as an instrument whose tones are produced by the impressions of the surrounding world, and the word is confused with the immediate sound of nature, which the beast has in common with man. The Democritean and sophistic theory of the understanding, which denies language's nature-side, is akin to the formal idealism, and moves in a tautological circle. The arbitrary choice of the word presupposes a reflection, but reflection in turn presupposes language, for all thinking is a speaking with oneself. In order to reach an agreement concerning an intellectual means of communication, the individuals would already have to be in possession of a means of communicating their thoughts to one another. The origin of language points to an immediate unity of sensation and thinking, a living interaction between the subjective and the objective reason, and can therefore, in logical generality, be regarded as a spiritual product of nature, which in the development of culture is more and more penetrated by free reflection. While Plato especially brings out language's nature-side,

Aristotle on the contrary urges the culture-side, and regards every noun as a free designation (φωνή σημαντική κατὰ συνθήκην) of the representation in which the soul holds fast the image of a determinate object. The single principal words of language can therefore be apprehended from a double point of view: partly they are to be seen as involuntary signs (τῶν ἐν τῇ ψυχῇ παθημάτων σύμβολα), to which the imagination has bound the images of things; partly they are reflection's own thought-symbols, in which it unceasingly hovers between representation and concept. It is often the case that a concept does not break through, and come to clear development, because it lacks its corresponding word — just as, conversely, the most primitive and pregnant expressions gradually fade and lose their freshness when the thought-content whose bearers they originally were is diluted and trivialized. (Philosophical root-words, categories — phrases.)

Remark 3. Every word carries a representation with it; but the word standing alone gives as yet no meaning. Meaning first arises when the word that immediately designates the thing's existence (the noun) is joined with another (the verb), which expresses its being and the utterance of its existence. Such a combination of words is a *sentence*, which again can be considered from the grammatical and from the logical side. From the logical point of view, the same relation obtains between the mere sentence and the judgment proper as between meaning and concept. As the subject in the sentence may be an accidental representation, so also the predicate may express a merely passing determination without the stamp of universal validity. Sentences such as: the boy plays, the snow melts, &c., cannot therefore without further ado be reckoned among the logical judgments. The formal mark whereby the judgment distinguishes itself from the mere sentence is not primarily to be sought in the subject, but rather in the copula and the predicate. If the thing is held fast in its immediate utterance or appearance, the copula can be contained in language's many different active, passive and neuter verbs (cryptic sentences). But if predication, as an act of thinking, is to come forward with logical universality, then it is at once evident that everything that can be affirmed or denied of a given object must in the last instance refer to being and not-being. Since now the sentence: *A is*, can be opposed both by: *A was*, and by: *A is not*, it follows that the copula "is" must distinguish itself from the verb in this, that tenses and moods lose their significance in the logical present of the position. As for the predicate, it belongs to its essence to express the universal, as

such. Hence such utterances as: the rose is red, the negro is black, &c., are likewise not to be regarded outright as judgments proper, although from the side of form there is nothing to object. Everything here depends upon the significance that is ascribed to the grammatical predicates red, black, &c.; if these are apprehended merely as immediate sense-determinations, then the utterances named are only sentences; if on the contrary they are *thought* as universal determinations in opposition to the subjects' singleness, then we have the judgments proper. That the predicate presents the concept's universality must not be understood as though it could express the concept only *in abstracto*, while the subject gave it *in concreto*. In such judgments as: "Man is rational," "The beast is living," the predicate is certainly more abstract than the subject, but precisely for that reason these judgments are not to be regarded as the concept's adequate expression either. In adequate judgments, subject and predicate have the same content (for example, God is the absolute Spirit). The reason why the subject is nevertheless apprehended as single concept, the predicate as general concept, is this, that the subject refers proximately to representation, while the predicate refers to thought. Insofar as the represented concept is at the same time possessed as a concept set out in existential immediacy, the subject expresses its *universale in re*, which the predicate in turn annuls in reflection, and posits as *universale in mente* (Stilpo's cabbage). With respect to the concrete subject, the concept's universal determinations are concentrated into immediate singleness; with respect to the developed predicate, the single concept's content is reflected through into pure universality. Both principal sides of the concept are thus each for itself posited as the whole concept, and yet these two are, by means of the copula "is," united in one positing, which expresses the mutual and thereby separate determinateness of both. This separateness comes into view in every judgment; for when it is said that the rose is red, there is just as much talk of the red rose as of the rose-red.

Remark 4. In every judgment the predicate is to declare *what* the subject is. Insofar as the judgment is not entirely adequate, the subject may well contain more determinations than the predicate; but this difference does not annul the likeness between subject and predicate, insofar as the determinations falling outside the predicate must in all such cases be assumed to fall outside the judgment as well. To hold fast the unity of subject and predicate, formal logic has set up the so-called principle of identity: *A is A, every thing is what it is*. But on the other side the predicate must nevertheless add a

new determination to the subject, or at the least render the determination in a new form; he who asks what *A* is cannot be satisfied with the answer that *A* is *A*, for that he knew already beforehand. By urging the formal principle of identity, the Megarian Stilpo contested all judgments proper. One could not, in his opinion, say: "The horse runs;" for "horse" and "to run" are not identical, since the same predicate is ascribed also to dogs and lions. Nor could one think the sentence: "Man is good," for "good" and "man" are not the same, since the predicate "good" is predicated also of bread and medicine (Poul Møllers efterladte Skrifter, 2det Bind Pg. 383). Formal logic therefore also concedes that every thing must be determined by its relations to other things, that identity as such contains difference, that he who directly declares what the thing is thereby also indirectly declares what it is *not*. But as the subject's identity with itself passes over, by means of the predicate, into difference, thinking must at the same time negate every difference that will not merge into the identity, and thereby hold fast the *agreement* between subject and predicate. To this end logic sets up its formal *principle of contradiction*: "*A* is not that which *A* is not;" or: "No thing is that which it is not, and is not that which it is;" or: "No thing can have predicates that contradict the thing;" or: "All pursuit of thought shall be consistent;" or: "The contradictory is at the same time the unthinkable." What the principle of identity is in the positive form, the principle of contradiction is in the negative. The formal advance consists in this, that the predicate's agreement with the subject, which according to the fundamental proposition of identity is assumed as immediately being, becomes reflected through by the application of the principle of contradiction, and that subjective thinking has found in this reflection its proper touchstone.

Remark 5. As the contradiction is the logical sting that wakes thinking from its slumber, and stimulates it to independent activity, so all true thinking also aims at overcoming and annulling the contradiction, in order to come again to rest and thorough satisfaction. Could thinking find rest in the unresolved contradiction, then black would be white, the circle four-cornered, truth a lie, the good evil, and the highest philosophy a sophistical deception. When the polemic between the defenders of the formal and of the speculative logic has at times taken on the appearance as though the former merely wished to exclude the contradiction, the latter to adopt it, this tension rests only upon a misunderstanding, which a closer consideration must make disappear. In formal respect, each of the contending parties is compelled to

concede to the contradiction the same significance. The defenders of formal logic must necessarily take the contradiction up into their thinking, immerse themselves in it, in order to be able to contest it. For it is not with the contradiction as with an outward enemy, whom the well-informed can avoid and thereby escape the danger; the contradiction pursues the thinker at every step, so that the true development of thought, as regards its formal consistency, consists precisely in contradicting the contradiction everywhere, or, what is the same, that all thorough thinking goes through sheer contradictions. On the other side, the speculative logic cannot defend the contradiction without also attacking it. For it wants precisely to prove that formal logic, by setting up its principle of contradiction and denying the contradiction its logical right, makes itself guilty of an indefensible contradiction. Regarded from the purely formal side, the inquiry is thus rather unfruitful; but the main thing is that the difference between the logic of the understanding and the speculative logic of reason be clearly and determinately apprehended. This real difference will come more closely into view when, from the double standpoint of the doctrine of thought, we consider: a) the concept of the contradiction, b) its relation to the thinking consciousness, and c) its scientific solution.

a) When the concepts are placed under the point of view of finitude, they can be separated by determinate definitions, and the rule holds that they must not be confounded; if on the contrary they are regarded in the light of infinity, then the one concept must be completed by the other, since every isolated concept-determination is defective and one-sided. This double way of seeing leads us to a determinate distinction between the *superficial* and the *thorough* contradiction. To confuse the like with the unlike, unity with multiplicity, or the whole with the parts, is to make oneself guilty of a superficial contradiction; but he who proves that likeness cannot be without unlikeness, that the concept of unity contains that of multiplicity, thereby points out the thorough contradiction. The difficulty of breaking down representation's finite and immediate barriers, without at the same time volatilizing the concepts' essential difference, stood clear before the Greek philosophers, who recognized how easily a dialectical ἀδολεσχία passes over into φλυαρία.

b) It lies then in the nature of the case that formal logic, which apprehends the

concepts in their finite relations, must polemicize against the contradiction and regard it as a fault in subjective thinking, while the speculative logic on the contrary refers the contradiction to existence's own ambiguity, and sets a considerable strength of thought in drawing it forth. As formal logic makes only a *critical* application of the contradiction, it proceeds from the presupposition that what contains a contradiction cannot exist. But that this way of seeing is insufficient is already evident from the fact that the thinking of the understanding, under the most various turns, has had to admit to itself that the very highest truths (creation, freedom) appear to it contradictory and incomprehensible. The speculative logic, which makes an *architectonic* use of the contradiction, can on the contrary employ it as a guide from the one sphere of existence to the other. In Plato's philosophical wonder, in the mystics' spirited paradoxes, in the Kantian antinomies, we everywhere sense the contradiction's dialectical pulse-beat. Without a philosophical problem there is no philosophical productivity; but to pose the true problem is, in other words, to apprehend the thorough contradiction.

- c) The fundamental proposition of formal logic: *Diversi respectus tollunt contradictionem*, must in the speculative logic be converted into: *Diversi respectus faciunt contradictionem*. To solve the contradiction by the help of *diversi respectus* is the same as to let the different regards fall away from one another and lose themselves in a reasoning of grounds; to reduce *diversi respectus* to their contradiction, in order to let them vanish in the deeper fundamental view, is to seek the absolute ground. Formal logic, which merely teaches us to think *about* the objects, takes these as they are given, and ascribes to things an existence closed in itself and indifferent to our subjective movements of thought. Under this presupposition it has its complete validity that the matter in question must be posited as τὸ αὐτό and regarded κατὰ τὸ αὐτό, πρὸς τὸ αὐτό, ἐν τῷ αὐτῷ χρόνῳ. But if it is already a questionable matter that the last of these demands properly cannot be fulfilled at all, since every Now unceasingly vanishes, then it is a still more essential defect that the subject, which sets the one regard up beside the other in order to hold fast an incessant *idem per idem*, must remain standing at consideration and description, without reaching thinking proper.

The speculative logic, which thinks through the genetic development of things and concepts, must therefore unceasingly set its paradox against the vulgar tautology. It is not denied that something, insofar as it is posited as one, is regarded from another point of view than when it is posited as several; or that what is determined as ground is determined according to another regard than when the same is determined as consequent. But what is most determinately denied is that these regards should fall indifferently apart from one another. There is *both* identity and difference; but both proceed from one and the same ground; the mere identity without difference is just as contradictory as the mere difference without identity; there is identity *because* there is difference; the determination that hits the identity hits also the difference: the identity is determined *as* difference. There is in the judgment *both* a subject *and* a predicate; but the subject is what the predicate is, precisely *because* subject and predicate are *not* the same. In the unceasing advance of thought and existence, or in the living movement, lies then the true solution of the contradiction.

§ 7.

The Logical Content of the Judgment.

Since the judgment has the significance of being the concept's logical presentation, it follows that its formal development cannot be separated from the concept's content. Insofar as the single judgment, considered in and for itself, expresses only a partial thought-result, it presents the concept only from a certain side, and the many isolated judgments can therefore be classified according to very different regards. Formal logic has divided the judgments: a) according to *quality* into: affirmative, negative and infinite; b) according to *quantity* into: singular, particular and general; c) according to *relation* into: categorical, hypothetical and disjunctive; d) according to *modality* into: assertoric, problematic and apodictic judgments. But these divisions have logical worth only insofar as they also show the gradual rising of insight and of the power of judgment.

By the help of the logical judgments, the speculative logic develops the concept's own inner and outer Sunderings or *diremptions*.

Remark 1. That the judgment is more than a merely subjective act of thinking, by which reflection satisfies itself without regard to objective being, is already expressed by the copula. Nevertheless, the separation and union of subject and predicate, as it takes place in the judgment, is not a movement that existence itself realizes: the immediately existing concept passes no judgment upon itself; the act of judging goes on in the thinking consciousness. Only the thought concept is as such the judgment's content; but this is in turn identical with the concept that is, or exists. Hence every judgment's logical dignity must be determined as well by the power of judgment it requires in the subject as by the objective concept-content it presents. It is then self-evident that the judgment's logical content must indeed be distinguished from its matter or empirical content. In such judgments as: Caius is a man, Pasop is a dog, the matter is indeed different, but the logical content still the same.

Remark 2. The qualitative judgment posits the thing as subject and the property as its predicate: the rose is red: the single is the universal. This identity of the single and the universal is as yet quite abstract, and therefore passes over into an equally abstract difference. The red rose is immediately determined by its color; but partly the rose itself can be thought to exist with another color, and still be a rose; partly the color can be met with in other objects, and still be red: the cheek is red, the wine is red, and so forth. In the qualitative judgments a contradiction therefore comes into view, which has its ground as much in existence as in thinking. As regards existence, the one thing is always determined in relation to the other; what the one object is in and for itself, it is in relation to the other, and it is for that reason continually subject to change: "At this moment the water is solid, in the next moment fluid," "The leaf that is now green will in some time be yellow." The existing subject unceasingly changes predicates, and the transience of things shows itself as an unbroken hovering between *being* and *not-being*. In consequence, judging thought must likewise move between *affirmation* and *negation*, and separate the judgments of quality into *positive* and *negative*. This separation, however, when more closely regarded, is no proper division; for the positive judgment shows itself in its abstract positivity just as one-sided and untrue as the abstractly negative. The single (the concrete thing with all its properties) cannot be immediately identical with the abstractly universal (the single property). The positive judgment can therefore be resolved a) into two tautological sentences: the single is single, the universal is universal, and β) into two superficial

contradictions: the single is a universal, and the universal is a single. Just as little can the merely negative judgment be isolated from the positive. When it is said: the rose is red, it is still presupposed that it has a color. As the negative judgment negates a determinate species-concept, this always happens under the presupposition that the genus-concept lying at the ground can be determined in another species. If on the contrary the single is held so isolated that the genus-concept is negated together with the species-concept, then the judgment itself falls outside the concept's sphere: the so-called *infinite* judgments (conscience is no elephant; reason is not four-cornered) are only thoughtless sentences. That the positive and the negative judgment must reflect each other is evident also from the fact that only a very slight degree of the power of judgment is needed in order to utter them each by itself; whereas the proper insight into the concept's essence rests precisely on this, that he who directly passes the positive judgment has the negative *in mente*, or conversely is conscious that the negative judgment holds only in virtue of the positive.

From the standpoint of the speculative logic, the judgment of quality shows itself as the existing concept's own diremption (Hegel: *Das Urtheil des Daseyns*). The existing things pass away; only the concepts in their universality endure: *the single, which is a universal*, is dissolved and vanishes in the stream of universality. But *the universal is also a single*: the concept expresses its existence in the change of things; hence single existence is reproduced just as unceasingly as it vanishes. — This diremption of the concept casts a new light upon the strife of the nominalists and the realists. The crass nominalists apprehended the qualitative judgment according to its immediate content, and thereby came to posit a multiplicity of subjects (*res*) without predicates; the one-sided realists, who kept to the judgment's abstract form, dissolved existence into an aggregate of predicates (fluttering *universalia*) without determinate subjects (*res*).

Remark 3. The qualitative judgment declares that the universal is to be sought in the single, that the predicate "*inheres in*" its subject, while on the other side it is recognized that the subject is to be subsumed under its predicate. Schematizing thought therefore undertakes to test the predicate's extension by determining the number of the subjects. This test is instituted in the judgments of *quantity*: "*This single, some singles, all singles are comprised under the universal.*" But such a counting-up has only a faint shadow of comprehension to show; reflection loses its way in an outward comparison

between the universal and the single. If the quantitative judgment is to carry with it any true advance in the cognition of the concept, then the comparison must pass over into a subsuming reflection, whereby the judgment itself is to be characterized as a *comprehensive* or *comprising* judgment. According to the qualitative judgment, the subject is immediately set out as the substrate (ὑποκείμενον) to which the predicate attaches; the predicate, which is chosen immediately, must therefore run through the reflection of affirmation and negation. But hereby it takes on a stamp of essential self-validity, which is presupposed in the comprehensive judgment, whose subjects are comprised — singly, partially or generally — under their predicate. Hence Hegel calls attention to the fact that the predicates adduced in examples of the comprehensive judgment (“Das Urtheil der Reflexion”) must be of another kind than those suited to quality. Such sentences as: man is mortal, things are useful, and so on, can serve as examples. The power of judgment that the comprehensive judgment requires can be determined as merely reflecting: through the subjects’ separate groups thought glimpses the predicate’s essential universality. The concept itself hereby comes into view as the *relation* of the existing things. But this relation has a double side, since it is both changeable, as the things’ phenomena, and at the same time unchangeable, as the things’ essence. If the relation is apprehended from its unchangeable side, the concept is determined as the things’ law, from which there is no exception; if on the contrary the relation is regarded from the point of view of changeableness, the concept is abstracted as existence’s rule, from which there are now more, now fewer exceptions. In the merely comprehensive judgment the latter way of considering is the predominant one: universality is determined only as allness, and the general is not yet posited as the true universal (empiricism).

Remark 4. The division of the judgments according to their *relation* has the logical significance that the general (the collective universality) is developed into true universality, whereby the relation between the genus-concept and its species-concepts is essentially determined. The categorical judgment’s predicate expresses the subject’s inner nature and essence. The comprehensive sentence: All speaking animals are men, first finds its true form in the categorical utterance: The speaking animal is, as such, man; whereby thinking presses through the empirical mark into the concept’s essence, and finds the thing’s category. If the categorical judgment’s content is developed further, herein lies that the thing cannot express its immediately determinate concept

(its species) without answering to its category (i.e. its essential general concept, the genus). This relation is expressly brought out in the *hypothetical* judgment's different forms: If *A* is, then *B* is; if *A* is *B*, then *C* must be *D*, and so on. In this development, experience passes over into insight and comprehension proper. The fact vanishes in its contingency, for the question is not primarily whether *A* or *B* actually exists; but thought's law is raised to existence's norm; for it is expressly recognized that an *A* that cannot be *thought* without *B* cannot *be* without *B* either. — The real and the intellectual connection are posited in their essential unity; but this identity, when more closely regarded, again leaves an essential contradiction behind. Although *B* is posited in and with *A*, *A* and *B* are still by no means the same. According to pure thinking they stand to each other as ground and consequent, cause and effect, but this relation is as yet wholly formal; according to their existence they fall immediately apart from each other, and stand as *the condition* to *the conditioned*. Reflection, which still hovers between the fact's contingency and the thought-law's necessity, seeks an unconditioned as foundation for all mutual conditions. This foundation thinking first wins in the *disjunctive* judgment: *A* is either *B* or *C*, and so on. The subject *A* now expresses the genus-concept in its concrete universality, while the genus's determinate species are separately posited in the predicate: "Man is (according to sex) either man or woman." The essential relation between the genus and its species thus finds its logically all-sided expression in the disjunctive judgment. As the species-concepts taken together are subordinated to the genus-concept, they show themselves at the same time as mutually coordinated. The disjunction consists in this, that the species-concepts exclude one another, because they, each for itself, are the genus's contentful appearances; they are thus *contrary because they are contradictory*, and contradictory because they are contrary.

That the *division* of the judgment, when apprehended from a speculative standpoint, is a concept-sundering or *primal division* (*Ur=Deling*), is according to relation wholly evident. In order to make *the absolute* comprehensible, Schelling ("Philosophie und Religion," Pag. 11–13) has therefore also availed himself of relation's forms. "The first form in which absoluteness can be posited is the categorical." But since the absolute, as such, is *neither infinite nor finite, neither ideal nor real, neither subjective nor objective*, the productive intuition must step in and fill the negative reflection's emptiness. "The second form for the absolute's appearance in reflection is the hypothetical." When a

subject and an object are, then the absolute is the identical essence of both. Subject and object *condition* each other, but the absolute is their *unconditioned* foundation, their positive unity regarded *sub specie æternitatis*. “The third form in which reflection likes to express the absolute, and which is especially known through *Spinoza*, is the disjunctive.” There is only one substance, but this can be regarded either as purely ideal or as immediately real. Just because the absolute substance, according to the disjunctive judgment, is either wholly subjective or wholly objective, therefore it is, according to the categorical form of expression, neither the one nor the other.

Remark 5. The comprehensive judgment presents the concept’s content in *empirical* sunderings; the disjunctive reduces the empirical content to a moment in the concept’s *logical* sunderings. The intellectual world and the real world must accordingly be measured by each other: the thought concept must have its existence, and every existing thing must in turn answer to its concept. This relation, totalized in itself, is now further illuminated as we consider the division of the judgments according to their *modality*. The *assertoric* judgment expresses the obtaining relation between thing and concept in a wholly immediate way: “The house is well built; the plan is excellent; the treatise is scientific.” But what in one respect answers to the concept can in another respect deviate from it. Against the simple affirmation stands the straightforward denial, and the judgment becomes *problematic*. The problem thus developed can now neither be solved by a merely empirical demonstration, since all actuality must be valued according to the concept, nor by a merely formal operation of thought, since the merely thought concept to which no actuality corresponds is just as untrue as a merely palpable actuality that contradicts its concept. The insight that actuality has its truth in the concept, or what is the same, that the concept completed in its own inner consistency has found its corresponding outer, is presented in the *apodictic* judgment.

As the difference between the thought concept (*universale in mente*) and the existing concept (*universale in re*) comes into view in modality, so modality in turn can be apprehended from a subjective and an objective standpoint. — It is characteristic of the Kantian philosophy that it regards the categories of modality as “the postulates of empirical thinking” (jfr. *Kritik der reinen Vernunft*, Pag. 217–223), whose determinations do not concern the object at all, but fall wholly within the thinking subject’s own reflection. What agrees with experience’s formal conditions is *possible*;

what is in connection with its material conditions is *actual*; what finally is determined according to the essential unity of both kinds of conditions is *necessary*. By the help of the problematic, assertoric and apodictic judgments Kant measured the certainty of human cognition, and determined the logical relation between *opining*, *faith* and *knowledge*. What is true in the Kantian theory is that the concept can, without regard to its material existence, have a purely logical existence in the subjective consciousness (*universale in mente*); but the system's nominalist limitation shows itself in this, that the absolute concept, whose infinite validity, grounded in the divine thinking (*universale in mente divina*), is apodictic, is confused with the relative concepts, which have an abstract being *in mente nostra*, and whose real existence must therefore always be regarded as problematic, until experience brings a decisive certainty. — Hegel has therefore rightly transformed the division of the modality-judgments into the concept's own primal division (Das Urtheil des Begriffs). The fundamental thought herein is that a concept that exists only in our own consciousness does not deserve the name of true concept. It is then either a mere representation, an imaginary magnitude, of which the imagination can produce as many as you please, or else an abstract side of the concept, which consequently has not yet been sufficiently thought through. When the judgment is adequate, and the diremption complete, the predicate, which posits the concept's concrete universality, must have the same content as the subject, which presents its immediate singleness. The whole concept has, according to the predicate, a reflected-through, logical inwardness (*in mente*): this is the concept's infinite ideality and freedom; but, according to the subject, the whole concept is at the same time posited in a corresponding, outer actuality (*in re*), which makes up its determinate reality. The diremption is thus driven to its utmost boundary; but since subject and predicate have now also expressly won the same content, the copula itself is developed into a full, real being, in which the concept's extremes join together into concrete unity.

§ 8.

The Logical Totality of the Judgment.

Formal logic has further divided the judgments: a) with respect to the real nexus of subject and predicate, into *analytic* and *synthetic*; b) with respect to the mutual

agreement of the different sentences, into: α) *agreeing* (*propositiones consentientes*) and β) *conflicting* (*prop. oppositæ*) judgments, such that the former again, according to their subdivisions, are either *identical* (*pares, æquipollentes*), *super=* and *subordinate* (*subordinatæ*) or *coordinate* (*coordinatæ*), the latter partly *contradictory*, partly *contrary*.

Since every judgment's content must always be explicated by the help of another judgment, the speculative logic regards all *single* judgments as moments in *the judgment's* — i.e. the concept-sundering's — *own logical totality*.

Remark 1. By examining how we come from a judgment's subject to its predicate, it may appear partly that the subject according to its concept already contains the predicate, partly that a special experience is presupposed in order to join the predicate to its subject. In the first case the judgment is called *analytic*, because one needs only to make distinct to oneself (analyze) the subject's content in order to find the predicate; in the latter case, on the contrary, *synthetic*, since predicate and subject must each be sought for itself as separate concepts, which first upon a logical deliberation let themselves be united. A closer consideration shows, however, that it stands with this division as with all the rest; it too has only a relative validity. The true analytic judgment is already as such synthetic, since every predicate must join a new determination to its subject; likewise every synthetic judgment is analytic, since the predicate's union with the subject would lack all ground if it did not consistently follow from the subject's peculiar character. Without the analytic development, comprehension proper would be wholly wanting; without the application of synthesis, thinking could make no advance (Kant: Erleuterungs= und Erweiterungsurtheile). As the analytic judgments most nearly express pure thinking, so the synthetic belong chiefly under experience's field of vision; but the infinite unity of both lies at the ground of true scientific cognition. As synthesis refers to representation and the intellectual intuition, so analysis refers to reflection and the pure insight; where synthesis most nearly presupposes difference and opposition, analysis rests on identity and contradiction. The sentence: The ground has a consequent, looks at first glance like a purely synthetic judgment. The ground and the consequent are represented each for itself, just as in the sentence: The door has a lock, one first represents to oneself the door, then the lock, and finally grasps them both in their union. But if the joining of subject and predicate is to express something more than a mere fact, then the synthesis must proceed from an analysis. That the latter sentence is hard to transform into a purely

analytic judgment lies precisely in its empirical character. The identity of subject and predicate is a merely represented union, upon which the fundamental proposition of contradiction finds only a *critical application*. The whole analysis aims solely at assuring the thinking subject that in the concept of a door there is nothing that contradicts the concept of a lock. But that no one who speaks of a door that has a conscience finds credence proves, after all, that analytic thinking everywhere keeps a watchful eye on experience's synthetic judgments. The first sentence: The ground has a consequent, lets itself on the contrary be at once transformed into an analytic judgment, just because it is of purely logical nature. There lies no more in the ground than what comes into view in the consequent; for the ground is ground only insofar as it has a consequent, and as the consequent is, so must the ground also be. For pure insight the two concepts show themselves as one concept; what the one is *implicite*, the other expresses *explicite*. The consequent is thus ground for the ground, and the ground a consequent of the consequent. But just as necessary is nevertheless the essential difference of the two. The thorough contradiction shows itself precisely in this, that analyzing thought each time comes to posit their abstract identity when it wants to comprehend their pure difference, and conversely must fix their abstract difference when it wants to posit their pure identity. This contradiction reflection cannot solve except by taking synthesis and intuition to its aid. It is first by means of the intellectual intuition, the sound unprejudiced glance, that analysis's abstract identity, integrated by synthesis's immediate difference, steps out into determinate real opposition. It is therefore an error when many have supposed that dialectical thinking should carry with it disdain for intuitive cognition, since much rather, if it truly understands itself, it must seek to penetrate and illuminate the real content of the represented world.

Remark 2. As the sensing consciousness finds the multiplicity of things immediately given, so also representational thinking comes to pass a host of different judgments, and thereby to develop for itself a circle of sporadic cognitions. It therefore becomes necessary to examine how these judgments and cognitions stand to one another. For although consciousness in an immediate way (— faith, geniality —) may possess an intellectual world whose harmony and consistency can later be justified by the testing reflection, still the uncultivated person, who receives an aggregate of heterogeneous influences, intellectual as well as sensory, may often gather in his

consciousness such representations and concepts as, when brought closer together, can by no means be reconciled in one circle of cognition. From the subjective point of view, science must therefore be regarded as the highest form in which a coherent view of life can be developed and presented; and since logic is the general foundation of all scientific culture, it cannot remain standing at a piecemeal apprehension of the judgment's essence and significance, but must also demonstrate the different judgments' inner nexus and totality.

As regards formal logic's division of *propositiones consentientes*, the doctrine of the *identical* judgments finds its determinate application not only in rhetoric, where one and the same fundamental thought is to be made intuitable from several different sides, but even in pure dialectic, which in its category-analysis makes distinct the concept's transitions and nuances. To determine more closely the fluid boundary that separates the all-sided development of concept-identity from tautology must, however, be left to the presenting subject's scientific tact.

With the *super= and subordinate* judgments it stands as with the *super= and subordinate* concepts, only that the criteria by which the logical subordination is expressed in the judgment's form are determinately brought out. It is then presupposed that the judgments in question must have either predicate or subject in common. If the predicates are identical, then the superordinate judgment has the superordinate subject; for the predicate's extension is in this case measured by the subject (All men are mortal, all animals are mortal); if the subjects are common, then the superordinate judgment has the subordinate predicate; for the predicate's lower (more concrete) concept must always be subsumed under the higher (All men have sense-organs, all men have eyes).

As regards the *opposed* judgments, it is presupposed that the talk turns on one and the same object, wherefore formal logic also sets up the rule that the *contrary* judgments must have the same subject, the *contradictory* also the same predicate. These and similar juxtapositions serve only to justify all the more the proposition that the concept's totality can first come into view in a totality of connected judgments.

Remark 3. What has already been said of the absolute concept — namely, that it takes up all relative concepts as moments and reflexes in its inner totality — can now also be applied to the judgment, regarded from the standpoint of the higher logic. As it is the same thinking I and the same judging understanding that utter

themselves in all the individual's thoughts and utterances, so it is also a proof of cognition's thoroughness, depth and coherence that the one judgment lets itself be deduced from the other. While formal logic therefore concerns itself most nearly with the judgments in their sporadic plurality, the speculative treats of the judgment, according to its essential unity, as that concept-sundering which with the concept's development runs through its different, lower and higher stages. According to the foregoing explication of the judgment's logical content, which began with quality's (existence's) positive judgment, and ended with modality's (the concept's) apodictic judgment, it has already been established that the latter has taken the former up into itself, or, what is the same, that the apodictic judgment is the positive judgment's truth; likewise every outward separation of the formal and the real nexus between subject and predicate must lose its significance when we hold fast the result won above, that the judgment in all its forms is both analytic and synthetic. To assure oneself that the categorical judgment presupposes analysis just as much as synthesis, one needs only to make distinct to oneself the transition from the general to the universal. That all men are mortal can first be known with complete certainty when it is seen that the concept of mortality is contained in the concept of man's natural existence. The separation of concept and actuality, which in objective respect makes the judgment hypothetical, makes it in subjective sense also problematic, and the disjunction whereby a given genus-concept is sundered into its species is in turn a presupposition from which the apodictic judgment results. For since the apodictic judgment is to express the identity of actuality and concept, it necessarily requires a disjunction. For no actual existence is purposive, beautiful or good in general; but every thing that answers to *its* determination is always good in *its* kind and in *its* species. Many unfair and unjust judgments, passed upon moral actions as well as upon artistic and scientific performances, arise not merely from the fact that the critics often find it most convenient to keep to an immediate estimate, and therefore prefer to employ the assertoric mode of expression; but the fundamental fault often lies in this, that the proper point of view is displaced, because the category under which the object in question is to be subsumed is missed altogether.

The categorical judgment receives its closer delimitation by means of the disjunctive, and when this is faulty, the apodictic must also become false and one-sided. But just for this reason it becomes necessary to distinguish between the concept's

one-sided and its all-sided expression. Although the whole concept is present in each of its principal sides, it is still not completed in any single moment. Hence it is also impossible to present the whole concept in any isolated judgment whatsoever; for if the judgment has a rich and concrete content, its moments must be *analyzed* in a series of different judgments; and every judgment whose content is limited and one-sided must be synthetically integrated by another judgment, this again by another, and so forth. — The wish to express the highest concept in a single judgment hangs together with the endeavor to preserve philosophy's kernel in certain determinate principal propositions. True enough, a contentful truth can be expressed in an adequate judgment; but even the most pregnant proposition will at once sink down into an empty phrase when it is torn out of the connection in which it fits, when it is no longer recognized as the result of a preceding or the presupposition of a following development. Hence the profoundest philosophy has always been the greatest offense to so-called sound common sense; for it lies in the nature of the case that the deeper the thoughts a philosophy contains, and the less trouble one takes to press into its spirit, the more easily will its single theses and utterances appear offensive, often even ridiculous.

Remark 4. The difference between the formal and the speculative logic's apprehension of the judgment's relation to the concept can be still further illuminated by looking to *definition* and *division*.

Insofar as the judgment's predicate expresses what the subject according to its concept properly is, the adequate judgment can also be regarded as the concept's definition. According to their immediate difference the concepts can be separated and characterized just as exactly as the sensory objects. It has therefore often been regarded as a proof of clear and acute thinking to advance from definition to definition in the course of scientific development. By the definition the concept is held fast as a magnitude bounded in itself, firm and constant, which under the different juxtapositions and turns is to keep the same value, and since every concept must contain something peculiar whereby it is known from all others, adequate definitions will always have their significance as contributions toward clearing up meaning and securing linguistic usage. Nevertheless it is chiefly the so-called exact sciences in which definition plays a considerable role, just because thinking is here more mechanical than organic. For philosophical cognition, on the contrary, such definitions have a very subordinate

worth. The ideal content that lies in the philosophical root-words, such as: essence, ground, substance, and so on, can no more be held fast in isolated definitions than the soul in an anatomized body. The more thinking is lost in atomistic concepts and sharply bounded definitions, the sooner will it approach the comfortless result that truth itself is unnameable, incomprehensible and ungraspable; for no living spirit lets itself be caught in a net of finite definitions. Formal logic has already recognized that the *genetic* definition stands above the *nominal*; but first in the stream of dialectic can the relative concept's rise, culmination and decline be clearly mirrored, and the genetic definition carried through. Since now every judgment contains a relative definition, and since the one concept-moment must always be defined by the other, it is evident from this that the absolute concept's content can be presented only in a *system of judgments*.

To distinguish itself from mere description, the nominal definition must characterize the object by determining its concept, and delimit this by a statement of *genus proximum* and *differentia specifica*. But here a double regard is to be observed: *partly* the concept must be sought out in its immediate, empirical existence, and its different forms and marks "*exposed*," in order to find out its characteristic — and here it will matter whether one seizes an essential determination or merely brings out an outer mark (synoptic and heuristic classification); *partly* singleness with its concrete peculiarity falls away, since the definition does not present the concept's whole content, but only states its general outline. The inner determinateness and separateness that the definition renounces makes itself known in the logical division.

The transition from definition to division can take place by a double way: a) partly the *differentia specifica* stated in the definition can be set against another specific difference falling under the same *genus*; for when man, for example, is said to be a *rational* animal, herein already lies that there are also animals that have no reason; which again is the same as that the animal is *either* rational *or* irrational, or: that all animals can be divided into the rational and the irrational; b) partly the defined concept can be apprehended as a new *genus*, which within its own boundaries again yields new *differentiæ specificæ*, and thereby sunders itself into new species: the rational animal is either religious or irreligious, i.e. men can be divided into the religious and the irreligious. In the first case the disjunctive judgment can immediately be set out as the division's logical expression, so that the concept that is divided (*divisum*) is posited

as subject, while the members of division (*membra dividantia*) find their place in the binomial or polynomial predicate. In the latter case a subdivision (*subdivisio*) arises, as one of the predicate's members is again made subject in a new disjunctive judgment, which then so far can be regarded as a consequence of the preceding. So long as the disjunctive judgment is not apprehended as the division's logical form, it still lacks the decisive determinateness whereby it distinguishes itself from a merely problematic mode of expression. The sentence: *A* is either *B* or *C*, can namely be resolved into two problematic judgments: *A* is perhaps, when more closely determined, *B*, not at all *C*; and: *A* is perhaps *C*, not *B*. Under this presupposition "either" — "or" expresses an abstract exclusion, which rests in the *principium exclusi medii*. To characterize the disjunctive judgment more closely, the sentence: *A* is either *B* or *C* or *D*..., must be equivalent to the sentence: *A* is both *B* and *C* and *D*... The disjunction's: either — or contains at the same time the conjunction's "both" — "and," from which the division's relation to the concept is already evident. For if we grasp the disjunction from the connecting as well as the excluding side, herein lies that the same concept at once separates itself from itself into a series of separate concepts, which mutually exclude one another, and nevertheless comprises and binds them all within itself by repeating itself in each single one. Thus it becomes necessary to seek out a medium in which the exclusion and the connection can be thought united. *A*, which in one respect is both *B* and *C*, is in another respect either *B* or *C*. Since both regards lie in the disjunction's own essence, formal thinking must bring out a universal determination in which the separateness comes into view, and thus fixes the determinate *ground of division* (*fundamentum divisionis*). It is, for example, a determination common to all triangles to have 3 angles and 3 sides. But no actual triangle has angles and sides in abstract generality, but always in determinate proportion. If now the division is undertaken, it appears quite clearly that the concept's identity at the same time grounds its difference, or in other words, that *diversi respectus* pass over into each other. For one cannot divide the triangles into three-sided and three-sided; for here is an identity without difference; nor into right-angled and isosceles; for here is a difference that lacks its identity, or, as it is said, the ground of division is not held fast. But when we say: the triangles are either equilateral or non-equilateral, then it lies in the division's logical nature that they are the one because they are the other. The contradiction that hides itself in the disjunctive judgment — that *A* must be either *B* or *C*, and yet is also posited

as *B* when it is posited as *A* — finds its resolution in the division, which sunders and binds the opposed concepts.

What *the division* is from the empirical standpoint, the concept-diremption or *the primal division* is from the logical. All the rules formal logic sets up for division point to this difference. That the division shall determine the concept's extension by a statement of all the genus's species means, in other words, that it shall exhaust the genus-concept's content. But since every empirically characteristic mark can always occasion new divisions or subdivisions, without insight into the nature of the genus and the species being thereby increased, such a complete enumeration is often as useless as it is difficult. "Whether to the 67 species of parrots yet a dozen more can be found is indifferent for the exhaustion of the genus-concept" (Hegel). It is quite another matter that detailed classifications may be necessary in order to complete empirical knowledge; but they can have no properly logical worth. A division can often be complete and correct without therefore being thorough, just as conversely it can have a deeper significance without being logically correct (fantastic and comic divisions). It is further conceded in formal logic that the divided concept must be present whole and undivided in each of the members of division; whereby the logical division distinguishes itself from the real partition (*partitio*). But from this it can also be seen that the true division is grounded in the concept's primal division. When a sensory object is divided, each part is only a piece. Hence it is also only the elementary and lifeless things that can be taken apart and put together without suffering harm, and that precisely because their concept is so wholly external; the living organism, which expresses the concept's essence, suffers on the contrary by every dismemberment, since it is contrary to the concept's intellectual singleness to let itself be carved up. — As regards, now, the relation between the judgment and the division in general, they both have the common determination of presenting the concept's diremption. The criterion for such a diremption is always this, that the concept is separated into two extremes, each of which for itself in its form contains the whole concept; but while the judgment most nearly renders the concept's single sides and reflexes, and so far lets itself be expressed in a determinate sentence, the division on the contrary refers to different concept-spheres, so that its content can be explicated only in a totality of judgments. As each of the judgment's extremes, by the copula "is," intimates a medium in which they meet, so it also lies in the division's ground that the opposed

concept-spheres must join together in a higher and more concrete totality.



Third Chapter.

The Validity of the Subjective Concept: Inference and Proof.

§ 9.

The Logical Requisites of Inference.

The mutual relation of the judgments is expressed in the inference, that act of thinking whereby a judgment's validity is derived from one or several other judgments. According to formal logic there must be distinguished in every inference a) one or more presuppositions, premises, b) a conclusion-sentence (*conclusum* or *conclusio sensu minus proprio*) and c) the whole act of thinking by which the conclusion-sentence is derived from the premises (*conclusio sensu proprio*). The inference's simplest and yet at the same time complete form is the categorical syllogism. The conclusion's subject, the minor concept (*terminus minor*), and its predicate, the major concept (*terminus major*), must in the syllogism each for itself be joined with a third concept, which makes up the middle of the extremes (*terminus medius*). Of the two premises formed by this joining, that in which the major concept is referred to the middle term is called *propositio major*; that, on the contrary, which unites the middle term with the minor concept, *propositio minor*. When the middle term's relation and significance are distorted, paralogisms and sophisms arise.

The speculative logic presents the inference as the extreme totalities' dialectical transition into their medium, i.e. as a joining-together in which the extremes are at once posited and annulled.

Remark 1. As expression of subjective thinking, the judgment proceeds from a deliberation; every deliberation takes place in virtue of a judging; thus the one

judgment has its grounding in the other, or, what is equivalent, the judgment has its truth in the inference. Every judgment that does not result from an inference still stands as a postulate, which can be both true and false, and for that reason both affirmed and denied. If the judgment is regarded as answer to a question, then the inference contains the answering of a double question, and thereby expresses the judgment's ground. If it is thus asked: "What is God?" then the preliminary answer: "God is a spirit," is to be regarded as an adequate judgment. But if the judgment is to be grounded, then the question resolves itself into two others: "What is God, since he is called spirit, and what is spirit, since it is predicated of God?" There is thus sought a third concept, which expresses the identity of the subject's and the predicate's unity and difference — an advance whereby the moment of separateness first comes into its full right.

When the difference between subject and predicate does not come forward with such independence that the concept grounding the unity of both needs to show its relation to each of the members in a separate judgment, the conclusion can be derived from one premise, and the inference is characterized as immediate. Formal logic distinguishes several kinds of immediate inferences, and sets up rules for their application. We thus obtain: a) the inference of identity (*ratio cinium ad æquipollens*), b) the inference of subordination (*ratio cinium ab universali ad particulare*), c) the inference of opposition (*ratio cinium ad oppositum*) and finally d) the inference of conversion (*ratio cinium per conversionem*). But since none of all these inferences leads to any deeper insight into the essence of the concept or of the judgment, they can only be used as simple exercises of the understanding.

Remark 2. It is self-evident that the so-called categorical syllogism contains all the requisites of inference, since it is first in it that the conclusion's subject and predicate are comprehended in their independence, and yet at the same time find the separate concept that makes up the union of both. Everything thus rests essentially on the middle concept's significance and relation to the extremes. Formal logic has for that reason set up the following rules:

- 1) *Ex meris negativis nihil sequitur*; quite naturally, since the negation, when it holds for both premises, must cut off every connection between the extremes and the middle concept.

- 2) *Ex meris particularibus nihil sequitur*; for two particular premises make the connection of the extremes and the middle concept doubtful.
- 3) *Conclusio sequi debet partem debiliorem præmissarum*. For nothing can be posited in the conclusion that is not *implicite* presupposed in the juxtaposition of the two premises.

Remark 3. The ambiguity that *diversi respectus* contain, in that they both produce and annul the contradiction, shows itself most clearly of all in syllogistic. For since every thing can be regarded from more than one side, one can always find for a conclusion's subject and predicate more than one middle concept, just as conversely the middle concept and its relations can in turn be apprehended from several different points of view (Leibnitz's combinatorial analysis — Plouquet's calculus). As subjective reflection hereby develops itself into formal freedom, and uses this freedom arbitrarily to set truth's semblance in truth's place, syllogistic passes over into sophistry. The sophisms of the ancients do not, however, all bear the same stamp; for while some, as for example the so-called *Elenchus in dictione*:

mus rodit caseum,
mus est syllaba,
ergo: syllaba rodit caseum.

are so crass that they must be regarded as logical “Kjældermænd” (flat puns), others on the contrary (— ψευδόμενος, σωρείτης, φάλαγκός —) conceal a dialectical sting, and thereby form a kind of holding-points for acute thinking. It is the contradictions of the represented world and of the so-called sound understanding that have given the first impulses to philosophical movements of thought; but so long as a more determinate method was still lacking, the deeper reflection had to keep to sporadic παράδοξα, and make the problems intuitable by giving them a piquant mask. Only as vehicles for ingenious plays of thought do the sophisms have a relative significance; when on the contrary they are cultivated for their own sake, they testify to philosophy's vanity and self-dissolution. Even the theory of the refutation of the sophisms is without logical interest; for he who has first learned to think consistently and thoroughly will in every case know how to unmask the false, and a reasoning that departs altogether from all sound thinking does not even deserve to be refuted. Least of all can the rules for

such refutations be treated in the doctrine of inference; for the syllogism is only the general form under which the sophists insinuate the most heterogeneous distortions. Aristotle's treatise *περὶ σοφιστικῶν ἐλέγχων* therefore yields only a meagre profit for logic, but is nonetheless a document remarkable for the history of philosophy, insofar as it contains a testimony to the enormous thought-empiricism, the wealth of reflection-experiments, in which Greek philosophy had to try itself before the systematic logician could appear.

Remark 4. As the judgment is the subjective thought-form that corresponds to the objective concept-sundering, so also the syllogism is to be regarded as a silhouette, drawn by the understanding, of that infinite circuit in which the concept's separated extremes seek their concrete unity. The difference between the formal and the speculative apprehension of the inference's essence and significance rests then chiefly on this, that the logic of the understanding sets up the premises as given sentences, whose middle term must be taken as it is found, while the logic of reason on the contrary reduces the premises to opposed concept-totalities, whose medium develops itself out of their dialectical relation; in the logic of the understanding the conclusion (i.e. the *conclusum*) is a consequent sentence, a result the thinking subject itself draws out; according to the logic of reason it is on the contrary the sundered totalities' mutual transition, in which they integrate each other — the joining-together in which they both find their subsistence. In the formal inference of the understanding, the syllogism, the single members are set out in an outward succession; in the true inference of reason they are simultaneous. Thus the coherence of the universe consists in an inference: the sun draws the planets to its centre; every planet in turn flees the attracting sun, and the medium of the centrifugal and the centripetal force is the elliptical movement. The animal development of life goes on in the form of inference; for the organism is the medium between the life-moments' undivided unity in the soul's inner and the functions' multiplicity in the bodily outer. Freedom is an inference: it presupposes itself in its endowment, actualizes itself in its striving, possesses itself in its result, and the means is always medium between purpose and execution. The examples here adduced certainly do not further explain either the universe, life or freedom, but they serve nonetheless to make intuitable the truth that the inference is the objective form of reason, and to make intelligible the Hegelian utterance: "der Schluß ist nicht nur vernünftig, sondern alles Vernünftige ist ein Schluß."

§ 10.

The Formal Validity of Inference.

In order to express its true logical content, the inference must run through several stages of development, and the forms of inference can therefore be divided: a) according to *quality*, into the inference of separateness, of singleness and of universality, such that the *terminus medius*, which here expresses only an abstract concept-determination, runs through a threefold schema: $E-S-A$, $S-E-A$ and $E-A-S$, in order to mediate the extremes; b) according to *quantity*, into the inference of allness, induction and analogy; reflection, which empirically gathers and separates the concept's essential universality and existential singleness, strives at this stage out beyond the rule toward the immanent law; c) according to *relation*, into the categorical, hypothetical and disjunctive inference, whereby the concept's ideal sundering and actuality's real sundering reflect each other with such necessity that the totality comes into view in all forms.

According to the speculative logic, the inference's absolute truth is to be explicated in a system of three inferences.

Remark 1. The so-called figures of inference, of which Aristotle set up the first three, and later logicians (Galen) added a fourth, are distinguished in formal logic according to the place the middle term occupies in the two premises. Thus the first figure is characterized by the middle term's being subject in the major premise and predicate in the minor; according to the second figure the middle term is predicate, according to the third figure subject, in both premises. The fourth figure, in which the middle term is subject in the minor premise and predicate in the major, forms a superfluous contrast to the first. To each of these figures determinate rules are then attached: as regards the first figure, the major premise must be universal, the minor affirmative, and the whole subsumption follow the general norm: *nota notæ est nota rei ipsius*. In the second figure, whose major premise must likewise be universal, the one premise is affirmative and the other negative; the third figure demands that one of the premises be universal, and the minor premise affirmative; the fourth figure is artificially produced by various conversions. This schematizing shows that each of the concept's principal sides must come forward as *terminus medius* in order that the joining of the extremes may be fully grounded; but, isolated from their logical content

and mutual connection, these abstract forms of inference have no deeper significance. By reducing the one figure to the other, formal logic awakens a presentiment of their inner connection.

Remark 1. The inference of quality has the mark that it always keeps to the immediate difference and unity of the concept-determinations. What is only a single cannot as such be a universal. In order that two such abstract outer members may be united, a middle determination is required, which in one respect coincides with singleness, in another respect with universality; this middle determination is the *separate*. “Bravery is a virtue, Alexander has shown bravery; Alexander is virtuous.” The qualitative inference thus begins with the first figure: $E-S-A$. That this inference is very imperfect appears upon closer consideration. The conclusion, whose validity was to be derived from the premises, itself conditions their truth. For if the conclusion is merely to declare that everyone who is brave is also, without any regard to his other qualities, virtuous, then the conclusion is only a tautological repetition of the *propositio major*, and thinking makes no advance whatever. If on the contrary it is to be expressly brought out that a single, determinate individual is virtuous on account of *his* bravery, then the inference is false, since the conclusion in this case contains more than can be derived from the premises. By bringing out another quality in the individual concerned, one can therefore also come to an entirely opposite result. “The sensuous nature is not virtuous, Alexander has a sensuous nature, therefore he is not virtuous.” Whether a separate and a universal concept-determination let themselves be united or not depends then upon the concrete single existence, which according to its nature always has several different qualities. Singleness must accordingly be laid at the ground of the joining of the separate and the universal, whereby the transition takes place to the second schema (i.e. formal logic’s third figure): $S-E-A$: “Man is rational, man is mortal; a mortal is rational.” The separate determination “mortal” and the universal determination “rational” are found united in every human individual. More closely regarded, this conclusion likewise expresses no proper inference. The singleness or the individual must simply be sought out, and when it is found, then the separate and the universal determinations that inhere in it are at once discovered by analyzing thought. Hence it is also in itself quite indifferent which of the two extremes one will in this case make *terminus major*; the conclusion: “a mortal is rational,” can without further ado be turned about: “a rational being is mortal.” The proper advance

consists consequently in the middle concept's contingency being expressly brought out. — In order to form the true middle between the separate and the universal, the single must itself be determined as separate; this can happen only in virtue of universality. With this presupposition the transition is made to the third schema (formal logic's second figure): $E-A-S$. Insofar as this form of inference is regarded in its connection with the two preceding, both its premises can be said to be formally grounded. For the *propositio major*: $S-A$ stands as conclusion in the second schema, and the *propositio minor*: $E-A$ results from the first. Nevertheless the middle concept is here too insufficient, since the qualitative universality falls outside its singleness and separateness. This defect comes into view in the inference's ending in a negative result: "No man is four-legged, the lion is four-legged; the lion is not man."

It stands with the qualitative inference as with the qualitative judgment; its moments can, according to their unity and difference, be reduced to tautological sentences and superficial contradictions. *The single is only single*, insofar as it is held fast one-sidedly and immediately. "This apple" is, for example, a single, for one is to think neither of its manifold qualities, nor of its likeness and unlikeness with others. But every other apple is again, taken by itself, a single, a "this," which is immediately pointed out. The consideration of the existing things thus leads us from the single to the single, without any separateness or universality. This tautology shows itself at the same time as a superficial contradiction: by repeating itself, *the single becomes universal*, and since this repetition cannot be thought without the difference between the several singlenesses coming into view, *each single must immediately be determined as a separate*. By analyzing the concrete singleness one can separate it into a plurality of universal determinations. The single apple has thus a certain fragrance, taste, form, weight and so on, and when all the universal determinations are separated, the thing's singleness vanishes at the same time. As the nominalist annuls *universalia* in *res*, so the realist dissolves *res* into its *universalia*. If now each *universale* is held fast for itself, we have again both a tautology and a contradiction. "Fragrance is fragrance, without regard to that which is fragrant; taste is taste, without regard to that which tastes:" *the universal is universal*. But as the fragrance, the taste, the color and the weight are each in particular posited as qualitative universalities or universal qualities, each *universale* becomes itself single: *the universal is a single*. Although now every universal determination must be observed for itself, it still cannot be defined except by

the help of another universal determination, so that the difference between *universalia* is by no means indifferent: *the universal is a separate*. It is further evident from this that the all-sided determination of separateness is the inference's aim — an aim the qualitative inference cannot realize. In order to ground the true unity of the single and the universal, separateness must at once be identical with both extremes, and yet at the same time different from them both. But now it lies in quality's own concept that the separate, when it is held against the single, becomes itself a single, and when it is set against the universal, is transformed into an abstract universality. Hence the *terminus medius* alternates between the three different extremities: *S*, *E* and *A*. Thus one can, for example, lay the genus, the separate, at the ground of a joining of the individuals and the universe. In its difference from individual and universe the genus is then hypostatized and personified. But just as immediately one can then also turn the whole form of inference about, and declare that the genus exists only in the single individuals, that the universal must not be thought separate from the single, and thus make the individual *terminus medius* for genus and universe. If it must now further be conceded that the individuals unceasingly dissolve and pass away, then one needs only to invert the form of inference once more, and lay a universal quality (water, air, fire) at the ground of a conclusion of individuals and genus. Since it is now an impossibility to state how a universal element of nature could have sundered itself into separate existences, this inference gives no positive result whatever, but expresses only the negative truth that the separate genera and their individuals could not exist if they did not have a common natural medium. By leaping from the one middle concept to the other, naturalism always confuses the condition with the creating ground, and the philosophy of atheism characterizes itself by thinking's never going out beyond the qualitative inference.

Remark 3. The formalism in which the inference of quality ends finds its purest expression in the inference of quantity. According to its immediate quantity-content, the inference can be reduced to the mathematical axiom: two magnitudes, each of which is equal to one and the same third, are equal to each other; $a = b$, $b = c$, therefore $a = c$. But since all the *termini* here have the selfsame significance, there can in the logical sense be talk neither of concept, judgment nor inference. The inference of quantity must for that reason be further developed and determined as the *comprehensive* inference, in which the universal and the single hold themselves with

relative independence over against each other, and therefore seek a more concrete *terminus medius*. For the rest, the inference of quantity runs through the same schemata as that of quality. In allness the universal and the single come immediately into view with their unity and difference. Since allness is the collective universality, singleness becomes by its own repetition itself universalized; but since every single in turn has its independent significance in the allness, universality is at the same time based upon singlenesses; the medium or the separate is in this case nothing other than the universal's and the single's existential determinateness. Hence the comprehensive inference begins, as *inference of allness*, with the first schema: $E-S-A$. "All (single) men are mortal, Caius is *a single* man; therefore C. is mortal." The conclusion is in this form too a tautological repetition of the major premise, and the inference of allness is for that reason only to be regarded as a transition, so that everything depends upon an actual union of the separate and the universal, whose ground is to be sought in singleness. The comprehensive inference hereby enters into the second schema: $S-E-A$, and is determined as *induction*. According to formal logic, inferences of induction are characterized thus: "one infers that a predicate that belongs to a *determinate* number of subjects of a certain *genus* must hold for *all* subjects belonging under this *genus*;" or: "What holds of certain species and individuals that are subsumed under a universal genus-concept must also hold of the whole genus." But from this point of view the inference loses its essential significance; for if all possible cases are not enumerated, it is incomplete, and when they are all adduced, one obtains an addition instead of an inference. If induction's logical worth is to be acknowledged, then the accent must necessarily fall upon the *terminus medius*, which here presents the developed allness. More closely inspected, allness now offers a double side; for partly it shows itself to thought as the essential universality, partly it is apprehended by immediate observation as the common determination of the singlenesses. The essence, the universal, exists only in the individuals; one cannot therefore cognize the genus without having first observed all its species and individuals; but every following individual is always in certain ways different from the preceding, and the number of the singlenesses so great that one can never finish the observation. Cognition's a priori moment is still hampered by the preponderance of the a posteriori, and the result is a combination of thinking and sensation, which lies at the ground of all experience. By posing a task that cannot be solved, induction marks the logical transition to the

inference of analogy. Instead of seeking the universal in the sum of the singlenesses and losing itself in an endless approximation, thinking now posits a given exemplar as immediate expression of the genus-concept and its specific determinations, whereby the inference's schema is changed to: $E-A-S$. If two subjects have a certain number of predicates in common, one infers according to the formal analogy that they must have yet more. The earth and the moon have, as planets, several common properties; since now the earth is also inhabited, it seems to follow from this that the moon must be so too. The moon (E) is thus ascribed, on account of its likeness with the earth (A , insofar namely as the earth in this case represents the planet's concept), the particular determination (S) of being inhabited. The general concept, which fled through induction's endless progress, is now immediately held fast as the inference of analogy's determinate foundation; but since its appearance is quite empirical, it still remains doubtful how many of the particular determinations belong to the genus, and consequently can be found again in all its species and individuals, and how many on the contrary belong to the single exemplar. Even if natural science had not pointed out phenomena that conflict with the hypothesis of moon-dwellers, it would still always be problematic whether it belonged to the earth as a single individual globe, or as the planet-concept's existential expression, to be inhabited by living beings. As astrology shows how one can misuse induction and analogy to introduce fantastic dream-images into actuality's realm, so Christophobia proves on the contrary, insofar as it gives itself a philosophical tinge, that the same forms of inference can be used when the aim is to transform the historical truth into a dream-image. It is this hovering between the immediate experience and the free thinking, between the outer actuality and the essential concept, that characterizes the comprehensive inferences, and occasions their great ambiguity. Reflection can fall into the leading-strings of sensation and empiricism; but the immediate glance of thought is again able to penetrate the empirical surface and gather the sporadic moments in their essential ground. The rule that develops itself in order to become law, the circuit and the endless progress, repetition and alternation, belong under this sphere; hope itself is an inference of induction. Hence the inference of induction and analogy extends its logical dominion all the way from the prosaic probability and the empty surmise, through the deep presentiment, to the genial divination.

Remark 4. The opposition between the thought and the existing concept, together

with the concrete unity of both, is developed in the inference of relation, whose mark is that each of the three *termini* itself expresses the whole concept-totality. The difference between the extremes therefore seems at first glance to concern not so much the content as the form; for every single concept, individual, is the general concept's own actuality, and the concrete general concept is in turn the actual individual's totalized essentiality. But, more closely regarded, the formal difference is also to be recognized as a difference in the content itself. For as immediate single existence the individual can have many indifferent and accidental qualities that fall outside its concept; it can moreover find itself in such a state that the essential and original determinations are in many ways hidden and hampered, so that the actual exemplar by no means expresses the whole concept-content. A similar one-sidedness obtains with respect to the general concept, whose separate determinations can appear only in and by means of the individual. If the sensuous did not exist, then sensuousness could not be either; if the rational did not exist, the thought of a universal rationality would be a meaningless abstraction. The true unity of the single and the universal is consequently to be determined as both extremes' infinite relation, i.e. such a joining of both outer members that the individual itself is developed to its concept, whereby *universalia in re* are transformed into *universalia in mente*; while the concept is at the same time individualized, and *universalia in mente* converted into *universalia in re*. As a natural individual without upbringing, man cannot reach his determination, because he lacks the stamp of the universally human, and thus, logically speaking, does not answer to his concept; but just as little can a blind, habitual submission to the laws of duty and morality satisfy human nature, which will always demand an independent appropriation of what is handed down, as the free single will's imperishable right. True upbringing is an inference of relation, which has the natural individuality and the moral laws for its extremes, but the living, personal unity of both for its *terminus medius* (— false originality, formal school, true originality; — mystical self-annihilation, mystical self-deification; religious personality —).

Since the concept's essence in relation to the existing individuals must always be the overreaching, insofar as it expresses the things' category, the category or the separate concept forms the medium between singleness and the abstract universality. Hence relation begins with the *categorical* inference after the schema: *E—S—A*. In syllogistic form the categorical inference cannot well be distinguished from the infer-

ence of allness, since the syllogism's middle term is always simply inserted without developing itself out of the connection itself. What on the contrary distinguishes the categorical inference above the general one is the insight into the concept's essence, which makes every enumeration of the special cases and empirical appearances superfluous. He who has once fully recognized which fundamental determinations belong together in order to constitute human nature can always be certain of finding each of these again, either *implicite eller explicite*, in the single individuals, without needing an endlessly continued experience. If such categorical certainty were not given, then every question of principle would be meaningless, and science itself an impossibility. By means of the categorical inference the concept's apriority is first fully acknowledged. But as the categorical inference dissolves the existing things into their categories, it presents at the same time a one-sided concept-realism (*universalialia ante rem*), which must be corrected by a higher form of inference. That no thing can contradict its category without changing name and existence — from this it does not yet follow that the thing's individual determination should immediately coincide with the concept's universality; because possibility's extension is determinate, its content is not yet for that reason exhausted. In order therefore to satisfy individuation and the higher realism (*univ. in re*), singleness must itself be laid at the ground. The a posteriori (experience and fact) thereby steps up anew against the concept, and the mutual relation of both is developed in the *hypothetical* inference of the schema: *S—E—A*. Since the middle concept is reduced to singleness and fact, and consequently must be given immediately, the hypothetical inference can express its logical content in the syllogism's form. The major premise then becomes a hypothetical judgment, and formal logic now prescribes a double method of inference: from the antecedent's correctness one infers by *modus ponens* to the consequent's validity, after the rule: *posita conditione, ponitur etiam conditionatum*; from the consequent's incorrectness one infers on the contrary by *modus tollens* to the antecedent's rejectability, according to the rule: *sublato conditionato, tollitur etiam conditio*.

Misled by a grammatical regard, formal logic has, however, committed the error of confusing *conditio* with *conditionatum*. In a judgment such as this: "If *F* has seen this play, it must have been performed," the consequent evidently declares the proper condition, the antecedent on the contrary the conditioned. The general relation between actuality and concept is presented in the *propositio major*, which expresses

the a priori law of thought without regard to any determinate actuality. The minor premise thereby acquires, in consequence, a double significance: partly the condition can be negated, in which case the conditioned actuality is to be regarded as impossible (*a non posse esse ad non esse valet consequentia*); partly the single fact can show itself so unambiguous that the presence of its conditions can be derived from it (*ab esse ad posse esse valet consequentia*). The application of the hypothetical inference serves to make intuitable the true interaction between thinking and experience. On this relation rests philosophy's formal cultivation and real advance. A philosophical school that, for example, overvalues the logical can, as regards principle, always be referred to the hypothetical major premise: "If *A* is a philosophical problem, it must be solvable by pure dialectic. So long as such a school is in process of forming itself, its adherents will, in the choice and treatment of the philosophical tasks, keep to the presupposition's infallibility, and by application of *modus ponens* volatilize every problem whose solution oversteps the boundaries of formal dialectic. "If evil is a problem, it must find a dialectical solution; now it is a philosophical problem, therefore it has no other significance than that which formal dialectic can allow it." But when the facts speak too loudly against such a reduction, philosophy is at last compelled to take a step forward, turn the inference about, and avow *modus tollens*: "If formal dialectic yields philosophy's absolute method, then it must be able to solve the problem of evil; now it cannot solve it, therefore the method is insufficient." If the form of inference is apprehended from a general point of view, then the one-sidedness lies in this, that the major premise states only an abstract necessity, while the minor introduces a pure contingency; hence the conclusion still lacks the true grounding. This defect the *disjunctive* inference remedies by positing its middle concept as the real possibility of the actual existential forms, after the schema: *E—A—S*. This schema may indeed seem to deviate from the disjunctive inference's usual form: *A* is either *E* or *E'*, or *E''*; now *A* is posited as *E*, therefore it is neither *E'* nor *E''*; but according to the significance ascribed above (§ 8, Remark 4) to the disjunction, the major premise, according to its concept, is to be presented thus: *E*, *E'*, *E''* are, each for itself, to be subsumed under *A*; now *A* is determined as *E*, therefore it is in this *particular* (*S*) case neither *E'* nor *E''*. The general concept (*A*) has now so concrete a content that its real possibility preforms the outer actuality. The conditions for its stepping out into particular existential forms are indeed still fetched from without; but the existence that

yields these conditions has itself proceeded from the absolute concept's own ground. According to the possibilities' inner sundering, A is both E , E' and E'' ; but according to actuality's exclusive determinateness it cannot be E' and E'' when it is E . If the outer disjunction were not posited, then possibility would remain eternally unactual; if the inner disjunction were only an empty abstraction, the exclusive actuality would be impossible. As the disjunctive inference thus yields the highest norm for the concept's formal development, it confirms at the same time the truth that the absolute concept would have no validity if it did not at once exist both *inwardly*, in the all-intelligence's infinite freedom, as a realm of sundered possibilities and individualized potencies, and *outwardly*, in the universe's immediate actuality, whose outer totality stamps out the real disjunction. In essentiality mediation holds; in actuality, *principium exclusi medii*; the true unity of theory and practice will therefore always rest upon a thorough synthesis of mediation and exclusion.

Remark 5. The number of the inferences is, with respect to their separate content, as infinite as the multiplicity of thoughts and things. It is consequently an impossibility to enumerate all the cases in which they can cross one another and pass over into one another. But in all different sunderings and joinings the general ground-norm nevertheless holds, that each of the three *termini* is to be posited both as extreme and as medium. Hence the higher logic teaches that every inference consists in a system of three inferences. "Many disagreements and confusions in science have their ground in one's keeping to the single inference instead of to the whole system. Hereby arise different, indeed opposite assertions, of which each is correct insofar as it is a side of the truth, but incorrect insofar as its truth is one-sided. When one says that man's spiritual nature develops itself out of the sensuous, or that the body develops the soul, one infers according to $E-S-A$. If one says that the sensuous and the spiritual are inseparably bound together in the individual, and that neither of the two has priority over the other, then it is $S-E-A$. And if one finally assumes that it is the spiritual nature that lies at the ground of the development of the sensuous, or that it is the soul that forms its body, one infers according to $E-A-S$. But the whole truth is only in the complete system of all three inferences. The first inference is materialism's, the second is empiricism's, the third is spiritualism's. But the whole system is idealism's." Heiberg: Den specul. Logik, Pag. 99.

§ 11.

The Real Validity of Inference: Proof and Method.

Since the formal syllogistic satisfies only the empty reflection, without any regard to existence's real content, this defect must in turn be made good by a series of immediate presuppositions being taken up outright as given points of attachment for reasoning thought. Knowledge proper, or scientific cognition, will thus rest upon the mediate or resulting unity of thinking and being, which is to be sought in *the proof*. But so long as the proof is conditioned by so external a combination of concept and actuality, the scientific method can be driven from the one extreme to the other. Dogmatism, which builds upon unproven presuppositions, is supplanted by criticism, which shakes all positive supports and overturns the thetic edifice of doctrine. In order to escape the skeptical confusion, the higher knowledge, which has not yet found its true method, must then develop itself either into a formal idealism, which absorbs existence's content in an immanent demonstration, or into a realism of feeling, which exchanges the scientific form for a lyrical rhetoric, and relies upon immediate evidence.

The true philosophical method can consist neither in a merely poetic-genial unveiling of existence's absolute content, nor in a merely logical formal development of the universe's concept-moments, but must justify itself as a totality-dialectic, in which existence's principles show themselves with their relative significance, and all life's potencies stir according to their peculiar validity.

Remark 1. Aristotle (*Analytic. post. c. 1–3*) places the difference between syllogism and proof in this, that the syllogism in and for itself gives no real cognition (συλλογισμὸς οὐ ποιήσει ἐπιστήμην), while the proof (ἀπόδειξις) on the contrary always carries with it the certainty that the matter must in itself stand as we think it, wherefore the proof can also be called a cognition-syllogism (συλλογισμὸς ἐπιστημονικός). Nevertheless he seeks to refute the view that all cognition of truth should be dependent upon syllogistic proofs. By positing the demonstration as condition for all knowledge, one must either, as some have wished, deny science's possibility, since every inference contains premises that must in turn be proved by new inferences, so that the whole conduct of proof loses itself in an endless regress; or else, what others have attempted, derive the premises from their own conclusions, whereby

the so-called *circulus in probando* arises, and the proof comes to hover in the air. As there are, then, according to Aristotle, truths that can and must be demonstrated, so there are also truths that require no proof, since they themselves yield the original supporting-points for all demonstration: ἀνάγκη καὶ τὴν ἀποδεικτικὴν ἐπιστήμην ἐξ ἀληθῶν τ' εἶναι καὶ πρώτων, καὶ ἀμέσων, καὶ γνωριμωτέρων καὶ προτέρων, καὶ αἰτίων τοῦ συμπεράσματος. οὗτος γὰρ ἔσονται καὶ αἱ ἀρχαὶ οἰκεῖαι τοῦ δεικνυμένου (*Anal. post. c. 2*). It is chiefly the assumption of these many ἀρχαί, or principles and grounds of cognition, that separates Aristotle from Plato. For while Plato aimed especially at explaining the multiplicity of things in virtue of the universal concepts' (the ideas') apriority, Aristotle fixed his gaze also upon the world of experience, in order to find in it the sporadic points of departure, and to lead the existing single concepts (αἱ πρώται οὐσίαι) back to their universal fundamental concept. Although now every science has its separate presuppositions, still in all of them, even in philosophy, there must both be something from which one proves, and also something about which the conduct of proof turns; the Aristotelian doctrine of thought can therefore be said to have established philosophy's dogmatic method.

Remark 2. After dogmatism in the history of philosophy had run through various stages of development, it was in modern times driven to its peak by Christ. Wolf, who methodically cultivated the so-called *methodus mathematica*. Since every presupposition in this method coincides with a definition that is to express the concept's essential determinations, analysis is sufficient to bring out the result already anticipated in the definition itself; whereby the whole demonstration acquires a semblance of apodictic infallibility. "The divine Being must, according to its concept, possess all perfections; being is a perfection, therefore God must exist." — The insufficiency of this dogmatic method was demonstrated by Kant (jfr. *Die Disciplin der reinen Vernunft im dogmatischen Gebrauche*; *Kritik d. r. V.*; *Methodenlehre* 1 Hauptst.). While Kant concedes to mathematics that it gives a brilliant example of pure reason's self-development without experience's help, he at the same time denies the mathematical method's applicability in philosophy. The methodical difference is grounded in the peculiar nature of the two sciences. For while philosophical cognition considers the separate in the universal, i.e. holds fast universality *in abstracto*, the mathematical on the contrary posits the universal in the separate, and thus possesses it *in concreto*; what "der Vernunftgebrauch durch Construction der Begriffe" is in mathematics, "der Vernunftgebrauch nach Begriffen"

is in philosophy. Mathematics' definitions are always infallible, since they are brought forth *a priori* together with their corresponding objects; while the philosophical definitions on the contrary presuppose a content given in actuality, whose determinations cannot be immediately delimited. Mathematics, which constructs its concepts in a priori synthesis, can employ the demonstration; whereas philosophy, whose universal concepts must always refer to "possible experience," cannot attain to any speculative synthetic judgment, and therefore cannot demonstrate its way forward either. But although Kant thus sought to drive all "dogmata" from philosophy's precincts, he still leaves behind, in his "discursive Grundsätze" and his dialectical "Antithetik," a remnant of dogmatism and demonstration.

Remark 3. In his Wissenschaftslehre Fichte set himself the task of reconciling dogmatism with criticism, and insofar as dogmatism refers to a "Ding an sich," it may be said to be thoroughly overcome in his transcendental idealism; on the other hand he approved the demonstration, and developed it to its highest stringency. As the first unconditioned principle: $A = A$ is annulled in the thinking I's identity with itself, so the second: $A \text{ is not } = -A$ expresses the I's difference from the not-I. *Identity* and *opposition* thus give themselves as expressions of I-hood's original fundamental acts. The third principal proposition: A and $-A$, I and not-I, mutually *bound* each other, can now be deduced from the two preceding, so that the unity of reality and negation, identity and opposition, which makes up *the ground's* essential mark, already receives the form of proof. As antithesis and synthesis thus condition and integrate each other in the continued development, the philosophical categories take on an intermediate character of fixity and fluidity, whereby the whole system rounds itself off in an immanent demonstration. While Fichte thus heeded only thought's necessity, and philosophized for philosophy's sake, Jacobi on the contrary followed the promptings of the heart, and philosophized for the result's sake. In the firm conviction that every philosophical demonstration must consistently lead either to fatalism (Spinoza) or to atheism (Fichte), he polemicized against the finite reflection's "Durch= und Durch=Begriffe," and defended with rhetorical power reason's immediate cognition of God against the abstract knowledge's nihilism. While Kant still acknowledged the categories' subjective universal validity, only that they could not be applied to the thing in itself, Jacobi, as Hegel has already remarked, went a step further, and demonstrated the understanding-concepts' own finitude and mechanical conditionedness. According

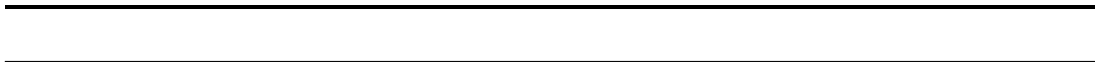
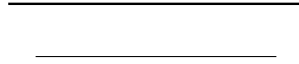
to Kant, speculative science must be given up, because it is once for all a psychological fact that the forms of cognition lie in ourselves, and not in the essence of things; according to Jacobi, true comprehension becomes impossible, because the concept, as such, is itself finite, and consequently incommensurable with truth's infinite content. If Kant attacked metaphysics chiefly from the side of the stuff, without consummating the mechanical demonstration's own dissolution, then Jacobi on the contrary attacked metaphysics' form, and sought thereby to bring every philosophical *method* into discredit.

Remark 4. When Kant calls the philosopher an *artist of reason*, he thereby intimates that philosophy cannot dispense with a determinate structure, that its scientific content has its validity in the form; when Jacobi on the contrary sets the philosopher the task of *unveiling existence* (Daseyn zu enthüllen), he thereby reminds us that science's true worth always rests upon its substance. The philosophical question of method is therefore as far from being an empty formal question as a mechanical schema is from being a philosophical system. The form that determines the content is in turn determined by the content's peculiar character; as impossible as it is to develop a content without giving it form, just as unscientific is it on the other side to confuse the content with the stuff, and to apply an already finished form to a content given from without: that which determines (the form) and that which is determined (the content) reflect each other in the complete determinateness. He who would judge a philosophy's substance without regard to its peculiar form proceeds from the presupposition that the identity of content and form must rest upon the difference of both. If this way of seeing had no validity, then the history of philosophy would be meaningless; for the historical advance is always conditioned by the inadequate and outdated forms being cast off, in order that their essential content may be reproduced in a new form. He who maintains that the philosophical form cannot be separated from philosophy's content proceeds from the presupposition that the difference of form and content grounds their true identity — that the difference is thus a moment vanishing in the identity. If this contention were altogether false, science itself would be superfluous. — The difference between life's and philosophy's substance is in fact to be regarded as properly a difference of form, since all that has truth in life must also be recognized as truth in philosophy. What is peculiar in philosophy's content will thus rest upon its peculiar form; the productive philosophers who have discovered new forms have

at the same time drawn forth new moments of content. — What the intellectual intuition is with respect to the content, the dialectical reflection is with respect to the form. All speculation is intuition; the philosophical vision apprehends things' fundamental relations, life's shapes and existence's stages of development in large outlines; intuition is thus a plastic vision, for which form and method give themselves immediately together with content and substance. Without speculative genius there is no philosophical productivity: philosophy cannot be learned (Schelling). So long, however, as intuition has one-sided preponderance over reflection, the scientific form is present only in its possibility; but even if philosophy's genius has raised itself to "the realm of the dawn," still the ideas' genial breaking-forth and intuition's prophecies have significance only insofar as philosophy is able to go out beyond the beginning, fulfil the prophecy, and take up actuality's concrete content in articulated forms. Philosophy is science, and distinguishes itself from poetry in this, that its forms are won through independent reflection and an all-sidedly testing meditation; it thus presupposes study, it justifies its method, and must so far be capable of being learned (Hegel).

Remark 5. A philosophy's one-sidedness must not be confused with its incompleteness. Incompleteness shows itself in important points being passed over or only provisionally treated; but one-sidedness rests essentially upon certain fundamental moments being pushed back, while others on the contrary come forward with undue preponderance. A philosophy can be one-sided without being incomplete, and conversely incomplete without being one-sided. One-sidedness lies then in the systematic plan, in the method, and thus refers at once both to content and to form. Spinoza's system is one-sided, because substantiality here absorbs subjectivity, and even had Spinoza developed the human concept of freedom ever so fully, he would still never have been able to acknowledge freedom's reality without giving up his principle. Fichte's idealism is one-sided, because it lets subjectivity devour substantiality. True enough, Fichte has a place for the category of substance; but even had he written folios on the concept of substantiality, he would still, according to his fundamental view, never have recognized its objective significance. The true philosophical method can therefore in general be characterized as a totality-dialectic, which, to use Professor Sibbern's expression, forms itself "under an all-embracing conference and debate of everything against everything" (cfr. Sibbern: *Om Philosophiens Begreb, Natur og*

Væsen. Pag. 24; 81).



The Propaedeutic Logic's

second Part:

The Doctrine of the Objective Concept.



Introduction.



§ 12.

The Dialectical-Speculative Method.

In order to be able to begin, philosophy must not only abstract from everything, but just as much anticipate, and reserve to itself, the substance of all-existence (*Alexistensen*). Without a complete abstraction the philosophical beginning would be unmethodical; without anticipation, the principle of the development and the content of existence would fall outside the thinking consciousness; without the reservation,

the peculiarity of the facts and life's specific potencies would be hampered in the schematic development of the universal forms. The movement comes about in this way, that the anticipated concept-content constantly shows itself fuller and richer than the concept-form that has been reflected through; the one-sided concepts must therefore integrate one another, until the idea's articulated and totalized content has found its adequate typus. Philosophy's concept can, in consequence, not be presented in its beginning, but must seek its complete expression in the whole system. As formal principle it comes forward in the dialectical contradiction, which transforms the subjective reflection into an objective concept-reduction, so that every relative conclusion is presupposed as a new beginning; as real principle it sets its concrete content before the speculative vision, so that the methodical movement can so far be said to be the thing's and the truth's own self-movement through the philosophizing spirit. It lies, however, in the creaturely spirit's limitation, that the absolute, contentful truth cannot at any historical point of time whatever conclude its development in an adequate system. Philosophy therefore always has the double task, at once to solve and to tighten existence's problems.

Remark 1. From the most various peripheral points of departure the philosophical movement of thought can lead us into the central inquiry itself. Everyone who has endowment and cultivation can so far begin his philosophizing with whatever subject he himself pleases, and by choosing a matter that immediately appeals to his consciousness, often even pose new problems, awaken new associations of ideas, and give hitherto overlooked, forgotten or faded truths fresh and living colors. But if a series of such isolated performances now forms itself, then the question necessarily arises how they stand to one another and to the universally valid truth. It is not enough that the sporadically produced results, freed from superficial contradiction, can be set up beside one another in consciousness, like objects that each have their place in space; nor is it enough that by an ingenious "Dialellus" they confirm one another as members of a plausible hypothesis, for no probability replaces the certain truth. Philosophical free-hand drawings are certainly far easier to sketch than correct, scientific ground-plans; if it were merely a matter of painting out and championing an individual view of life by subjective moods, bold assertions, fleeting leaps of thought and motley associations of ideas, then every Protagoras would himself be μέτρον πάντων, and we should obtain as many kinds of philosophies as philosophizing individuals. If the

philosophical theory is to be more than a preliminary hypothesis, then its moments of content must at every point coincide as well with the objective subsistence as with the subjective reflection, and *rationes cognoscendi* be justified in their unity with *rationes essendi*. This identity is not primarily to be sought in any single existing thing, for singleness's *ratio essendi* cannot be deduced by pure concept-analysis. But although the existing singleness cannot be derived from the rational universality, it can nevertheless on the other side neither be, nor be thought to be, except in and by means of the universal concept-determinations. Philosophy's methodical testing must therefore begin by clarifying through and through that medium in which all determinations of being are at the same time determinations of thought; it must begin with the *objective* logic.

Remark 2. As the objective logic shows itself to be philosophy's proper foundation, this science's content and compass must be more closely determined. If we keep one-sidedly to *universalia in re*, then logic's content seems to restrict itself to a very narrow compass; for existence's actual objects, the different spheres of real life, cannot, as such, be treated in the metaphysical doctrine of thought. If on the contrary we keep one-sidedly to *universalia in mente*, then logic seems to expand to an infinite compass; for every existing concept comes into view with objective *apriority*, and the number of the ontological universal forms grows gradually as real cognition extends itself (—positive and negative electricity; the concept of the positive and the negative —). This ambiguity is removed by making distinct the ontological categories' double content. Thus, for example, the difference between "something" and "other" is not merely a *logical*, but at the same time an *existential* difference. The thought is something, the representation an other; the flower is something, the fruit an other; God is something, the world an other. Here a double way of seeing now presents itself; for partly the different subjects (thought, flower, God) have the common determination of being something, from which it then follows that so far they must all stand in the same relation to their other. The logical boundary between "something" and "other" must thus, once for all determined, hold of the relation between the most various objects. "Something" and "other" are hereby held fast as pure *universalia in mente*, and are distinguished solely according to their logical content. But this logical difference is at the same time ontological; it is not merely a difference of thought, but a difference of existence, and, as such, existential. Everything that really is something is *eo ipso*

more than a mere something. The flower, which before was determined as something, is at the same time to be determined as a thing with its properties, as a substance with its accidents, as a relative organism, and so on. Every something thus stands in a quite particular relation to its other, whereby the difference becomes existential (*universalia in re*), and the development of the content oversteps logic's boundaries. The same holds, though in a higher form, of the relation between the *necessary* and the *contingent*. If one concedes that the necessary determinations must be treated in logic, then it will also easily be seen that the contingent cannot be excluded either. Thought's vision is a double vision: the necessary lets itself be determined only in relation to the contingent. Already the circumstance that one wants, in virtue of necessity's logical nature, to exclude contingency, occasions a logical recollection of the contingent's unlogical aberrations. If one says that the necessary must always relate itself to itself in the same way, then the contingent will be determined as that which must always relate itself to itself in different ways; but hereby the contingent things also at once receive a logical signalment, a common mark, whereby they, apart from the difference that concerns their existence, can be characterized in ontology. Of all reciprocal concepts it therefore holds that in their cultivation they must always keep step with one another. At a tautology such as this: "the necessary is necessary," no rational thinking can remain standing; but all particular determinations that hold of necessity must necessarily reflect themselves in the opposite determinations that specify contingency. Actuality is only in virtue of essentiality; hence the ontological moments of both spheres must be seen in their infinite reciprocal shining: in the same degree as the essence's concept is developed, actuality's is developed too; if the categories of actuality were to be excluded from logic, then the essence's would have to be excluded also, *quod absurdum est*.

The boundary between the objective logic and real-philosophy is no merely subsisting or *critical* boundary, which could be widened by addition or narrowed by subtraction. Those who find it contradictory that the concept of God should be capable of development in logic proceed from the in itself correct presupposition that pure ontology cannot be theology. But to want to abolish religion's God in virtue of pure science, without consulting logic as to whether the concept that lies at the ground of the religious representation of God agrees with the metaphysical laws of thought or not, betrays a scientific frivolity. Every religion presupposes its particular

logic; which logic is the true one can be tested only in logic itself. But although logic's boundary is not merely *critical*, this determinate science nevertheless has its boundary all the same, namely a *dialectical*, or, if you will, a *critical-dialectical* boundary. The concrete content of the concept of God is thus one thing in theology, another in the objective logic, in that the ontological determinations give themselves as moments in the existential ones. In the concrete science the objective logic does not, it is true, get a word in; but its immanent forms still find their continued development in and with the real content itself; the formal logic, whose boundary is critical, requires an *application*; the speculative, whose boundary is dialectical, must be *laid at the ground*.

Remark 3. The question of philosophy's methodical beginning coincides, then, according to the foregoing, with the question of logic's beginning. In this respect the observation holds that the simpler concepts must go before the more contentful. The concept of cause, for example, cannot be fully understood before the concept of ground is developed; the concept ground in turn presupposes the concept of an existence whose ground it is. Thus thought is led back to being, which in its pure universality embraces all that exists. He, then, who stands at philosophy's proper beginning dare not at once pass any determinate judgment upon the existing things; for the pure beginning has as yet no content. Nevertheless the beginning is still the proper running-start: a beginning must be made; the judgment must be uttered, and since it lacks both subject and predicate, because thought still wants every more special determination, the empty copula remains: *x er y*. The beginning thus brings the whole existential multiplicity under one form, and reduces all actuality's fractions to their common denominator: semblance *is*, just as much as essence; the lie *is*, just as much as the truth; everything *is*. Although the true being cannot, in the beginning itself, be separated from the false, it is nevertheless by no means a creature of subjective thinking alone. Insofar as the universal being represents to us the whole universe, the sensuous as well as the non-sensuous, it presents itself at the same time as the herald of objectivity, of necessity and of omnipotence — which is also seen from the fact that thought cannot give it up without losing its own life in the same breath. He who thinks: "Being is not at all," is thinking of not-being; if now this not-being is held fast as an independent thought by itself in the form of "nothing," we still come to the result that "nothing" is, that it has being. The concept "nothing" is thus thought itself, thought in its pure emptiness, an intolerable shadow that can be grasped only

by the help of being. As thought thinks its own annihilation, it comes at the same time to think of being, and is saved by this dependence upon a real power from a logical suicide. The abstraction consists, then, in this, that all difference is given up, in order that thinking and being may be cognized in their essential unity. Since the philosophizing consciousness can think both thought's and being's vanishing in "nothing," every immediate presupposition is annulled, and philosophy can so far be said to begin without any presuppositions; but since "nothing" must rather be called a thought-experiment than a true thought, annihilation's phantom must instantly vanish, and philosophy has, regarded from this side, an absolute presupposition.

Everything will now rest upon the reciprocal relation that continues to obtain between the philosophizer's consciousness and life's actuality. If the subject that undertakes the abstraction closed its eye to the existential multiplicity, thought would be lost in a mystical dream-vision, and the beginning itself, without movement and advance, would coincide with the end. The mystical consciousness is presuppositionless, because it despises actuality; the philosophical consciousness, on the contrary, can never be presuppositionless, because it is to comprehend actuality. What from the beginning keeps the abstract thought awake, and hinders it from becoming mystical, is precisely the clear recollection of the insufficiency of abstraction and of the empty forms. As reflection grasps the universal being, intuition turns itself toward existence's fundamental relations and life's substance, thereby sets itself the task in its whole compass, and sees in a forward vision whither the way of development leads. This intuitive apprehension is, however, no tautological repetition of the represented world's content, nor a mere recollection of the knowledge and experiences the individual has acquired before the beginning of philosophizing; for the whole of actuality must be reduced to a real possibility, and all facts taken up into the great universal problem. But just as little can existence's essential factors be placed in abeyance, so that consciousness is led blindly along by a formal consistency of thought, without knowing whither; for when intuition no longer finds anything toward which reflection can turn, thought stands still. Hence the intellectual intuition must always hasten on ahead, and prepare the way for reflection. On this, then, rests *anticipation's* significance: that the philosopher from the beginning must both possess and yet not possess philosophy's result. If the result is not from the beginning had *in mente*, then the philosophical method cannot be laid out at all. Even the most one-sided and skewed

plan still always presupposes an anticipation; as the forward vision is, so will the plan also be. Philosophy is in this respect its own presupposition. But conversely, if the philosophical result were finished in and with the beginning itself, then the whole development would lose its significance; the philosopher would then have to possess his philosophy as he began to philosophize — which is a contradiction, since he begins to philosophize precisely in order to find his philosophy. The anticipation will thus contain the system's central points together with the fundamental form, so that the whole plan may be said to lie in the type and the sketch. But as the result is not at once finished, so neither can the type and the schema be. Hegelianism has in this respect often contradicted itself; for while this philosophy has on the one side boasted of being completely presuppositionless, and urged the immanent form, it has on the other side at manifold points betrayed that its already finished schema was a given presupposition. He who fully recollects that all-existence from the beginning lies hidden under the category being must also recognize that philosophy thereby enters into an original relation to all that is given, and everyone who has recognized that the given content must always determine its own form will also see the necessity of reserving to oneself the forms' infinite pliancy and freedom. If philosophy is not from its beginning laid out to take up the given *per intus-susceptionem*, then in the course of its development it must necessarily either lose itself in formalism or grow inorganically *per juxta-appositionem*. From this point of view, then, *the reservation* counts as a subjective condition for rightly taking up and thoroughly testing the given. Presuppositionlessness by no means signifies, then, an ignorance of life's higher demands and interests artificially produced by the abstraction, but must on the contrary be determined as the testing and searching spirit's unprejudiced freedom, as the true philosophical *Dikaiosyne*. If I am not to philosophize in order to defend a theistic view, whether it be true or untrue, then neither am I to philosophize in order to champion a *preconceived* opinion of pantheism's or atheism's scientific superiority, but must on the contrary reserve to myself the decision of the result, in order that truth may be cognized in its truth, as *index sui et falsi*.

Remark 4. As the abstraction is, so is the beginning, and as the anticipation is, so will the principle also be: the more thorough the anticipation, the more thorough the principle. It lies then in the nature of the case that the principle cannot be expressed in the beginning itself, although from the beginning it must be had *in mente*. The

difference between the logical and the existential beginning rests precisely on this, that the former can show itself only as a reflex of the moving principle, while the latter has the principle immediately in itself. The pure being is thus by no means to be regarded as philosophy's principle, as little as the pure thinking; the plant, on the contrary, which develops its existence out of the kernel, can be said to begin with the principle itself. For the same reason the logical movement, which transforms succession into a vanishing semblance, is also essentially different from the existential movement, which goes on in and with succession. Between "being's" beginning and "the concept's" close there does indeed enter a succession, insofar as the one ontological category is taken up and developed after the other; but this time-sequence vanishes again as a semblance in reflection, since the concept, which in the course of the development has come forth as a *tempore posterius*, is at the close recognized as *dignitate prius*. That every logical advance is at the same time an essential step backward arises from this, that the ontological beginning, which is incommensurable with its principle, strives back toward that ground-existence which bears in itself all the concept's universal forms. The existential beginning, which has the principle immediately in itself, unfolds its content in succession; for since it has all its *universalia in re*, the moments' difference everywhere becomes a real difference, which for its unfolding requires the forms of space and time.

The Hegelian proposition, that *the thing moves itself*, has in recent times occasioned great confusion, in that the category of movement has been wholly misunderstood, and the logical movement mixed up with the existential. Hegel's expression is directed most nearly against the one-sidedness of formal thinking, according to which it must always seem to the thinking subject as if the whole development of the object's content concerned only the subjective reflection, which takes occasion from a given object to institute a series of connected considerations, without pressing more nearly into the thing's nature and essence. Regarded as corrective, the proposition thus expresses the truth that the thing itself, by presenting all its moments, in the course of the development translates its whole intellectual content into the thinker's consciousness. The movement is this, that *universalia in re* are transformed into *universalia in mente*; but insofar as the same *universalia* nevertheless continue to exist *in re*, the object in question falls wholly outside the logical movement. In its crassest form the misunderstanding is present when one personifies the categories

in logic, as the old Gnostics personified the aeons in the Pleroma; the movement then goes on as by a logical sorcery, the thinker is set down as a quietistic spectator, and the concept-mysticism is obvious. This whole confusion arises, however, solely from a misunderstood breviloquence. Instead of saying: He who thinks “something” must consistently come to think “other,” i.e. *pass over* to the thought of “other,” one says by an abbreviation: “something” *passes over* into “other.” It must, however, not be overlooked that this mode of expression also has its objective significance; for it reminds us that a “something” that cannot be thought without an “other” cannot be without its “other” either, so that the transition thinking makes is at the same time a transition that lies in the thing’s own character. It stands the same way, to use another example, with the transition from possibility to actuality. If one wants to hold possibility so one-sidedly fast that all its moments are thought as pure determinations of essence, then no dialectic shall be able to derive actuality from its concept; for each of actuality’s marks will then at once transform itself, for consideration, into a logical reflex. The truth is that everyone, in order thoroughly to think possibility, must already have anticipated actuality. As thought recollects this anticipation, it becomes evident that possibility itself would be impossible if actuality did not actually occur, i.e. if possibility did not pass over into actuality. As the outer world can be represented only by the help of thinking, so the intelligible world can be thought only by the help of representation. The ideal movement in essence’s and necessity’s eternity and the real change in actuality’s and contingency’s temporality correspond with each other at every point, without their true difference being thereby annulled.

The difficulty in understanding the logical movement has not primarily an objective but a subjective, not primarily a metaphysical but a psychological ground. If, for example, the task is set of reflecting through the concept of change, then it will easily appear that this requires sharp thinking, intellectual beholding and philosophical freedom from prejudice. For change presupposes that “something” really is different from “other” — here, then, one must distinguish; but if “other” did not itself belong to the concept of “something,” then “something” could not possibly pass over into “other”; as “something” is thought, “other” must thus be had *in mente*. Finally, the logical apprehension of change will rest upon none of the moments brought out getting one-sided preponderance, but upon the alternation and the streaming being maintained unbroken. Let us now have three philosophers, A, B and C, each of whom

lacks one of the conditions named, make an experiment with the concept, and the outcome will soon show that they cannot possibly come to agreement. A, who has an eye only for the difference, sets “something” and “other” up against each other as pure thought-petrifications, and then cannot explain the transition to himself except by a qualitative leap, from which the consequence again follows that change must be recognized as a deception of the senses, since identity is lacking. B, on the contrary, who has caught sight of identity alone, is not able to comprehend the difference. Change again becomes a deception of the senses, but for an entirely opposite reason: because the true difference is lacking. While A thus posits a discreteness without continuity, a multiplicity without unity, B on the contrary posits a continuity without discreteness, a unity without multiplicity. Finally C steps in, and as he discovers the one-sidedness of A and B, and turns his whole attention to the transition and the process, he forgets at the same time that an infinite streaming still cannot be thought without there being “something” that streams. Every time A now maintains that the two opposed members must be held fast in their difference, he is corrected by B, who accentuates the essential unity of both; B is corrected by C, who dissolves the one’s being into pure becoming; C ought again to be corrected by A; and — the discussion turns in a circle. If there is added to this, that each of the philosophers concerned must, according to his particular disposition, have laid out his philosophy in a peculiar way, and thereby placed himself under a causality that compels him to take sides, then one-sidedness will easily pass over into self-will and obstinacy, so that the strife never comes to an end.

Remark 5. The metaphysical movement presupposes a moving principle; this shows itself at once from a double side. For reflection and dialectic it is “the thorough contradiction” (cfr. § 6, Remark 5); for intuition and speculation it is all-existence’s “first Mover.” The former we may therefore call philosophy’s *formal principle*, the latter its *real principle*. As the Hegelian philosophy has overlooked anticipation, and volatilized the existential beginning into the logical, it has at the same time overvalued the dialectical contradiction, and hypostatized it into a creating principle. What is profound in Hegel’s fundamental view is that the “*infinite negativity*” is recognized as the expression of an energetic reflection, which possesses all positive moments in ideal unity, so that their stepping out into actuality shows itself as thought’s and the idea’s own breaking-forth. But nonetheless the whole development still comes

to look as if it were the want and the lack (στέρησις) that themselves brought forth the fullness and the satisfaction, as if impotence brought forth omnipotence. In virtue of the anticipation, the contradiction poses a dialectical demand, but does not itself satisfy it. The new moments that integrate the want unfold themselves before the vision out of reality's own positive ground, but the contradiction's dialectic introduces them by opening consistency's door. The question of the contradiction's absolute validity hangs most closely together with the question of philosophical immanence. If one forgets that *universalia* can be thought *in re* only on the presupposition that they are at the same time thought *in mente divina* (cfr. § 5, Remark 6; § 10, Remark 4. Pg. 87), then the abstract immanence arises; then each of the new potencies will, for its stepping out into life and history, be referred to an indeterminable "Ansich," which can be regarded as a slumbering contradiction. If on the contrary we hold fast that essential presupposition, then transcendence at once enters, not primarily in the form of an abstract beyond, but in the form of centrality and depth: "the finite grounds and relative conditions spin themselves out as a tautological continuation of the one relative existence in the other; but first when centrality's lightning strikes down into the circle of the conditions is the real beginning posited, and a new existence rises up out of mediation's stream" (jfr. "Den speculative Logik i dens Grundtræk" 4de Hæfte, Pag. 161–169). The historical turning-points, for example, can by no means be explained as though the new age were merely a positive unfolding of the negativum that the earlier period itself contained. The period's ferment and dissolution must on the contrary be regarded as the last utterances of its dying life, whereby its decrepit actuality is reduced to stuff and condition for the epoch's breakthrough. This breakthrough has its existential beginning in the real principle, which, preformed in the absolute Being's intellectual depth, now steps out according to the Mover's positive "*fiat*." It is evident from this what infinite significance the philosophizer's whole subjectivity must have upon philosophy's development and plan; for as regards the real principle, everything will essentially rest upon the relation in which the philosopher has originally set himself to the first Mover of all movements.

Remark 6. In the history of philosophy we see how the human spirit now congratulates itself upon an absolute knowledge, now thereupon humbles itself again, as though one could know nothing at all. When the one of these ways of seeing has for a time uttered itself in its whole one-sidedness, one can always be assured that it will

soon be relieved by the other. If we ask Kant: "What can man know?" then he will answer us that the most thorough self-cognition leads to the result that the essence of things is, for theoretical reason, an unfathomable mystery; if we consult Hegel, then he will comfort us with this, that nothing is so hidden but thought shall reveal it; and the half-initiated now expect a solution of all existence's riddles. The Hegelian concept of "*the absolute knowledge*" has partly, without any fault on the master's side, been maltreated by unintelligent disciples, who have used it as a designation for a kind of philosophical omniscience, partly been criticized as a phrase that betrayed a misjudgment of life's very deepest problems. Nor is this censure without all ground; for although Hegel is within his good right when he demands that true thinking shall know itself identical with its objective content, and thus give it the complete assurance of its own reality, still his whole system betrays a one-sided tendency to dispatch the deepest problems of life with a dialectical turn, to annul the mystery, and to identify the human knowledge with the divine. The more a philosophy is laid out to close itself off and declare the fundamental problems solved, the more it thereby prepares its own dissolution. Philosophy may choose what standpoint it will, the mystery will always come into view (even materialism has its mysterious presuppositions). The difference is only that some posit a religious, others an ethical, others again a naturalistic mystery. Indeed, in some philosophical theories we even find the mystery set out as the in-itself incomprehensible, as a paradox at strife with the laws of thinking. This way of seeing evidently rests upon a misunderstanding; for if the mystery is assumed to have a rational content, then it can only be an irrational thinking that finds it in itself unthinkable; and if the presupposed mystery must be recognized as at strife with all reason, then thinking cannot bow beneath it without declaring itself irrational. The confusion arises from mixing up the in-itself incomprehensible, i.e. the concept-less, with what is for us ungraspable; for the true mystery is the creating Ground's inexhaustible depth, that infinite substance of life which only an almighty intelligence masters and comprehends. Therefore philosophy shall not attempt to comprehend everything, but rather, by an all-sided penetration into truth's essence, make it comprehensible to us that everything is comprehensible.

First Chapter.*The Formation of the Objective Concept.***§ 13.****Being and Essence.**

In the immediate subsistence, *something* is always bounded by *other*, and everything subjected to a *change*. But the changeable being is, when more closely thought through, only a *semblance*; the *changeable* presupposes the unchangeable, and *the semblance* shows itself as the essence's *phenomenon*. *The essence* must therefore be recognized as the true being, which in all change keeps itself unchanged. Without a phenomenal existence the essence could not come into view, and without an essential origin the finite existence would be wholly unthinkable. As the real presupposition from which existence is derived, the essence must be said to be the things' *ground*, and the multiplicity of things an expression of the ground's *existence*.

Remark 1. As beginning-concept, being is given in its whole ambiguity. This ambiguity must be removed; and this can happen only by the many heterogeneous determinations that still flow together in its indeterminate unity being sorted out and clarified. The task is thus to pursue the concept's transformations, and to characterize being in its different relations. The simplest separation is that which can be expressed in the abstract opposition between being and not-being. So long as the difference is held fast in this immediacy, the one being has the same worth as the other; being is then apprehended as *subsistence*, whose opposed members are *something* and *other*, which are continually exchanged in "*change*." The essential difference comes into view, on the contrary, when the question is raised of the true being in opposition to the untrue or half-true being; the former is then to be determined as *essence*, the latter as *semblance*, and the *objective reflection* as the relation of the two. As the essence now shows itself as the original, substance-full being, from which the semblance receives its derived subsistence, the former is to be presupposed as *the ground*, the latter as *the existence*, so that the relation between ground and existence gives us the first ontological concept of the things' *origin*.

“The wholly indeterminate being is as yet nothing — so one is entitled to express oneself even according to immediate usage. What cannot be determined by any predicate, what is not something, is nothing. (This is one of the several senses in which the word nothing is taken.) With the observation that being is nothing, or rather that it is as yet nothing for us, the ontological movement of thought has properly first begun. For like every movement it presupposes two points: one from which the movement goes out, and one to which it goes. By this movement it is here brought to determinate consciousness that in the concept being there lies a want or lack. Nothing designates here the vacant place for a predicate. The pure being is nothing, says the same as: to be is as yet nothing, unless thereby is thought: to be something. Something is thus the new category that steps into the place of nothing, and first by uttering the sentence: “Being is something,” have I made a clear advance in thinking.

It has become custom and usage, on Hegel’s authority, to regard the pure being as the category that lies at the ground of the Eleatics’ view of the world. Without deciding the question whether that philosophy is with good ground compared with this place in ontology (which from a strictly historical standpoint might perhaps be denied), it may be remarked in passing that τὸ ὄν among the Eleatics — instead of τὸ εἶναι — at least does not exactly correspond to the pure being, or the to-be, since the hypostatization that lies in the Greek word makes the concept more concrete than it here, according to its determination, should be. The Danish *Væren* is here more adequate than the corresponding words among several other cultivated nations. The French *être* is, for example, more ambiguous, as is the German *Seyn*, which, at least with the definite article, is also used to designate the sum-total of all that is.” (Poul Møller).

As being is thought with determinateness, and referred to something that is, it is at the same time bounded. The one being hereby steps forward over against the other: something has other for its boundary. By this bounding the concept is doubled, as being (something) that relates itself to being (other), i.e. as sub-sistence [Til=*Væren*]. In order to declare what subsistence is, we must set up two contradicting sentences: “Something is not other,” and: “Something is other.” By keeping to the first, we urge that something has otherness outside itself; by keeping to the latter, we recognize that otherness lies in the concept of something. When A is posited as something, B as other, then B cannot be, insofar as A is: something and other thus exclude each

other by means of the boundary. But according to this mutual exclusion the concepts are at the same time to be seen as correlate. If it is said of B that it is an other, then it is at the same time said that it is also a something; and as B is apprehended as something, A is in opposition thereto apprehended as other. Something is thus in itself other, and other in itself something; something is consequently not merely bounded by other, but also determined as other. Existence's dialectical contradiction consists in this, that both sentences, each for itself, are equally true and equally untrue; but the contradiction is resolved as soon as it is seen that the one sentence can be *derived* from the other. Every time I have said: something is not other, I must correct myself and say: something is nevertheless other. With this utterance the point of view is again in part missed, and I am led back once more to the first sentence: something is not other. To this subjective movement of thought corresponds existence's own objective movement; for existence consists in an unbroken change. Something is not merely there for itself, but just as much there for an other; that something is *for* other shows itself precisely in its alteration or For Andring (Heraclitus's *πόρῃ*).

Although it has its validity that everything exists in becoming and change, this insight into existence's nature is nevertheless still very superficial. The world-view that is built upon it is for that reason so unreliable that it awakens wholly conflicting moods. The thought that everything flows away in change's stream makes one man melancholy, another light-minded. Legend tells of the philosopher of the streaming that he always wept. But at bottom it is not worth taking the fleeting existence so much to heart; for when everything is changeable, then sorrow and pain come to an end just as well as joy and enjoyment: everything is a transition; it is told of Democritus that he always laughed.

Change itself is just as ambiguous a concept as being. This ambiguity arises from the fact that the boundary between something and other can be apprehended partly *qualitatively*, partly *quantitatively*. So long as one in abstract fashion holds these two sides apart from each other, change will always carry a double surprise with it. First, it must be striking that something can go through a series of changes without really changing itself (— the water can become colder and colder without crystallizing —); next, it must surprise us in the highest degree that the something that has so long kept itself unchanged now suddenly, as by a leap, shifts subsistence and becomes something quite other (— the force's decline, the moment of death; the nodal line —). This surprise

vanishes, however, when we recollect that quantity is always present in quality, and the latter in the former. Everything that exists in the form of quality must also exist in the form of quantity (the color and space, the tone and time), just as conversely quantity always has its subsistence in quality's form (space and the atom; the number and the sign). Quality's sudden reversal is prepared by the quantitative change, and is for that reason a leap *whereby nothing is leapt over*. On the other side, quantity's indifferent change is bounded by the qualitative; for although increase and diminution are nuanced to infinity, all such modifications in existence itself must still always fall within the circumference of a determinate something. That the qualitative change is hidden in the quantitative is made known by *the degree*; that the quantitative is bound to quality is expressed in *the measure* (– πέρας – ἄπειρον – μέτρον –). Without having the degree in itself, the measure would permit no comparison, and without having the measure in itself, gradation would dissolve into endless approximation. That no thing can overstep its measure without losing its existence is made intuitable in the well-known fable of the frog that burst when it puffed itself up in order to become as big as the ox.

Remark 2. Existence shows itself everywhere as a unity of the changeable and the unchangeable. No one can deny that the changeable is; for in change the one distinguishes itself from the other, and thereby receives a relative significance; but it has nevertheless no true being, for in the same instant that I would seize and hold it fast, it has fled and vanished. The changeable only *seems* to be; therefore we call it a *semblance*. Nor can it be denied that the unchangeable is; for when everything finds itself in a restless change, then this change must at least itself show itself as the unchangeable. If the unchangeable were not, there could be no true cognition (Theaetetus); one could then pass no judgment, for while thought moved from subject to predicate, the subject would already have changed itself, so that it now demanded a quite different predicate. Everything that is said of the changeable is, in the same moment it is uttered, both true and untrue. Hence Plato contests not only the Eleatics' abstract-idealistic being, but also Protagoras's sensualistic application of the Heraclitean becoming. The unchangeable is thus in the changeable, and the latter in the former, as unity is in multiplicity, and this in that. If we now consider the unchangeable more closely, then it must be recognized to be both in and *over* the change. It cannot possibly be without change, for everything subsisting is changeable;

nor can it be dissolved into the change, since it is itself unchangeable. It *seems* to change, but does not really change itself; it thus has changeableness as a semblance, in which its unchangeableness comes into view. In opposition to the semblance, the true being is to be determined as existence's *essence*.

It is easily seen that there must be a quite different relation between essence and semblance than between something and other. By apprehending what subsists in the form of something and other, one really remains standing at existence's surface; but as the difference between essence and semblance dawns upon consciousness, being itself is separated into two ontological regions, so that the essence's unity most nearly shows itself as a beyond, the semblance-existence's multiplicity as a this-side. In the superficial subsistence the one is just as significant, and therefore also just as insignificant, as the other; something and other are coordinate concepts. But according to the separation between essence and semblance, the essence has the superordinate, the semblance the subordinate being. Something can become other, for it can change itself; but the proper essence cannot change itself and become semblance, as little as the empty semblance can change itself and become essence. Something is, so long as it is thought in its superficial and qualitative bounding, wholly indifferent to other; but such an indifference cannot hold of essence and semblance. Only in the semblance's mirror does one discover the essence, and only as the essence's reflected splendor can the semblance be. He who thinks or posits "something," is therefore not always conscious that he has at the same time presupposed or thought an "other"; but he who calls existence a semblance has already caught sight of the essence, and he who understands how to speak of the things' essence proves just thereby that his thought-vision has penetrated existence's surface, and seen it as a semblance. When the semblance is posited, the essence is presupposed, and conversely; the subjective reflection coincides in this reciprocal shining entirely with the objective; hence the *essential relation* always consists in reflection (jfr. Pag. 15).

So long as our subjective reflection is not yet cultivated all-sidedly enough, we always stand in danger of falling into two one-sidednesses, in that we either set an all too great distance between the semblance and the essence, or identify them to such a degree that the essence wholly vanishes in the semblance. The semblance's difference from the essence is one-sidedly expressed in the sentence: *The semblance deceives*. One then presupposes that there is something behind the semblance that does not deceive,

while it is at the same time assumed that the whole finite existence is a delusion, a realm of illusions, which hides the essence and the truth from our eye. (This view lies at the ground of the Indian myth of Maya's veil.) But the semblance is able to blind only so long as it is taken for more than it is; he who sees through the semblance is not deceived. For it lies precisely in the semblance's concept to be recognized as semblance, to show itself in its own nothingness, in order that the essence itself may come into view. The naked essence, without semblance and appearing, is in itself just as empty and contentless as the pure semblance. It is by no means any defect in our vision that we cannot see the pure essence, since it much rather lies in the nature of the case that an essence which in itself lacks all determinateness must vanish as a meaningless tautology. That the semblance has its truth in the essence's appearing is recognized when we determine it as *phenomenon*. The phenomenon is thus unity of essence and semblance — a unity that at the same time expresses the difference of both, and therefore must be apprehended as *identity*. But if we now concede to identity's immediate determinateness a one-sided preponderance, then we lose the essence's universality and self-validity wholly from sight, and must keep exclusively to the single phenomena and particular appearances.

The one-sidedness in both these ways of seeing becomes still more striking when we seek out the corresponding directions of life. For upon the amphibolous relation between essence and semblance rests the opposition between the mystical-ascetic and the aesthetic-eudaimonistic view. As the mystic would free himself from the semblance's delusion and the phenomenon's finitude, he is at the same time misled into overlooking the essence's own determinateness reflected in itself. The aesthete, on the contrary, who keeps solely to the immediately determinate essence, acquiesces in the phenomena's finitude. The mystic, who would annihilate the imaged in order to remove the illusion, stares himself blind at the pure light, and is thus himself deluded; the aesthete, who acknowledges the essence's semblance only in image and phenomenon, ends by transforming truth itself into a play of essential illusions. When the mystic, in order to annul his essence's phenomenal bounding, kills the sense of the flesh and becomes an ascetic, the aesthete enjoys essentiality's fragrance in the fleeting appearance, and becomes a eudaimonist.

Remark 3. Kant has, as is well known, also set up the antinomy that the world both must have a beginning in time, and yet must be assumed to have begun from

eternity.

Thesis: The world has a beginning in time.

Proof: If one assumes that the world has no temporal beginning, then at every given point of time a whole eternity must have elapsed. This means, in other words, that on this presupposition no proper reckoning of time can be thought. If an eternity lies between the world's beginning and the year 1844, then an eternity also lies between the world's beginning and Christ's birth; consequently the whole interval between Christ's birth and the year 1844 must be = 0. In order to escape such an absurdity, we must therefore assume that the world has a beginning in time.

Antithesis: The world has no beginning in time.

Proof: Before every thing's beginning a time must have passed in which the thing was not. If one now assumes that the world has a beginning in time, then there must have been a time when nothing existed, hence an *empty time*. But in an empty time no thing can arise. For the world to be able to come to be, a difference would have to enter between its non-existence and its existence; but the conditions for such a difference cannot be given in a wholly empty time. Therefore the world has existed from eternity. [Jfr. Kritik der rein. Vern. (Hartenstein Pag. 345), where the antithesis is more completely expressed].

The solution of this antinomy rests upon the true apprehension of the relation between essence and phenomenon. As eternity is the form in which the essence is intuited, so temporality is the form in which we intuit the phenomenal changes; time itself forms, strictly taken, no proper opposition to eternity, but is rather to be regarded as the middle concept between eternity and temporality: eternity is the *essential*, temporality the *phenomenal* time. The antinomy's contradiction vanishes when the phenomenal world's outer infinity is apprehended as counter-image to the essence's inner infinite sundering and determinateness. So long as thinking follows sensation's track, something and other can relieve each other to infinity; since the succession is outward and temporal, the series is unsurveyable. But the true reflection does not let itself be blinded by this infinite repetition of finitude; by seeing the transient's being and not-being, its coming and vanishing, in one view, it grasps the finite as semblance and phenomenon, and will thus not survey, but see through, the unsurveyable series. From this point of view it is then quite indifferent how far and wide the infinite finitude extends itself, if only it is seen that it is everywhere sundered

and determined by the measure's essential boundary, so that the intellectual intuition at every point recognizes eternity's light in temporality's medium. The objection that Trendelenburg ("Logische Untersuchungen, 1ster Band Pag. 46=55) has set up against the dialectical method — namely, that by an indefensible misuse of identity it should aim at transforming the "bad" infinity into the true — is in itself just as unreasonable as if he would force upon one the opinion that the sea is transformed into sky, because the eye is said to see the sky's image in the clear waves.

That essentiality and eternity are synonymous expressions is shown by usage, in that the essential reflection-determinations have been given the name of "*eternal truths*." It is an eternal truth that the sentence: $A = A$ gives a formal identity, and $A = \text{Not-}A$ a formal contradiction; it is an eternal truth that the square on the right triangle's hypotenuse is equal to the sum of the squares on its two legs; indeed every categorical judgment expresses, regarded from this point of view, a whole eternity. (*Per æternitatem intelligo ipsam existentiam, quatenus ex sola rei æternæ definitione necessario sequitur*. Spinoza). But as the categorical judgment must always be integrated by the hypothetical (jevnfr. Pag. 51, Anm. 4), so the essential universal determinations also everywhere presuppose phenomenal conditions, in order to make themselves felt. Which phenomenal magnitudes are in question each time is certainly, with respect to the pure identity and the pure contradiction, wholly indifferent; but these "eternal truths" would still in themselves be wholly unthinkable if there were in no case an A , a B or an X that could be set together with itself and its negation. True enough, the Pythagorean theorem is restricted neither to this nor to that triangle, but a determinate right-angled triangle must still always be presupposed if its truth is to hold. Thus the changeable and the unchangeable, the temporal and the eternal determinations reflect one another at all points in existence. — There is sometimes talk of essentiality's and eternity's perfect rest, as though here were a repose without all movement, and on the other side of existence's and temporality's unrest, as though here were a restless movement without rest and repose. In this form too, the separation of essence and phenomenon is wholly one-sided. It lies in reflection's concept that eternity's rest must take up a reflex of temporality's unrest, in order that the essence may come into view. The appearing itself expresses precisely the immanent movement. From the phenomenon's point of view we come to a similar result. The phenomenon is a subsisting thing and, as member in succession's series, subject to the outward

change; but everything subsisting is at the same time phenomenon, and with this determinateness a copy of the essence itself. All phenomena arise by a synthesis of the eternal and the temporal movement. As there is a time in eternity, so there is also an eternity in temporality; this ambiguity of time language holds fast whenever there is talk of “an eternal time.” From eternal time, then, the essence has had its immanent movement, and therein presupposed the phenomena’s finite world, and from eternal time the phenomenal unrest has been a moment in the essence’s calm appearing. But the phenomenal world itself has never been eternal; on the contrary! it has from eternal time been in temporality and, as such, subordinated to the eternal essence.

Remark 4. Essence, semblance and phenomenon are to be regarded as reflection-categories, by which the ontological moments are continually converted into pure thought-determinations; hence these categories are so clear and transparent. But since existence is not merely a thought-world but also an existential world, its ideal forms must also be apprehended from their real side, the logical moments translated into the ontological, and thinking take on anew a stamp of experience. This happens expressly when we determine the essence as *ground*, and the phenomenon as *existence*. For pure thinking the essence dawns as the eternal light in which all phenomena vanish as semblance; for real cognition it presents itself on the contrary as the positive foundation that bears the subsisting world, as the contentful presupposition out of which the innumerable shapes step forth, and to which they turn back. The ground is then to be intuited as existence’s secret root, as the obscure origin thought cannot penetrate, because in its mother-womb it encloses everything, both that which has not yet received existence and that which has ceased to be. Hence the myths also speak of the ground’s “holy night.” If on the other side we compare the phenomenon with existence, then a similar difference comes into view. The phenomenon is still encumbered with illusion (— the rainbow —), and can for that reason come and vanish like a meteor; existence, on the contrary, is a subsistence grounded in itself, and has as such an immediate firmness and solidity. The phenomenon is transparent for the reflecting thought-vision, and no separation can yet be made between its essential and its unessential determinations; in existence, on the contrary, we separate the thing itself from its properties, and the thing, which has its peculiar character in the properties, sets itself against thought with objectual hardness. Every thing can then always be called a something, but the mere something is not yet recognized as

thing; for something is immediately one with its quality, while the thing, which has the properties, must be said to constitute their foundation. In consequence, change now also shows itself from a new side; for the things refer to one another through their properties. What property a thing has can be seen only in another thing's property. (That the knife is sharp is known from there being something that can be cut.) Existential independence rests, then, upon changes being able to go on in the properties, although the thing itself in essentials continues to be the same; but when all the properties are changed, the thing's existence ceases. It is therefore just as one-sided to assume a multiplicity of things that should keep themselves wholly indifferent to every change (Herbart's *Realia*), as to defend the proposition that every thing should be able to undergo all conceivable transformations.

The ontological relation between ground and existence can in general be reduced to the following three fundamental propositions: a) *Everything is at ground one*, b) *Everything is at ground different*, and c) *Everything must have its sufficient ground*.

a) "Whithersoever I turned my thought, says Xenophanes, it dissolved into one and all (εἰς ἓν καὶ πᾶν ἀπελύετο)." In this utterance we must accentuate the word *thought* (νόημα), for the phenomenal becoming and multiplicity's sensory existence the Eleatics never denied. But when becoming with its multiplicity is nevertheless there, even if only in representation and outer experience (δόξα), then the question necessarily arises whence it has really got this semblance-existence. Instead of saying: "Everything is one," and thus remaining standing at a dualism of rational unity and irrational multiplicity, the Eleatics ought properly to have said: "Everything is at ground one," and thereby made known that multiplicity is grounded in unity. Nothing has ever been, and nothing can come to be, without presupposing its ground. Since things are first sundered, and receive their peculiar marks, by stepping out of the ground and coming to existence, there can, as regards the absolute ground, be no talk of any proper difference or existential multiplicity. Nonetheless this multiplicity is still to be derived from the ground, and must then be anticipated in the ground's unity. In this pregnant sense the ground is said to have a *depth*, a *content*, a *fullness*. Hence the Gnostics also depicted the things' unknown origin as "*the Depth*" (βυθός, προπάτωρ) and "*the Silence*" (σιγή), which rested in the fullness's inner infinity (πλήρωμα). The Depth is then, according to its concept, the ground-unity in which all difference-determinations are presupposed as dawning reflexes, the absolute point of fullness

from which all existence's moments develop themselves.

b) The original ground cannot possibly ground the things' multiplicity without also grounding their difference. Each existence presupposes its particular ground: so many things, so many grounds. The difference is then as thoroughgoing as the unity; the sundering falls not only outside but also within the ground itself, so that the absolute ground must be said to have an innumerable host of relative grounds. This way of seeing is already expressed in the representation of Chaos, which with all its obscurity is still assumed to contain "*discordia semina rerum*," but is presented still more profoundly and more idealistically in Gnosticism. For every aeon (αἰὼν) in the Gnostic Pleroma can be regarded as a relative absolutum, which according to its measure partakes in the whole fullness. Measure and inner bounding thus belong to the constitution of the primitive ground-relations; hence the boundary-keeper, Ὀρεός, plays so considerable a role in the Valentinian system — With respect to this, all thorough philosophical cognition presupposes a true unity of *profundity* and *acumen*. The profound thinker *speculates*, keeps to the *principium rationis sufficientis*, and seeks to reduce the existential multiplicity to the ground's unity. The acute thinker *criticizes*, holds by the *principium contradictionis*, and strives to orient himself in the given existence by distinguishing and finding existence's difference. Forsaken by the true acumen, profundity must end in mystical *broodings*; separated from profundity, the acute thinking becomes a shallow-drafted critique of the understanding, whose reasoning subtlety culminates in hair-splitting. For the profound, the ground is a living and productive mystery; for the mere acumen, the mystery is the dead, sterile foundation, reflection's *Noli-me-tangere*, the paradox. In opposition to antiquity's preponderant profundity stands the present age's predominant acumen. (Already Plato thought that the elders had stood in a more intimate relation to the gods.) Nonetheless both these directions of cognition alternate with each other in all ages (mysticism — scholasticism), and counterbalance each other under different conditions. Kant's *Kritik der reinen Vernunft* is a product of one-sided acumen; in Schelling's original philosophy, profundity has the preponderance.

c) In the synthesis of the two preceding fundamental propositions lies the concept of the sufficient ground. For it is wholly insufficient to appeal to the one universal ground when the task is to explain the things' peculiarity (*qui nimium probat, nihil probat*); it is likewise insufficient to explain each single thing from a corresponding

particular ground, for the single existence must still in the last instance be grounded in that which grounds all the other existences. *Principium rationis sufficientis* thus coincides in essentials with the *principium individuationis*. On this rests the answer to the Aristotelian question, whether philosophy is to presuppose one or many principles. Since everything is developed out of the ground's full unity, there is at ground only one principle; but the central principle has, on the other side, no isolated independence, and can by no means be held fast in abstract solitude. "The Depth" and "the Silence" must not be personified; the absolute ground is itself a moment in the sundering-off of the relative grounds and the different principles: the ground's eternal central movement consists, then, in its unceasingly sundering off the relative principles, without however losing a single moment of its essential content. The concept of the absolute principle is inseparable from the concept of the true beginning. The things' first beginning, which is eternal, as the central principle itself, would be an empty abstraction if it were not in its ground-movement sundered into a multiplicity of relative and temporal beginnings, just as these in turn would be unthinkable if the eternal beginning with its inexhaustible fullness were not. Temporality therefore does not begin at this or that single point in the eternal time; rather at innumerable points the temporal existences come to breaking-forth, presuppose and ground one another mutually. Upon this double ground-relation the things' *origin* can now be said to rest; for the concept of origin expresses at once temporality's becoming and eternity's primitivity. That the single thing has its becoming in change's and finitude's series is evident from its having its relative ground in an essential connection with other things, and presupposing a circle of given conditions; but that it also has its presupposition in the absolute ground shows itself in its stepping forth with all the freshness of apriority and originality, as something new that has not been before. The more an existence shows itself as continuation and reflex of the series' earlier members, the more superficial is its origin, and the more it belongs to finitude; the greater primitivity, on the contrary, the existent has, the more thorough is its origin, the more independent its becoming, and the more clearly does it stamp out, in its particular measure, the central ground's eternal breaking-forth.

Remark 5. Philosophy has been set the task of going back to "the last or, as we may also in another respect call them, the first grounds of all things." (Sibbern). The philosophical method consists, then, in an unbroken reduction, whereby everything is

led back to the ground, and a deduction, whereby everything is in turn derived from the ground. From this it is now more clearly seen how matters stand both with the philosophical presupposition and its annulment, and with the philosophical concept and philosophy's riddle. We lose, so to speak, subsistence in the ground, in order to get it back from the ground as existence, i.e. we continually exchange the one presupposition for the other, in order to win higher and more concrete forms. This must not, however, be understood as though philosophy could be satisfied with the formalism that ground and existence should be the selfsame concept, only regarded from two different sides. Just as little can there here be talk of a real transformation; for what dialectic should indeed be able to transform the non-sensuous into the sensuous, and the latter into the former? The right understanding rests upon the insight that the transition from the ground's to existence's sphere can be expressed only by a real relation, in which the ground is posited as the primitive, existence as the consecutive totality, which mutually reflect each other, so that their difference is as thoroughgoing as their unity. But with this solution the problem is from another side still further tightened; for the concepts of ground and existence, which hitherto have been held in immanent reflection, have already shown themselves to be more than mere reflection-categories.

§ 14.

Essence and Actuality.

The unity of the ground's essential totality and existence's phenomenal totality shows a thoroughgoing difference between the *inner* and the *outer*, which actualizes its real identity in *the force* and its *utterance*, and thereby yields the concept of *activity* and *actuality*. If actuality is regarded most nearly from the essence's and the ground's side, then it presents itself as the things' *possibility*; if it is apprehended on the contrary from the phenomenon's and existence's point of view, it presents itself in the form of *contingency*. As possibility's inner and contingency's outer mutually reflect and penetrate each other, actuality's ground comes into view in *necessity's* form.

Remark 1. The ground is existence's essence, and existence is the ground's phenomenon. As the ground's intellectual totality has anticipated in itself all existence's

moments, so the existential totality has now also, from its side, taken up all the intelligible ground-determinations. The identity has hereby become so preponderant that the difference seems to vanish as semblance and reflex. But this apprehension is in itself as ambiguous as it is one-sided, which is also seen from its forming the point of departure for two philosophemes that contradict each other absolutely. If one says: all existential determinations are ground-determinations, then the eye closes itself to the sense-world's wealth, and thinking ends in formal idealism; if we turn the sentence about, and maintain that all ground-determinations must immediately be apprehended as existential determinations, then the ground-forms' universal validity vanishes, and cognition loses itself in sensualism and empiricism. Thus arises the question, what it really can be that makes existence visible, sensuous and irrational, although its grounds, principles and ground-forms are invisible, non-sensuous and rational. This ground-difference cannot be explained without a new middle concept, a logical ἄλογον, namely *matter*.

To clear up what matter is, one can strike into two ways, in that one can either hold fast the identity of the ground's and existence's content, and refer matter to their formal difference, or conversely urge the formal unity, and derive matter from a difference in the content itself. According to the first way of seeing, matter is in itself not something (οὐκ ὄν); for it can neither be thought nor sensed. It may indeed seem as though we could immediately sense matter, as though the material were precisely sensuousness's own palpable content; but this is only a fancy, for even the rawest stuff still always has a form, and all our senses refer to particular form-determinations (the eye to figure, feeling to hardness, softness and so on). But if matter, as such, cannot be sensed, still less can it be thought; for held fast in pure generality, it is transformed into a substrate (ὑποκείμενον) that can take on all possible forms and become whatever it is to be. This substrate or foundation is thus the ground's own content, which, by appearing in the existential forms' superficial difference and finite bounding, calls forth that shadow-image which the sensory consciousness holds fast as something independent, and gives the name of matter (spiritualism). The second way of seeing (which for the rest receives manifold modifications) is the dualistic, which presupposes on the one side the intelligible ground-forms in essentiality's eternal realm, on the other side a ground-stuff or, as it is called, a pre-existing matter (ὑλη). The present world is now thought to have got its half-rational and half-irrational character by the

original primal forms having stamped themselves off in the formless mass. Insofar as matter has mixed its sensuous content into the intelligible forms, these have been darkened, so that the things show themselves only as temporal, imperfect copies of their eternal archetypes; but insofar as the forms have nevertheless everywhere penetrated matter, this order of things can be cognized and comprehended.

Platonism wavers between both these modes of explanation, which, each for itself, are equally unsatisfying. α) Of the first holds what Schelling (*Philosophie und Religion* Pag. 35) has said: “Philosophie hat zu den erscheinenden Dingen ein bloß negatives Verhältniß, sie beweist nicht sowohl, daß sie sind, als daß sie nicht sind.” But to this it must be recalled that philosophy cannot remain standing halfway. The first step is that the sensory world is recognized as semblance, i.e. as an existence that does not have its sufficient ground in itself; but when the absolute ground is acknowledged in its essential self-validity, the next step follows, whereby it is brought to clearness that the essence could not in itself be ground if the finite things’ relative independence were not, in consequence thereof, grounded. When Schelling therefore in the treatise just named sets up the thesis: “Vom Absoluten zum Wirklichen giebt es keinen stetigen Uebergang,” he has an eye only for the essential difference between the sense-world and the intellectual world, and overlooks the difficulty that the supersensuous is transformed into a semblance just as much as the sensuous, when the ground-relation between the two spheres is annulled. Thus the same ambiguous hovering still continues, in that the opposition’s finite member now vanishes as an empty reflex, so that the absolute may become one and all, now again steps forward with so striking an independence that its subsistence lies wholly outside the absolute itself. In immediate connection with the utterances of Schelling just adduced there occurs also the following: “der Ursprung der Sinnenwelt ist nur als ein vollkommenes Abbrechen von der Absolutheit, durch einen Sprung, denkbar,” the finite things’ ground “kann daher nicht in einer Mittheilung von Realitet an sie oder an ihr Substrat, welche Mittheilung vom Absoluten ausgegangen wäre, er kann nur in einer *Entfernung*, in einem *Abfall* von dem Absoluten liegen.” The abstract *doctrine of identity* hereby shows itself as an intellectualism that of itself leads over into *dualism*. β) The dualistic mode of explanation has its most tolerable form in *the doctrine of emanation*. For according to the Gnostic theory of an outstreaming from the primal ground, the dualism is softened by the double content being led back to a principal unity, so that both the material and

the immaterial, despite all their difference, are still assumed to follow from one and the same original ground. But as the fantastic representation now pushes reflection back, the things' essential origin is confused with a temporal transformation, so that the sense-world comes forth gradually, as the pleromatic primal ground clears out its heterogeneous elements, and separates the finer and the coarser constituents. In order to imagine the ground-movement, it then becomes necessary to take refuge in one of two hypotheses: either the material stuff must at one or another stage of the evolution have mixed its irrational element into the primal ground's rational fullness; but this is an absurdity, for thereby something comes into the ground that is not to concern the grounding at all; — or else one must remain standing at the assumption that the material content has itself arisen during the outstreaming by a weakening in the ground's intellectual substance; but hereby the difference of content becomes again a difference of form, matter an *οὐκ ὄν*, and the dualistic mode of explanation annuls itself.

Matter's ambiguous character can first be cleared up more nearly when we recollect that, although it is not itself any outer object, it must still always be taken up as in an accompanying representation whenever there is talk of outward objects. As space is the form in which the whole outward world is intuited, so matter is the general content that fills space, wherefore it is also said to be *the space-filling*. Matter is thus the essence's own ground-content, insofar as this comes into view in the outer, finite forms, so that from this point of view there is only a difference of form between ground and existence. But translated into the finite forms, the ground's content is at the same time essentially changed, and the sentence can now also be defended that there is another content in the existential world than in its original ground. The whole problem is then hereby reduced to a deeper-going inquiry concerning the relation between the *inner* and the *outer*. The inner is for thought, and as such rational; the outer is for intuition, representation and sense, and so far irrational (jfr. Pag. 28). If we can now make distinct to ourselves the concept of an all-active and forceful inner, which everywhere utters itself, and presupposes its actual outer, then we have at the same time cleared up both matter's significance and existence's difference from the ground.

Remark 2. The sound understanding teaches that the world is full of contradictions; philosophy proves that the world itself is a contradiction. It is just as difficult a

task to discover *where* the world is, as to see *what* it is. It will happen to everyone who attempts to point at the whole world that he, contrary to his expectation, always comes to point out a part (the earth, the moon and so on), and the more determinate the pointing-out is to be, the more clearly it appears that what is pointed out is really only a part of the part. (When someone points, for example, toward a determinate part of the human body, no one can know whether he means the whole individual, unless he is able in some other way to make his meaning known.) Nor can the universe be apprehended in any representation, for every determinate representation must always be referred to a finite, bounded object — hence to a part, not to the absolute whole. The world is then, properly speaking, not there for sense and representation, but only for comprehending thought; the absolute whole is an undivided and indivisible ground-unity, a pure thought-object, an *inner totality*. In this sense it is said of the existing things that they are *in* the world. The universe, which at first glance appears to us to be omnipresent, is hereby transformed into an infinite, rational schema (a Kantian idea), which is nowhere immediately present, since every place is occupied by an existing thing, which according to its finitude cannot be the world itself. But, as the ground's inner totality, the universe is still more than an empty schema; the inner presupposes and grounds the outer. The absolute whole exists whole and undivided in itself only by being distributed *in* its separate parts and existing in these. In the same degree as the thing shows itself to be more than an indifferent fragment or piece, in the same degree it is a part of the world, and as world-part at the same time a relative whole, a world in itself. Parceled out into a multiplicity of worlds, the universe is outward, omnipresent and sensuous. Insofar as the whole world is separated into existing things, into world-parts and relative worlds, it is unceasingly in process of arising and passing away: the world is *temporal and transient*. But since the world-ground itself takes the things' content back whenever they are dissolved and “go to ground,” since according to its inexhaustible content it can continually bring forth new existences and reproduce itself in new forms, it relates itself “*at ground*” indifferently to all vicissitudes and changes: the world is *eternal and imperishable*. These contradicting world-predicates do not let themselves be volatilized into a formal amphiboly of reflection, since the difference between the absolute whole and its parts, the relative wholes (jfr. Pag. 19), is now as existential as the unity is thoroughgoing. We must then seek out a new middle concept that can bring about a synthesis of the

indivisible and the divisible, of the non-sensuous and the sensuous, the imperishable and the perishable, the inner and the outer; this middle concept is *the force*.

If we first regard the force in its relation to matter, then it is self-evident that matter without any force is a pure nothing. One has sought to grasp matter by the help of immediate feeling; but nothing is able to awaken feeling without having force; the different sense-impressions must therefore refer to a multiplicity of heterogeneous force-utterances. The force is the medium in which reflection and feeling meet. We feel the force, as we are immediately affected by the existing things; but we think it at the same time, in that we do not remain standing at the immediate impression, but employ reflection in order to grasp the outer as an *utterance* of the inner. By means of the force the sense-world first receives its right significance; we meet everywhere its forceful outer in its immediate difference; hence the parts are palpable, outward, material and infinitely divisible. By means of the force the sensuous and material is posited as reflex of the supersensuous and immaterial; for the force's utterances change without cease, and as the one outer reflects the other, the force confirms itself in its moments' inner indivisible totality.— In the doctrine of the atoms, or the eternal ground-parts, the materialistic way of seeing has found its philosophical expression. Thus Anaxagoras thought that Chaos had originally contained an infinite multiplicity of ground-elements, which with all their difference still had a mutual greater or lesser likeness, so that the transition from the chaotic state to the proper world-order has taken place by a separation and combination of the “homoeomeries.” This hypothesis seeks its supporting-points in experience: that there are original ground-parts is inferred from the fact that nothing can come to be from nothing; that these ground-parts are infinitely small is inferred from the fact that the things' divisibility oversteps every finite boundary. But as thinking is to explain the empirical facts, it goes unnoticed out beyond all experience, and before the thinker himself rightly recollects it, he has already let himself in for such paraphrases that at ground there can no longer be talk of material constituents, but only of pure thought-objects and intelligible principles. Even Anaxagoras admitted that the ground-parts were invisible, since they were infinitely small; instead of sensuous, material parts we thus receive non-sensuous, immaterial moments. The proposition that everything (κατὰ δύναμιν) is in everything and can become everything, which the atomists explain by a mechanical separation and combination, is explained far more thoroughly according

to the dynamic way of seeing, which posits an immanent transformation. When Thales posited water as ground-unity, and let everything arise by a condensation and rarefaction of τὸ ὕδωρ, he did not by this primal quality mean the sensuous water that “flows in the brook or boils in the kettle,” for this too must, beside the many other existences, have arisen by a particular transformation; but if he thereby thought of something invisible that had likeness with water and fluid only insofar as it could pass over into everything, bring forth everything, and transform itself into everything, then he was really thinking of the force, and the oldest philosophy is thus to be regarded as a doctrine of force. The dynamic philosophy proceeds from one ground-stuff, which is re-formed into all possible stuffs; it is thus quite indifferent what name it gives its primal element (water, air, fire and so on), and the stuff-like is thereby at ground annulled; but the one-sidedness is that this philosophy lets all determinate qualities vanish in sheer metamorphoses, and overvalues gradation’s “more and less.” To remedy this defect, atomism would accentuate the qualities’ multiplicity; but as it now apprehends the ground-parts as given material points, it must again take refuge in an immaterial force, in order to explain their separation and combination. Hence it is in a high degree characteristic that the atomist Anaxagoras is said to be the first who named philosophy’s highest principle, the eternal νοῦς.

If we next regard the force in its relation to existence, then a distinction is drawn between the existent (the thing) and the force with which it exists; the thing *has* force; we separate the things from the things’ forces. The things, it is said, consist of matters; these matters or stuffs are half-sensuous and half-non-sensuous middle determinations, which hover between the thing and the force. If there is talk, for example, of a light-stuff, heat-stuff, coloring-stuff and so on, then these real moments approach such an independence that in representation they present themselves as existing things; but since such intermediate objects are still never met with as free-standing existences, but always inhere in the things, they change names, and are called forces (light-force, heat-force); as the thing is therefore said to have force, so the force is conversely said to be *conditioned*. In the thing’s immediate existence the force comes to rest; but the resistance the thing makes when one would dissolve it, or even drive it from its place, proves that it has a force in it. From finitude’s point of view the force shows itself to be distributed in the things, so that an outward collision is presupposed in order to awaken the slumbering forces: the force in the one thing

“solicits” the force in the other. From infinity’s point of view the force shows itself on the contrary in its essential unity and universality. The force must utter itself; hence it gives the finite things the mutual independence and outer subsistence whereby they repel and exclude one another in the sensuously-clear existential world; but the outer is only the phenomenal moment in the force’s utterance; the infinite force, which possesses all its conditions, dissolves the things in activity’s inner streaming, reduces them to its material, and wraps the process of ferment and transformation in chaotic obscurity.

The ground has force to give itself existence, and existence has “at ground” force to sustain its independence; but the force does not *have* itself, since it can be determined neither as the ground in its rational self-immersion, nor as the existing thing in its immediate subsistence. From this it is evident that the force is the true middle concept between the ground and existence, and thus determines the formal identity of the inner and the outer. The force as such has no independent inwardness. The categories “primal force” and “ground-force” give, when they are to be held fast by themselves, only indeterminate representations; for it lies in the force’s concept that it must immediately utter itself, and be known by its utterances. With regard to this, Hegel has also with forceful one-sidedness accentuated the identity of the inner and the outer, and the sentence: *So ist Etwas, das nur ein Inneres ist, eben darum nur ein Aeußeres,*” yields the theme upon which the so-called modern science has long been making variations. Herewith, however, only the quite general truth is expressed, that the inner and the outer everywhere reflect and determine each other mutually. This must then be understood more nearly thus, that the more indifferent and dependent the outer is, the more abstract and indifferent is also the inner (in a stone the unity of the inner and the outer is wholly formal); the higher a stage, on the contrary, existence occupies in the series of existence, the more does independence grow in the inner as well as in the outer (plant, beast, man). — The more developed the totality is, the more *thoroughgoing* is *the relation* between the inner and the outer; in its freest form this essential relation consists, then, in each of its sides being an independent totality, and each of the totalities a side — an opposition that can first clear itself up as we approach the highest concept-forms. Insofar as the universe according to its ground-unity is an independent totality, all the parts must be reflected as moments in its energetic inwardness; insofar as every part is in turn a relative totality, with a

particular inner in its corresponding outer, the absolute inwardness is specified in an infinite multiplicity of *endowments and capacities*. Whether we now regard the relation in pure generality or in its separate appearances, it follows from the nature of the case that the inner can never immediately merge into the outer. If the absolute ground could ever exhaust its infinite content in existential utterances, then not only would all true *productivity* cease, and the world circulate in superficial repetitions; but the movement itself would halt, since all essential movement rests on inwardness being the overreaching. Or if the inner and the outer were immediately to be congruent in the individual existences, then the concepts “endowment” and “cultivation” would have to be banished from language; for cultivation has significance only in that the endowment is the overreaching inwardness. The mediation of the inner and the outer is only to be sought in the infinite activity; hence actuality yields the more determinate categories, in which the opposed totalities confirm themselves according to their unity and difference.

Remark 3. In the energetic inwardness everything actual has its ground, and in the forceful outer the inner’s actuality is stamped out. In consequence, actuality offers to our cognizing consciousness two relatively independent principal sides, which, each for itself, lead us into separate total inquiries. The outer actuality is given us; only by instituting considerations and observations do we find ourselves able to cognize existence’s actual conditions, and press into the things’ essence. But the outer actuality has its ground in the active inwardness; it therefore becomes necessary also to immerse oneself in the endowments and capacities by whose sundering and preformation the whole outer world is produced and shaped. It lies then in actuality’s concept that the empirical method must be separated from the philosophical (jfr. Pag. 25). But at an abstract dualism of cognition no rational thinking can come to rest; actuality must then everywhere offer points of union for both kinds of inquiry. There must be a middle region in which the empirical and the philosophical cognition meet each other, correct and confirm each other mutually; this middle region of actuality and cognition is *the realm of laws*.

The things and their laws are not merely mutually different, but also inseparable. This unity and difference has its ground in the essential relation. What the laws are for reflection, the things are for the immediate consideration. The sensory eye observes each single thing by itself, and the connection between the different existences is

in this respect something outward, indifferent and unessential. For the reflecting eye, on the contrary, the single things show themselves in their dependence; only their mutual relation yields the constant and essential side in their subsisting. Since the same essential relation can continue although every single member undergoes a change, the immediate single existences are in actuality just as indifferent for the law as the letters ($a : b = c : d = e : f \dots$) for the geometric proportion; but since every relation nonetheless presupposes the opposed members' peculiar determinateness, the law cannot be indifferent to the things' difference and relative independence either. In the first respect the law yields the things' essential foundation, and everything points back to one ground-law; in the latter respect the law is posited as the things' essential boundary, as the forces' measure, and the ontological justice comes into view in a multiplicity of separate laws. From this is now also seen the law's difference from the rule. Their mutual likeness consists in both presenting a certain uniformity in the things' movement and the circumstances' change; but the rule, the outer measuring-rod, which is abstracted by superficial reflection, presupposes exceptions; while it would be a contradictory assertion that the law could be interrupted, that there could be exceptions from the law. If the laws' bond could burst, then the universe would have to cease to be totality, and the world sink together in ruins. The laws, which express the things' essence, must therefore be eternal, like the "eternal truths." — But as the empirical sciences now meet philosophy in this middle region, this meeting points at the same time to two different points of departure and two scientific aims. Enriched with countless observations and acute perceptions, the empirical knowledge has not merely acquired a treasure of information, but has even won a clear and distinct insight into the things' rational connection and the laws' system. From this side philosophy cannot measure itself with empiricism, and had therefore best sit down at its feet, and make itself its pupil. But when the empirical science has pressed in to the forces' sundering and the laws' foundation, then it has reached its goal. It went out from the outer, and discovered essentiality's own reflection and appearing in the given actuality; it can and shall reach no further, for by taking another point of departure, and carrying the inquiry in another direction, it would only change its nature and dissolve itself (jfr. Pag. 23—25). And yet the scientific task is still only half answered; for the question concerns not merely essentiality's outer appearances; the question concerns also actuality's original endowment, the

ground's inner totality, the essence's reflection in its own depth. Here empiricism falls silent, and philosophy now begins its inquiries. — We then first become attentive to the fact that the laws, though they may well be said to form actuality's foundation, cannot therefore be said to contain the things' "first" or "last" grounds. The law is, according to its immediate appearing, wholly groundless; it is, *because* it is; it must be taken as it is given; the law is outright *thetic*, since it lacks inwardness. But if the law cannot ground itself, still less can it ground the things' peculiarity. If the things in the world were otherwise constituted than they now are, then we should also have other laws, and conversely, if we presupposed other laws, then we should also have to presuppose another actuality. But further than this mutual conditioning reflection cannot come; hence all *concrete* law-determinations are infinitely *hypothetical*. There is thus asked for a sufficient ground (*ratio sufficiens*) both for the laws' and for the things' peculiar determinateness. Next it appears that the empirical actuality is in an unbroken becoming and cultivation. The inexhaustible ground, with its all-active, overreaching inwardness, comes continually to new breakings-forth. It is not merely the finite things that, with respect to their immediate singleness, come and vanish in an unceasing streaming; but even the things' order is modified and remodeled at longer or shorter intervals; indeed the whole universe, in nature as in history, has its nodal points, in which the given world-schema undergoes a transformation (παράγει γὰρ τὸ σχῆμα τοῦ κόσμου τούτου). By going back to our globe's first period of development we meet an order of things essentially different from the present one. The races' original coming-to-be cannot possibly have been subject to the laws that now hold for their propagation. The forces' measure and the ground's productivity must then have been quite other than it now is. For whether we keep to the holy tradition, that God the Lord created the first pair, or embrace naturalism's doubtful hypotheses about autochthons and *generatio æquivoca*, in both cases the result is still the same: that a gulf, a leap, lies between the original and the present world-order, so that even the laws' silent realm has undergone a metamorphosis. Empiricism itself recognizes this leap, but its deeper ground it cannot demonstrate; it entangles itself in a contradiction, in that it must both hold fast the fundamental proposition that the law is unchangeable, and yet also concede that the law has changed.

This contradiction philosophy solves by making distinct the difference both between the laws' abstract and concrete determinateness, and between their interrup-

tion and their annulment, and by leading all law-determinations back to the absolute ground. The truth that the laws' continuity cannot be interrupted is evident in the same degree as the law-determination itself is contentless and formal. The pure laws of thought, the ontological universal forms, characterize themselves by confirming themselves in the same instant one would deny them — or, in other words, by being dialectical. But in this dialectical perfection lies also their infinite pliancy and disposition to take up the most various contents. Ground and consequent, connection and force have always been; but *this* finite ground and *this* determinate consequent, *this* gravity and *this* specific weight have not existed from eternity. In its concrete appearances, the law is on the contrary undialectical; the development of its formal consequences belongs then to mathematics, not to logic. But mathematics takes not a step without supporting itself on the hypothesis. The laws' pliancy then comes into view in another form, namely in the conditions' change. The fall on the inclined plane, the movement of the heavenly bodies, and man's gait can certainly be reduced to one ground-law; but this happens only by exchanging the conditions, or abstracting from their difference. *In concreto* the law is thus bounded (*et universale in re*), and in its bounded appearing at the same time *changeable*. From this it follows further that the law must be capable of being annulled, although it cannot be interrupted. For the particular law's annulment is not to be thought as its annihilation, but as its taking-up into another totality of existential determinations, whereby the appearing takes on a new form.

Although philosophy indeed receives all that is given, and sets consciousness in an original relation to it, it still cannot remain standing at consideration and the superficial essentiality; if it lacks the ground-relation's depth, it becomes dangerous and precarious. The acute observation and the understanding's research can very well acquiesce in existence's given foundation, without weakening the conviction of the highest truths, just because this knowledge does not give itself out for more than it is; but philosophy, which would occupy the top place in the sciences' series and sound cognition's depths, brings only disturbance and confusion of spirit when it puts on the air of seeking back to the last grounds and explaining the things' origin, while in reality it makes common cause with the lowest empiricism, remains standing at finitude's sterile schema, and idolizes the laws.

Remark 4. At ground the law is annulled, in actuality's inner it is grounded,

with the existential sundering to outer actuality it becomes given. The difference between the inner and the outer forms in actuality two extremes, which must more nearly be determined as *possibility and contingency*. It is not possible to hold fast these actuality-extremes in formal separation without also seeing them unceasingly shift names and significance with each other. The formal possibility expresses actuality's law, insofar as this is thought without any determinate content. Everything, it is said, is possible that does not contradict itself (*possibile est, quod non implicat contradictionem*); with more ontological emphasis we can paraphrase this sentence thus: everything is possible, i.e. can be, have been, or become actual, provided only it does not conflict with existence's law. But the selfsame holds of contingency. The contingent falls outside the rule, but does not conflict with the law; for if it conflicted with the law, then according to the foregoing it would contradict itself and be impossible. The possible is thus in actuality contingent, since it can be anything whatever, provided only it answers to its formal condition; and the contingent merely possible, since it is still so indeterminate that we know nothing else about it than that it must fulfil the same formal condition. The difference consists solely in the possible being represented as the inner, so that we begin with a reflection upon the law in order to determine the given; while the contingent, on the contrary, is represented as the outer, and leads us from an immediately given existence to a reflection upon the law and the condition; but this difference is wholly formal. Herein is now certainly contained a new confirmation of the proposition that the formal inner is the formal outer; but herein lies also a forceful summons to go out beyond formalism, so as not to speak in meaningless tautologies, and be entangled in superficial contradictions. — The formal possibility can never become actuality, since it lacks both the determining ground and the separate conditions; it is thus at ground impossible; the pure abstract contingency can then not be found in actuality either, since it suffers from the same defect as the formal possibility. As soon as the inner, on the contrary, is recognized in its real opposition to the outer, contingency receives its relative significance, and possibility is grounded.

The real possibility presupposes an actual difference between the inner and the outer, and itself forms the essential copula of both. In the inner totality it seeks its determinate ground, in the outer totality its specific conditions. When the particular ground with its conditions is present, the active inwardness brings forth its corre-

sponding outer; here we then have a possibility that can become actuality, hence an actual possibility. In this connection, contingency is now also to be acknowledged as one of actuality's forms, as a middle concept between immediate existence and essential condition. When we regard the things as contingent, we seek them out in the outer actuality, and keep immediately to the given. The contingent *exists*; it shows itself to be, because it now once is, and has so far its ground in itself. But this tautological grounding is still, properly taken, groundless: the contingent can also be thought not to be; it has its ground *outside* itself, namely in another contingency. All members in contingency's series have so outward, superficial a connection that the one continually leads over into the other; hence we always know the contingent by its unsteadiness and changeableness. Contingency's play sometimes comes into view in human life as a blind alternation of luck and mishap, fortune and misfortune. The mere fortune is according to its concept contingent, and must therefore be able to vanish as it comes: fortune is blind; but the same holds of misfortune. The observation that the one contingency as a rule exchanges with the other can call forth melancholy's paradox, that it is a true misfortune to be fortunate, and a true fortune to be unfortunate. By this self-annulment the accident acquires a certain likeness with the semblance. But the contradiction that lies in contingency is still far deeper; for one can both concede that something contingent actually exists, and yet also maintain that at ground there is no contingency. What here dazzles reflection is the presupposed and again annulled difference between the inner and the outer. So long as actuality's outer totality is one-sidedly held fast, inwardness is wholly formal; contingency reigns. But since now the whole outward totality is, on the other side, to be regarded as the medium in which the independent inwardness preforms its essential Sunderings and separate breakings-forth, every representation of the contingent vanishes in the thought that everything must have its sufficient ground. Only by recognizing the contingent as the real possibility's own condition can we resolve the contradiction. — That this double-sided character of contingency is not artificially produced by a subjective reasoning, but is grounded in actuality's own nature, experience itself can teach us. For the more limited, weak and irresolute an individuality is, the more it is ruled by the circumstances, and led by contingency. The genial individual, with the deep endowment and the overreaching inwardness, makes himself on the contrary at once master of the circumstances, uses the accident, and trusts his fortune.

As the real possibility presupposes its conditions, it receives at the same time a peculiar bounding, whereby it distinguishes itself from impossibility. Thus the law comes into view in a new form; for the law is the essential boundary between the possible and the impossible. If one overlooks actuality's conditions, and sets fantasy-determinations in the laws' place, then one comes to apprehend possibility as ground, without really recognizing the ground as possibility. The profound antiquity immersed itself in the ground; the acute present criticizes possibility. All Gnosticism characterizes itself by overflying actuality, in order to cognize "the primal ground," and slighting the things' laws. Hence it was, as Irenaeus has already remarked, not possible for the old Gnostics to explain the present world as a copy of the aeons' realm. If on the other side one overlooks inwardness's independence and the depth's mystery, while exclusively holding fast the laws and the outer actuality, then reflection halts at a chain of conditions that lacks the true possibility, just because it lacks the ground's original endowment. If we would then apprehend possibility in its whole compass, we must see it run through a scale with the following principal stages:

a) On the lowest stage we find possibility as an endowment wrapped in the conditions and bounded by the laws. Thus it is a determinate law of nature that summer must always follow after spring; but how the coming summer will turn out is in spring still a pure possibility. It is not merely our own knowledge's limitation that here compels us to call possibility to aid; the possibility lies in nature's own endowment for becoming and cultivation. Could spring speak, it would tell us that the conditions on which fruitfulness or unfruitfulness in the coming harvest depends cannot be regarded as finished, but in part still slumber in nature's womb, gradually to form themselves and come into view. With this kind of possibility, however, the development is lost in repetition, and inwardness is dependent. The coming, which is to relieve the bygone, can indeed in more than one respect assert its peculiarity, for the finite becoming consists in change (the one summer is not perfectly like the other); but herein lies as yet no essential advance. The whole development is only a modified repetition of what has been before, a reproduction of finitude's series without centrality's breaking-forth, a periodic alternation without the epoch's nodal point. We can therefore characterize this possibility as the *ordinary* and *reproducing*.

If we remain standing on this stage, then the circuit's schema is our model, and the customary our only measuring-rod: "there happens nothing new under the sun."

But this trivial way of seeing conflicts as much with all higher experience as with thorough thinking. If we would acknowledge only the customary, what then shall we judge of the wonderful coincidences of life's circumstances, of the self-sacrifice of the inspired, and of history's heroes? Nor can the ordinary possibility be thought without a deeper presupposition; for if we say: it is the same content that comes into view in other forms — how then are the new forms possible, since every actual content has only its particular form? If we say: it is at ground the same forms that come into view in other contents — where then shall we seek the possibility of the new content-moments, since every actual form has only its particular content? We are thus compelled to acknowledge an overreaching inwardness, a totality of endowments and capacities, which at no point merges into the finite actuality.

b) Possibility's second stage begins with the independent inwardness, the genial endowment, whose peculiar productivity relatively annuls the laws' schema. The formation must now be recognized as a preformation, as an inner sundering reflected in itself, which prepares actuality's outer crisis. The possibility whereby the heterogeneous nature-stages (the mineral, plant and animal kingdoms) were originally sundered must not be confused with the possibility whereby they now continue their becoming and maintenance. The genial breaking-forth is always surprising. Genius presupposes not merely that the circumstances are favorable, and the conditions given; it announces itself also with a relative disturbance in the customary order, for its effect is *extraordinary*; it comes according to expectation and yet *præter opinionem*; it begins by confounding the plain understanding (Morgiane—Aladdin), but ends by orienting it; it begins by annulling the law, but ends by integrating and confirming it (aesthetics — Shakespeare's tragedies); it steps forward as a determinate member in finitude's chain, but announces itself at the same time as a messenger from the depth and the inwardness, whose original productivity has something new to bring. This extraordinary possibility we can therefore also determine as *the genial and productive*.

c) The reproducing possibility would in itself be impossible if it did not have its presupposition in the productive; the ordinary possibility is thinkable only by means of the extraordinary. It thus lies in possibility's concept to be the more thoroughgoing, the deeper it is. Thus now arises the question how far the genial productivity is able to exhaust the possibilities' depth, or whether a still deeper possibility must be presupposed. First we must hold fast this, that, as the existing multiplicity presupposes

the ground's unity, so the many different actualities also presuppose possibility's unity. The actual circumstances that present themselves as presuppositions and conditions, to which this or that possibility must always refer its peculiar endowment, must indeed themselves have been in possibility before they could step forward in actuality; the order in which they step out, the becoming and development in which they are successively realized, must thus have its sufficient ground in the one ground-possibility's original endowment. Hereby the inner totality is again made independent as presupposition for the outer: if the absolute possibility, centralized in its own depth, were not, then every partial and relative possibility would be impossible (jfr. § 10, Anm. 7 Pag. 87). Next we must also remember that every possibility that cannot itself become actuality is also impossible — that what we have here designated as the possibilities' ground-unity would thus be an empty, abstract thought, if this unity could not itself centralize itself, and give itself actuality. If we now gather both these principal propositions into one result, then it is evident that the many productive endowments in their whole mass are still insufficient to actualize the absolute possibility, so long as they are apprehended merely as genial breakings-forth. For the genial possibility has not only an outward bounding (which is always a direct consequence of the outer actuality's own concept), but it is also encumbered with inner one-sidedness and particularity. (The one genius tears down what the other builds up.) Finally we must indeed recognize that what gives the productive, extraordinary possibility its advantage over the ordinary and reproducing is precisely the greater inwardness and concentration with which the endowment is preformed. The genial breakings-forth, in nature as in history (for one can speak just as well of nature's as of mankind's genius), are then to be regarded as relative attempts to bring the perfect inwardness, the highest centrality itself, to outer actuality. But as this actuality enters, an antinomy must also enter between the law's own ground-principle and the laws' actual validity. Insofar as it is the central ground itself that steps out into existence, the laws' boundaries must yield: at ground the law is indeed annulled (jfr. the close of Remark 3); but since every outer existence, even with inwardness's whole fullness for its substance, must still always, as such, be bounded, and take its place in the conditions' circle, the laws' schema continues. It comes, then, to a breach between the principle that has itself posited and presupposed the law, and the law's actual barrier. The law is at once immediately annulled and yet essentially confirmed; in other words: a miracle takes

place. Therefore we will name the absolute possibility *the central and miraculous*.

Philosophy's and empiricism's different point of departure, method and ground-character show themselves right strikingly in the definitive apprehension of the real possibility. For the more ordinary the possibility is, the more easily is it approved by the finite thinking; the more central it is, on the contrary, the more thoroughly does it satisfy reason. Empiricism, which would explain actuality's phenomena, raises itself only with difficulty to cognition of *the extraordinary*, and takes offense at the miracle's paradox, while philosophy, which seeks back to the ground-possibility of all possibilities, recognizes the miracle's paradox as a separate appearance of the eternal reason. Nevertheless possibility's concept cannot explain itself, but must be integrated by other concept-moments.

Remark 5. *Necessity* is unity of possibility and contingency; this unity is in its indeterminate generality formal, and in consequence both tautological and contradictory. The blind necessity is groundless; it is, *because* it is, and thus has contingency in itself. Therein consists necessity's despotism, that it always works arbitrarily, i.e. contingently. Necessity is *in abstracto* synonymous with unchangeableness; but according to its own groundlessness and contingency it can still continually change, and thus has possibility in itself. It is possible that fate, which today casts a man down, tomorrow may exalt him again. Fate has all possibilities, just because its workings are contingent. The *fatal* necessity consists, then, in this, that the necessary continually changes, and yet at all points keeps itself unchanged; it is then as changeable as unchangeable, as tautological as self-contradictory. But the sentence: "the necessary is, *because* it is," can also receive another explanation. When we have examined a matter right closely, found out all its possible grounds, conditions and accompanying circumstances, and then gathered all these regards into one fundamental view, then we have at the same time cognized its sufficient ground. To want, beside this, still to ask after other grounds and other conditions betrays a thoughtlessness that ought to be repelled with the simple declaration that the matter is, *because* it is — that it is with necessity. When, then, in this sense one can no longer speak of the ground of the necessary, it is not because necessity is in itself groundless, but because it itself contains the complete grounding. Necessity can be deep as possibility, strict as the law, superficial as contingency; but according to its concept's whole compass it can be held fast neither in this nor in that one-sidedness, but must rather be recognized in

the totality of all actuality-moments as the *rational* necessity.

We cannot now say that the necessary is merely an outer; for contingency is by means of necessity taken up as a moment in possibility, and every outer presupposes with necessity its inner; nor can we say that the necessary is merely an inner; for the rational necessity has both the ground to give itself existence and the force to effect its outer. The rational necessity cannot be set out as an other-worldly essentiality, which should relate itself indifferently to the whole outer world and its changes, for thereby it would remain both inactive and unactual; nor can it be thought as a formal connection between the existing things and their separate grounds, for thereby it would again dissolve into contingencies and relative possibilities. The necessary relation between the inner and the outer totality therefore does not consist in a merely logical or theoretical reflection, whose one member must always be transformed into semblance when the other is apprehended as essence; but the relation must be determined as an energetic or practical reflection, whereby the difference between the inner and the outer actuality is as actual as the unity. If one says: necessity is absolute; there is only one necessity — then all actual existences are reduced to moments in the infinite activity, and actuality is cognized according to its inner essence. If one says on the contrary: necessity is relative; there are many kinds of necessity — then it is thereby made known that every existential peculiarity and every actual change (coming-to-be and dissolution) must have its sufficient ground, and the essence is apprehended according to its outer actuality. In the rational necessity, then, actuality has its true essentiality, and the essence its actuality.

§ 15.

Actuality and the Concept.

In necessity actuality has its truth; this truth makes up its inner independence or substantiality. The inner, independent actuality, whose existence is absolute, because in all actual utterances it posits and effects only itself, receives the name of *substance*, while the outer, dependent actuality, which comes forward in multiplicity's and contingency's form, is to be apprehended as expression of the substance's finite and fleeting appearances, i.e. as a complex of accidents. The power with which the substance posits and annuls its accidents would, however, be wholly unactual if the

accidental multiplicity did not itself receive a share in substantiality. Instead of one single substance with its infinite aggregate of accidents (Spinoza), we then receive, according to the substantial relation, an unsurveyable multiplicity (Leibnitz) of relative substances (monads), which all have their presupposition and sufficient ground in the absolute substance (the Monad of monads). The Monad of monads is, more closely determined, the absolute cause, which posits the relative monads as its substantial effects, and orders their place in the totality (*harmonia præstabilita*). The substantial relation, which thus with inner necessity develops itself into a causality-relation, first has its full validity in the infinite *interaction* between the substances among themselves. Interaction's inner sundering and subordination lets us recognize the monads' totality as a realm of reason and all-intelligence, in which actuality has its concept, and the concept its actuality.

Remark 1. Because something lets itself be thought, or has a thought existence, it does not yet on that account have any true actuality — just as little as something actually is, because it is merely represented or sensed. We must therefore test existence's validity by determining its relation to actuality. But in this testing the difficulty repeats itself in a new form; for actuality's concept is, when apprehended in pure generality, just as ambiguous as the concept being. If we set up the rule that the actual shall be known by the necessity with which it is thought, then the actual is confused with the essential, and thereby one-sidedly apprehended. The highest good, for example, not only lets itself be thought; reason even demands that it be thought with necessity. Insofar as the good now sets the heart, the thought and the will in movement, it is indeed able to make itself felt as the higher existence's deeper ground, as the real possibility that with inner necessity strives toward its actualization; but its full actuality will nevertheless be lacking, so long as the outer state does not answer to its inner demands. If we turn, on the other side, to the consideration of the outer, and fix the rule that the actual shall be known by the necessity with which it is sensed and represented, then actuality is confused with palpability, and the actual apprehended with sensualistic one-sidedness. The existing thing that affects sense compels from us its corresponding representation, and presents itself immediately as the determinate actuality. But nonetheless it lacks one of actuality's most necessary criteria, namely constancy. What has no constancy has no independence either, and want of independence is always want of actuality. The one thing dissolves itself into

the other; the material is purified in the forces' metamorphoses, and everything we in sensuousness's name call the actual passes us by as a fleeting actuality-utterance without true and abiding validity. It then becomes necessary, in consideration of this, to distinguish between a double actuality, as we above have separated a double necessity. There is an actuality that is *constant*, because in all multiplicity it works only its own unity, because it works out its own unchangeableness, as it effects the things' existential changes. This absolute necessity and complete constancy of actuality makes up its *substantiality*. In opposition hereto, the existential multiplicity can receive only a derived and *inconstant* actuality. Actual the multiplicity's outer difference must necessarily be, for without an actual sundering the substantial unity itself would be inactive; but dependent, fleeting and inconstant it must also be, since the all-active unity in everything effects and confirms only itself. The necessity with which the finite things in their mutual difference exist is thus infinitely relative; this inconstancy of actuality is therefore to be characterized as its *accidentality*.

It cannot in this connection be overlooked that what before was called essence and ground is, as regards content, the selfsame that is now called substantiality, and that what before was called phenomenon and outer existence is the same content that here returns under accidentality's name. But as the form of cognition has become another, the content itself can be developed with greater ontological determinateness. When the ground's concept is set up as norm-giving category, existence is not yet posited, and the whole content is reflected in pure inwardness; the ground has only an endowment, a possibility, which under given conditions can and shall become actual; but actuality is not yet present. If on the contrary we characterize the inner as substantiality, then the outer is given with the same stroke, and actuality's whole concept fills thought. In consequence, neither can it be asked how it is possible that substantiality can give itself accidentality; for possibility with all its conditions is taken up into the concept itself: the substantial has with necessity the accidental. On the other hand, the separation made before between existence and the thing (the existent) can also hold of substantiality and *the substance*: as the substance is thought in opposition to its accidents, *the substantial relation* develops itself.

Remark 2. When the relation between the inner and the outer actuality is immediately determined as a relation between the substance and its accidents, the opposed members cease to be independent totalities; thereby their actual identity becomes

formal as well, and the necessity fatal. It is this *actuality-formalism* that characterizes the Spinozistic doctrine. Since now all formalism and tautology always falls due to the superficial contradiction, herein lies the ground why Spinoza's system has been subsumed under the most various categories (atheism, pantheism, acosmism, intellectualism, realism and so on).

Spinoza's fundamental view (jfr. *Ethices pars I, Opera ed. Paulus*) can in ontological respect be reduced to the following principal points:

1) It lies in substantiality's concept to be *causa sui*, wherefore the substance must also be said to contain its own existence (*Per substantiam intelligo id, quod in se est, et per se concipitur: hoc est id, cujus essentia involvit existentiam. Defin. III.*).

2) It is impossible to think or declare anything about the absolute substance without apprehending it in a determinate form, and ascribing to it a peculiar predicate; there must thus be a form-determinateness that defines the infinite substance without bounding it; such a form-determinateness is the substance's attribute (*Per attributum intelligo id, quod intellectus de substantia percipit, tanquam ejus essentiam constituens. Defin. IV.*).

3) The substance can have several different attributes (thinking and extension); but although the one attribute cannot be derived from the other (*id enim est de natura substantiæ, ut unumquodque ejus attributorum per se concipiatur*), still one cannot infer from the attributes' difference to different substances, for each attribute expresses the one and same absolute substantiality (*unumquodque realitatem, sive esse, substantiæ exprimit. Proposit. X Schol.*).

4) The finite things with their existence and bounding are only appearances of the substance's own infinity, i.e. modifications or affections (*Defin. V*), which do indeed follow with necessity from the substantial presupposition (*Res nullo alio modo, neque alio ordine a Deo produci potuerunt, quam productæ sunt. Prop. XXIII*), but nevertheless have only an accidental being; for the one substance cannot bring forth the other (*Prop. VI*), and the infinite substance cannot be divided (*Prop. XIII*).

Spinozism is a grandiose tautology; on this rests its strength as well as its weakness, its superficial clearness as well as its mystical abstraction. First, Spinoza has begun by presupposing an in itself absolutely necessary existence as given; but since possibility and grounding are passed over, substantiality's necessity is wholly formal, and essentiality identified with actuality. Insofar as the substance has thinking for

its attribute, it is nothing other than thought itself, hypostatized in pure generality, and Spinoza is consequently an intellectualist; but since the substance now also exists with the same infinity, insofar as it effects the whole corporeal world's existence, it is at the same time the universally-sensuous in all sensuousness, has extension for attribute, is thus determined as matter, and Spinoza is consequently a materialist. The necessity-tautology, that the substance is because it is, transforms itself then at once into the superficial contradiction that the non-sensuous is sensuous, the intellectual material. To want to solve this contradiction by appealing to the substance's own independence and difference from each of the attributes betrays a total misunderstanding of the system; for the substance is no unknown *X*, no hidden "Ding an sich;" it merges wholly into its universal forms, can thus be defined neither as this nor as that, but is posited as the pure essentiality, to which actuality's predicates are ascribed. This becomes still more evident when we consider more closely the finite things' (the accidents') dependence upon the substance. According to Spinoza the substance is to be known by the absolute necessity with which it exists; but the difference and opposition he would ground hereon, between the infinite substance and the finite, accidental existences, cannot hold. Certainly Spinoza is right when he denies the finite absolute independence (*Rerum a Deo productarum essentia non involvit existentiam. Prop. XXIV*); but partly this dependence holds only of the finite in its solitude and singleness, not of the finite things in their totality and universality: this or that single thing can come and vanish, but single existences there must always be; partly the necessity with which the substance produces the accidents is, according to Spinoza's doctrine, the selfsame as that with which it itself exists (*In rerum natura nullum datur contingens, sed omnia ex necessitate divinæ naturæ determinata sunt ad certo modo existendum et operandum. Prop. XXIX, jfr. Prop. XXXIII*); the finite is thus just as necessary as the infinite. The Spinozistic sentence, that all things are in the substance (*Quicquid est, in Deo est, et nihil sine Deo esse, neque concipi potest. Prop. XV*), can immediately be turned about to read: the substance is in all things, and holds only by means of the necessity with which it effects the things' existence (jfr. *Prop. XXXVI, Appendix*). The older philosophers, who called Spinoza an atheist, kept to the latter way of seeing; Hegel, who characterizes Spinozism as acosmism, keeps to the former.

The substantial relation consists in *power*. The substance's absolute independence rests upon the infinite self-power with which it posits and annuls the accidental

totality. But the pure self-power is an empty abstraction. Power does not have itself, and can for that reason not be hypostatized; it is independence's attribute, which presupposes the independent. The substance, which is *sui causa*, is at the same time *sui compos*, and as it is itself a determinate something, insofar as it has the power, it must at the same time master something other. The substantial sole power rests, then, upon the power that can be conceded to the accidental multiplicity. It is precisely actuality's and power's hard contradiction, that it imparts to each of the relation's members an adamant independence, while at the same time making the one a reflex of the other. Let *A*, for example, have a complete power over *B*, and the contradiction will be obvious. For if *A* has the whole, absolute power, then *B* is only a shadow; but now *A*'s infinite self-power consists precisely in the power with which it masters its *B*; if *B* is now an empty shadow, then *A* has power only over a shadow, and its whole self-power is consequently a shadow-power. If *B* on the contrary is more than a shadow, then it also has an actual independence, hence a power in itself; *A*, which now masters *B*, can then certainly be said to have an actual power, since it masters something actual. But since this actual itself has a power, and so far is not mastered by *A*, *A* thus masters its *B* insofar as it in actuality does *not* master it. This antinomy empiricism resolves by calling attention to coordinate and superordinate members in the many substantial relations. All substances must to a certain degree be coordinate, because the existing things could otherwise not have any actual independence; the power with which they repel one another is an appearance of the force with which they penetrate and dissolve one another. As every thing now has a different degree of force, so it also has power in different degree, and thus the one can get *overpower* over the other. But at this multiplicity of given substances and finite powers philosophy cannot remain standing; and it is Spinoza's immortal merit to have pointed the thinker back to the original substance and the absolute power.

By immersing himself in the substantial unity, Spinoza establishes the truth that all finite existences would be empty shadows if they were not posited as moments in the absolute substantiality, as utterances and effects of the eternal cause. But as he at the same time denies the outer multiplicity an in itself relative independence, he transforms, without himself suspecting it, the substantial sole power into a pure shadow-power. The result of this is, then, that the absolute substance has infinite self-power only insofar as it also produces the relative substances, imparts independence

to them, and gives them a share in the power. Since the power is thus divided, the absolute substance has no abstract sole power; it has only an overreaching power, i.e. overpower. But since the power's division is nevertheless only a condition the absolute substance itself posits, in order to actualize its undivided self-power, herein is recognized the deepest difference between the substantial unity in its complete independence and the substantial multiplicity in its actual dependence. This difference now has its true synthesis in the absolute power; for *omnipotence is identity of sole power and overpower*.

Remark 3. The outer universe is not merely a complex of accidents and dependent modifications; it is at the same time an actual totality of relative substances. Actuality's sundering has its truth in the concept's diremption (jfr. Pag. 67). The sentence that every world-part is itself a world (jfr. § 14, Anm. 2) finds its confirmation in the substantial actuality; for every substance develops its particular content out of its own principle; all sunderings and modifications are effected by its inner self-activity, completed in its own totality. The substance is *monad* (ἐντελέχεια). — By intuiting the universe as a totality of monads, Leibnitz brought about a far more thorough synthesis of concept and actuality than any of the earlier philosophers. The objections that can be brought against the Leibnitzian monism strike not the matter itself, but the presentation; not the fundamental view, but the form.

Every thing can, according to the monistic way of seeing, be said to consist of monads; but the monad itself is not to be characterized as thing. The thing, as it is represented, has a sensuous outer, a determinate extension; but the monad is, in its substantial self-activity, the intellectual inner, which, as such, occupies no space. The monad is thus the thing's essence, and the thing the monad's phenomenon. The sensuous thing can be dissolved into its constituents; it is a composite; but the composite presupposes the uncomposite, the absolutely simple; consequently every existing object consists in a complex of monads (*necesse est, dari substantias simplices, quia dantur composita; neque enim compositum est nisi aggregatum simplicium*). As the atom expresses matter's outer, indifferent discreteness, so the monad expresses substantiality's inner, energetic difference. Where the atom with the sensuous quality is the blind, contentless, passive constituent, which by outward power is joined with other atoms, and always requires an outer impulse in order to be set in movement, the monad on the contrary has energy and movement's principle in itself, and is laid out so

that, as a microcosm with its individuation (*svivant son point de vûe*), it shall mirror the whole macrocosm. — If now the monadic singleness is held fast with one-sided regard to the individual spontaneity, then every relative substance, even though it may for the rest find itself in a more or less stunted state (*monades nudæ*), is certainly imperishable. (*Atque ideo etiam nulla datur generatio, nec mors perfecta, rigore loquendo. Sunt enim evolutiones, et accretiones, quas generationes appellamus, quemadmodum involutiones et diminutiones, quod mortem vocamus. Princip. Philosophiæ, thesis 76*); but the single monads thereby come to lack the real connection, so that their substantial relation is dissolved, and the one develops itself independently of the other (*Destituuntur monades fenestris, per quas aliquid ingredi aut egredi valet.*)

The original way in which Leibnitz explained the relation between the single monads among themselves stands in close connection with the special problem that at that time particularly occupied the philosophers. All questions concerning the relation between the immaterial and the material were concentrated in the one principal question: *how does the soul relate itself to its body?* The monad is according to its concept a soul; and just as one is not at all able to bring any knowledge or principle from without into the soul, but can merely occasion the soul, by its own activity, to form cognition for itself, so it also seems impossible that the soul, which is something immaterial, should be able to receive any impression whatever through the material body, or stand in immediate relation to the corporeal world. Leibnitz, who regarded the body as a complex of weaker monads (for at every point in the body a peculiar life stirs), determined the relation thus: that the soul, as the ruling monad, i.e. as the monad that according to its more independent development had the higher dignity, properly speaking stood in no immediate contact with the body at all, but that the soul's representations and the body's movements agreed with each other according to an original harmony (*harmonia præstabilita*). Regarded from the universe's point of view, the whole swarm of monads will thus move as if they mutually acted upon one another, because each develops the universe according to its peculiarity, and the single monads' peculiar endowments in turn have their last ground in the absolute, monadic unity, namely: *the Monad of monads*. As Leibnitz thus dissolved the substantial relation between the relative monads among themselves, he had in turn to make good this want by positing a general causality-relation between the central monad and the monadic totality.

In Spinozism the categories cause and effect lose their true significance; for it is so far from being the case that the cause immediately merges into the effect, that it on the contrary vindicates its substantial independence, thrusts the effect from itself with power, and gives it a relative subsistence. Causality thus presupposes two different substances, of which the one is active, the other passive. If now the causal determinations are applied to the relation between the relative monads and the central monad, then the latter is to be defined as the absolutely active substance, the former as the passive substances. The causality-relation thus comes into view in the form of a decisive contradiction; for according to the concept of the monadic substantiality, no relative substance can be wholly passive. This contradiction is, however, not difficult to resolve, if we only reduce causality to the concept of the absolute power. According to its central independence, the Monad of monads must certainly have omnipotence for its attribute; but since omnipotence cannot be abstract sole power, it distributes the power among the single monads, in order through this distribution of the power to assert its infinite overpower. Thus the central monad is determined as cause, and the relative monads as its effects. In this causality-relation we must now also seek the ground of the monadic bounding. — There is no independence without peculiarity, no peculiarity without determinateness, no determinateness without bounding. But everything depends upon how the boundary itself is more closely determined. There is an outward boundary, whereby the one finite thing restricts the other — a boundary that must thus be apprehended as an outer *barrier*. By such a barrier the substance cannot be bounded, insofar as it is monad. But different from the outer barrier is the inner, immanent boundary that lies in the measure's concept (jfr § 13, Anm. 1); the measure's inner bounding every monad must necessarily have, since it has an *original* peculiarity. Since now the central monad can be *causa sui* only insofar as it also produces the relative monads; since it can actualize its infinite self-power only insofar as it divides the power: neither can it determine itself except by *separating itself* from its effects, thrusting the finite substances with power from itself, emancipating them to relative independence, bounding its power, and thus setting itself a barrier. This barrier does not consist in a merely fluid reflection-difference; it bears actuality's strict stamp. Where the effect, the produced substance, is a this-side, the cause, the producing substance, is a beyond; the eternal necessity parts them, and the language of power fixes a yawning deep between the one, absolute causality and its many relative,

substantial effects. But the central monad's diremptions carry with them, for all that, no finite bounding in its own substantial independence; for all the actual finitude that follows from the causal sundering the Monad of monads has itself brought forth, as the medium through which it takes its absolute power back. Its bounding is thus immanent; *it itself masters its barriers*. The necessity with which the diremption goes on is therefore also a contentful, rational necessity, in which the ground shows itself as causality, and causality as ground.

When causality is apprehended in the form of ground, power becomes an immanent force, an all-penetrating activity. But herewith a mystical ambiguity also enters, which darkens the cognition of the actual. For one cannot now know whether it is to be the substantial unity that has its ground in the multiplicity, or conversely the substantial multiplicity that has its ground in the unity. If one keeps one-sidedly to the first way of seeing, then the central monad devours all substantiality in the relative monads. All monadic centres are then only passage-points for the one absolute centrality; the separate monads are annulled in the primal monad's energetic reflection, and held fast in substantial inwardness: *multiplicity remains unactual, in order that unity may be actualized*. If one sets up the opposite assertion, then every monad receives its share of the ground's content, and places itself, with its separate economy completed in itself, in an exclusive relation to all the rest. The monadic totality sunders itself into an outer universe, in which the most various endowments are determinately cultivated; but the one, original ground-endowment, to which they all point back, vanishes as a misty presupposition, an unknown *X*: *unity remains unactual, in order that multiplicity may be actualized*. This ambiguity is removed as soon as it is seen that the one of these ways of seeing is grounded in the other. Only in the actual unity has the manifold its possibility, and in the actualization of the multiplicity is the unity's centrality possible. Hence the central monad has sufficient ground to actualize the relative monads, and these in turn have each its ground and its endowment in it, so that the outer sundering presupposes the inner. But although the inner and the outer totality both are with necessity, the necessity of both is still not the same. This actual difference is determinately expressed as the ground is taken up into causality. For according to the causal relation the central monad raises itself to an infinite overpower, with which it subjects everything to itself — to an imposing height, whereby it frees itself with absolute independence, while at the same time thrusting off and emancipating the

relative monads. Did we not know that causality is ground, then the central monad would indeed have a height, but no depth — an abstract beyond, but no totalized inwardness; then omnipotence's sunderings would be incomprehensible. Did we not know that the ground is at the same time causality, then the central monad would have a depth without height, a mystical immanence without other-worldly self-power; then actuality's clear shapes would lack independent principles, and flow together in fog.

If the barrier is now regarded from the relative monads' standpoint, it again takes on an ambiguous character. For insofar as the central monad is the absolute ground, it sets itself in an original relation to each of the relative monads, and these then need no mutual influence, since their peculiar life-force draws its nourishment from the same root: their barrier lies in their determinate endowment, their measure is the inner bounding; they develop themselves after freedom's law. But the inner bounding they have still not given themselves; their endowment is imparted to them by the central monad; and since the central monad is at the same time the causality that separates them from one another, in that it separates them all from itself, their boundary is at the same time set by an outward power, namely by the overpower; they have then, in consequence, also a barrier, and are subject to necessity's law. With this ambiguity the relative monads' bounding is held fast in the Leibnitzian system; for *harmonia præstabilita* is an abstract synthesis of freedom and necessity.

Remark 4. Since the relation between the absolute and the relative substance cannot be thought if the former alone is to be active, the latter merely passive, there must for every action of the central monad be given a corresponding counter-action in the relative monad: the causal relation consists in *interaction*. Interaction itself is, with respect to the members' dignity, either *subordinating* or *coordinating*; the former holds *sensu eminenti* of the relation between the central monad and the relative monads, the latter of the relation between the relative monads among themselves. As the central monad takes up the counter-action from the relative one, this counter-action also vanishes, as reflex, in the infinite interaction between sole power and overpower, whereby the central monad asserts its absolute self-power. But with this subordination the multiplicity would again remain unactual, in order that the unity might be actualized, if the relative monads did not enter into mutual interaction with one another. Only in a coordinating interaction can the relative assert its independence.

The force with which the finite monad works out its individuation corresponds to the force with which it is acted upon by other monads, and in turn acts upon these. In the coordinating interaction the law again comes into view as the actual world's foundation, as the substantial justice, whereby the outer totality receives its true validity.

In the Hegelian logic the moments of interaction are presented with great dialectical sharpness in their pure immanent reflection (jfr. *Wissenschaft der Logik*; *Werke*, III Band, Pag. 239—243); but it must be regarded as a misstep of Hegel's that he has one-sidedly kept to interaction's process, without preserving and asserting the opposed members in the causal relation. Thus one is indeed told that the active substance is also the passive, that the substances are not dead substrates, that the cause is itself an effect of the effect, and the effect cause of the cause; but with all this we still lose the whole fundamental view of actuality's peculiar typus. The pure interaction is a formal reflection; in that it is to fit everything, it fits nothing. The Hegelian actuality-dialectic will not fit the finite actuality, for in the outer, temporal actuality there are actual substrates; here the effect in the one must have its cause in the other. Nor does it fit the inner and eternal actuality, for this lets itself be comprehended only in its determinate overpower over the temporal. This dialectical formalism hangs most closely together with the Hegelian transition from necessity to freedom, from actuality to concept. The fundamental thought is that necessity and freedom, actuality and concept have the same substantial content. The transition rests, then, upon demonstrating the difference of form, and developing the content's higher form out of the lower. So long as the concept's totality is separated according to the opposition of substance and accident, cause and effect, the relation between the inner and the outer is determined with necessity, and the concept, so to speak, pressed down under actuality's weight, and lost in the outer multiplicity of substrates and substances. When on the contrary the causality-relation is dissolved in interaction's process, when actuality has brushed off the sharp edges and purged out matter's old leaven, when all stuffs are burned up in dialectic's fire, then necessity is reflected through as freedom, and actuality clears itself to its concept. But instead of seeking and finding the concept's principle in the eternal substance, recognizing the identity of all-intelligence and omnipotence, developing the absolute causality into comprehending selfhood, we are led, contrary to expectation, back to our own subjective concept-forms; instead of seeking and

finding the first Mover of all movements in the universe's metaphysical centre, we remain standing in our own psychological middle-point, and let existence itself pass in review, in order to confirm the formal logic. The philosophical yield the Hegelian analysis of "die Subjektivität" has brought about is a deeper grounding of the truth that our subjective thought-forms agree with actuality's objective reason-forms, that *universalia in mente nostra* correspond to *universalia in re*. But the method Hegel employs to ground the identity of concept and actuality cannot, for all that, free itself from formalism. For it lies immediately in the nature of the case that he who would comprehend actuality's content must let his thoughts be determined by actuality's forms, and conversely, that actuality itself would be unthinkable — hence impossible and unactual — if it conflicted with thinking's laws. But in this tautological identity a contradiction hides itself: the formalism veils a dualism. For when it is said that actuality is developed to its concept, this means in other words that *universalia in re* are converted into *universalia in mente nostra*. By this logical transport, actuality's ontological content is certainly freed and idealized in reflection. But the intellectual world that has only the human consciousness for its medium lacks, as such, reality, since the formal comprehending lacks omnipotence. When it is next said that the subjective concept gives itself objectivity, this means in other words that *universalia in mente nostra* are converted back into *universalia in re*. By this converting, the concept is certainly recognized according to its reality; but thereby it is also lost in necessity, and forfeits freedom. The existing concept is, as such, indifferent to our subjective thinking, although it cannot think itself. Even if there were not a single astronomer, the solar system's concept would still exist all the same; but no astronomy is able to release this existing concept from necessity's bonds, and free it to comprehend itself. The illusion consists, then, in confusing the factual agreement with the causal identity. We thus come, according to the Hegelian method, not out beyond the abstract synthesis of the concept's subjective freedom and its objective necessity, but must again have recourse to *harmonia præstabilita*.

Second Chapter.

The Freedom of the Objective Concept.

§ 16.

Ideality and Reality.

As a totality of actual concepts, the universe exists in an infinite concept-unity. If the relative concept-totalities were not moments and appearances of the one, absolute totality, clarified through and through in its intellectual inwardness, then the true unity-principle would be lacking, and the world's rational coherence be incomprehensible. If the inner concept-totality were not sundered into an outer totality of existing concepts, then the universe would have to lose its true actuality-stamp, and the rational inwardness itself dwindle away as a mystical shadow. Developed to its concept, the universe's totality is infinitely doubled: the ideal world (κόσμος νοητός) reflects its light in the outward actuality, and has in this reflection its *ideality*; the real world (κόσμος αἰσθητός) has the inner sundering for its energetic principle, and receives by this origin its *reality*. At ground both world-totalities are identical, but in causality infinitely different. At ground they both have a common medium, the dialectical process; but according to causality the dialectical process presupposes a double medium: on the one side the central monad's comprehending selfhood, which anticipates all the development's members in ideality's eternal reflection; on the other side finitude's material, in which the concepts stamp off their temporal existence, and the all-reason successively realizes its infinite content. According to the concept's outer totality, the development's beginning, middle and end fall at all points outside one another, and the temporal progress consists in the imperfect's approximation to the perfect; according to the inner totality, every anticipation is a conclusion, and every conclusion an anticipation. In the synthesis of the eternal and the temporal movement the concept has its substantial content and its true freedom.

Remark 1. The subjective critique of reason is laid out to answer the question: what can I know? The objective logic of reason is laid out to answer the question: *what can I hypostatize?* — It has appeared in the foregoing that every single concept takes up existence's content in its peculiar form; but it has also appeared that every bounding carried with it a one-sidedness, which had to be supplemented by another

concept, until all moments could gradually be developed. The objective concept's formation thus ends with the result that the concept κατ' ἐξοχην consists in the totality of all concepts, and that this totality is the only thing thought can hypostatize. If against this one would set up the objection that the concept is a form, which cannot possibly be without a determinate content, then it can be answered that, since every concept-form has its particular content, all content-moments are now taken up into the concept's developed totality, and we thus have the absolute content. If one would further object that the concept can just as little be thought without a comprehending subject as an actual concept-content without an all-producing causality, then the logician will derive from this that, since the concept cannot be without causality and subjectivity, these factors just belong themselves to the concept of the concept; consequently the objective concept must now be for us one and all, and we thus seem to have found an infinite hypostasis. But at all such turning-points, where the sundered totalities are reduced to their unity, the thinker must be precisely on his guard; for the mystification lies at the door. When Schelling had hypostatized the absolute, he proved with striking evidence that God vanished in it as a moment, just as well as the world: "Ganz gemäß der Absicht ausser der Philosophie einen leeren Raum zu erhalten, welchen die Seele durch Glauben und Andacht ausfüllen könnte, wäre es, über dem Absoluten und Ewigen noch *Gott*, als die unendlichmal höhere Potenz von jenem zu setzen. Nun ist zwar an sich offenbar, das es über dem Absoluten nichts höheres geben könne, und daß diese Idee nicht zufälliger Weise, sondern ihrer Natur nach jede Begränzung ausschliesse. Denn auch *Gott* wäre wieder absolut und ewig; das Absolute kann aber nicht vom Absoluten, das Ewige nich vom Ewigen verschieden seyn, da diese Begriffe keine Gattungsbegriffe sind. Es folgt daher nothwendig, daß jenem, welcher über dem Absoluten der Vernunft noch ein anderes als *Gott* setzt, jenes nicht wahrhaft als solches erschienen, und daß es blos eine Täuschung sey, wenn er ihm gleichwohl diese Bezeichnung noch läßt, die ihrer Natur nach nur Eines bezeichnen kann" (Philosophie und Rel. Pag. 8). How many natural miracles this absolute in its time has done is generally known. When Hegel had hypostatized the concept, every dialectician believed himself to possess the Archimedean $\pi\omicron\tilde{\omega}\ \sigma\tau\tilde{\omega}$ from which one can move the world. The concept now became a magical potency; it went out of actuality and gave itself subjectivity, it went back into actuality and gave itself objectivity, it finally took both subjectivity and objectivity with it, in order to go through teleology's

forecourt into the idea's sanctuary; and when the concept had first transformed itself into idea, the idea could in turn assume any concept-shape whatever. Despite Hegel's profound method, dialectical strictness and high seriousness, the mystification was still unavoidable, for the concept was hypostatized in indeterminate generality. The concept is philosophy's factotum; but when he who comprehends, and that which is comprehended, vanish as reflexes in comprehension's dialectic, without regaining their peculiar independence, then the concept with all its determinations remains, in its inmost centrality, still indeterminate; it shows itself then as a Proteus, to which one may rightly apply what Voltaire in his injustice has said of the prophet Habakkuk: *il est capable de tout*.

To be able to speak and judge of everything, we must be able to make everything subject in a logical judgment. But everything that is posited as subject becomes hypostatized. In sentences like these: "The stone has struck the man dead"; "Brutus has killed Caesar"; "the universal demands an example"; "the man demands what is owed him," the subjects take on the selfsame hypostatic character, and it is, according to language's nature, wholly impossible to avoid personifications. So long as the talk turns on finite objects, the misunderstanding is easy to ward off; but when the inquiry oversteps the boundaries of immediate experience, the separation is so difficult that one often finds the most dependent of all hypostatized, and the most independent of all transformed into a reflex. And yet it must in every case be determinable with certainty whether we have to do with a merely sensuous substance (substrate), a provisional personification, or an eternal hypostasis, if insight is otherwise to be clear and distinct. Reflecting thought hypostatizes the universal; the sensory intuition hypostatizes the immediately single. From these opposed tendencies the relation between the formal idealism and the empirical realism can be more nearly explained. The extremes between which hypostatizing moves are: on the one side, the independent that lacks selfhood; on the other side, the pure selfhood that lacks independence; in other words: *the thing* and *the reflection*.

For intuition to be reliable, it must refer to an existing thing; for as soon as representation does not have a series of determinate things to hold to, it falls due to the imagination, which can then drive its idle play, build up and overturn worlds without any reality. As the representing thinker now seeks reality, consciousness demands that to every determinate thought a determinate thing must correspond.

Realism takes in this respect a step out beyond sensualism. For insofar as we keep to sensuousness alone, we have to do only with the outer, palpable objects; but the realist, whose representing is a thinking, and whose thinking is a representing, goes yet a stage further, and seeks behind the phenomena an infinite multiplicity of different things. Under this head fall not only the whole swarm of small things that hover before the imagination as the universe's atoms, not only the older psychology's manifold soul-faculties, which are preserved in the individual's inner like pearls in a box; but under it are also comprised the Kantian Noumena (das Ding an sich in the plural), the Herbartian Realia, and many other things. But since all non-sensuous things are to be referred to representations that, properly speaking, cannot be represented; since the things vanish as moments in their own interaction; since finally every logical subject lets itself be universalized in its predicates: it becomes easy for reflecting thought to overpower representation, and transform all earth-fast single hypostases into airy reflexes. Instead of the infinite aggregate of single and composite things we now receive a totality of dialectical moments, whose medium is the pure reflection. — For the pure reflection nothing can hold itself except reflection itself. Hence there is only a very little step from Spinoza to Fichte. Spinoza is a formal realist; he hypostatizes the subsisting substantiality; Fichte is a formal idealist; he hypostatizes the active I-hood. But as the Spinozistic substance is to be "*causa sui*," its calm being passes through countless "*effectus*" over into an energetic reflection, an "*actus purus*," and characterizes itself as a Fichtean I-hood. On the other side, the pure I-hood cannot hold itself in formal self-activity either, without breathing in a substantial being; hence the Fichtean idealism ended at last in a formal realism (das Seyn). Even the *empirical* realism, however much it otherwise deviates from the abstract idealistic way of seeing, agrees with it nevertheless on one point, namely in mystifying the concept of God. The crass realist despises everything he cannot subsume under the category thing; since now God is not a "thing," this concept has for the empirical intuition a very precarious significance. The refined idealist, who rejects every independent existence because it seems to him to take on the character of a "thing," rejects with the same stroke the concept of God: God is the pure thought, thought in its infinity; but this thought is — no "thing."

So long as the realist holds on to his "things," and the idealist vindicates the empty "*actus purus*," thought will hover unsteadily back and forth, and intuition lack its firm

holding-point. As realism's mystification rests on its wanting to grasp as thing that which according to its concept is higher than the thing, so idealism's mystification consists in its being continually compelled to hypostatize a selfhood that it in turn effaces. Thus it is said that the idea has the whole world-plan in *itself*, that it opens *itself* up, in order to posit nature and the finite spirit, that it thinks *itself* in man, and so on. Idealism cannot excuse itself from ascribing to the idea all the predicates that belong to the thinking, willing and acting subject; but as if from bashfulness at having got to do with something independent, it effaces the hypostasis again, and transforms the highest predicates into empty phrases. Thus we get in the last instance a movement without a first mover, pure thoughts that no one has originally thought, plans and aims that no one has conceived, concepts that no one comprehends, since every comprehending subject is only a wave-beat in the concept-dialectic's ocean. If the crass realism can never get its right in philosophy, then the formal idealism will never be able to get its right in life. If reflection-cognition has once brought it to calling the universe's absolute principle selfhood and I-hood, it has only struck the right string, without however calling forth the full tone; for selfhood and I-hood are abstractions from the self and the I. But life is an enemy of abstractions; therefore life-cognition comes, turns the judgment about, and sets the Almighty One over omnipotence, the thinker over the thought, the will over the willing, the self over selfhood, the I over I-hood. According to this conversion, cognition can stand by its word, and preserve ideality in reality; for the Almighty One has omnipotence, the thinker has the thoughts, the comprehending self has its selfhood in the concept's totality. As the central monad is recognized as unity of intelligence and omnipotence, idealism is taken up into realism, and the latter into the former. Since omnipotence is intelligence, the universe is according to its essence idealized, and the idea's immanent dialectic pulses in every grain of dust; but since the intelligence is at the same time causality and sundering omnipotence, since the overpower demands its substrates, the universe is according to its outer actuality realized, and a world of things opens itself for the realist's consideration.

The two extreme points for all hypostatizing are then: from sensation's side, the immediate singleness (the thing), which stands in an outer reflection-relation to the universal (the property) and the separate (the complex of all the thing's properties); from thinking's side, the reflected singleness (the monad), which has universality

and separateness (the entelechy) in itself (jfr. Pag. 20, Anm. 6). But between both these extreme points lies a multiplicity of intermediate hypostases, whose peculiar significance can first be developed in and with the corresponding concept-content. Regarded from a general point of view, these intermediate hypostases are to be seen as organic totalities, which have an essential selfhood without however being able to centralize themselves into the free, intellectual self. As the all-active, totalizing principle, the idea will always be hypostatized, but not for that reason absolutely personified. Thus the plant has its hypostasis, just as well as the beast; nations and states are moral personalities, but not persons. Even mythology's gods and history's spirits let themselves be hypostatized as universal powers (δυνάμεις, ἀρχαί, ἐξουσίαι, δαιμόνια, πνεύματα ὑπὸ τὸν οὐρανόν), which are not merely reflexes of the individuals' imagining and striving, but essential and universal potencies, which seek to win shape and come to dominion in the single subjects.

Remark 2. The relation between idealism and realism can in a still more determinate form be referred to the Platonic separation between the supersensuous and the sensuous world (Phædrus — Timæus). This opposition, which for the human consciousness is as original as religion and philosophy, has nevertheless throughout the whole of history called forth its corresponding contradiction. Every time the relation between the other-worldly ideal world and the present order of things has dawned upon consciousness in heightened splendor and glory, the spirit of denial has also found new means to sharpen its weapons of attack, and repeat the old objections in new forms. Since this contradiction, insofar as it is justified, has its ground not only in sensuousness's superficial relation to the phenomena, but also in the understanding's serious striving after clear concepts and concrete cognition, the history of philosophy also shows that the denial of the eternally free ideal world has been so little able to efface the thought of its independence, that it has on the contrary had to supply the stimulus that continually waked the thinking consciousness to a deeper self-recollection, and thereby to a fuller assurance and more forceful cognition of the opposition's reality. — To make intuitable the difference between the Eternal One's ideal visions and actuality's bounded shapes, Plato availed himself of a mythical picture-language, and the double world-content remained standing separated, as an unresolved problem. But Aristotle criticized this mystical mixing of sensuous and supersensuous principles, proved the impossibility of comprehending the actual line

by imagining an independent thought-line, the actual man by imagining for oneself an ideal man whose whole peculiarity restricted itself to an empty αὐτό (αὐτοάνθρωπος), and of explaining the phenomena's unrest and movement from those calm, unmoved universal forms. Thus the free Platonic ideas (γέννη, εἶδη, ιδέαι, παραδείγματα) were dragged down into finitude, bound in matter's ground, determined as energy's sundering, all-penetrating forms, and the ideal world's poetic fragrance vanished in real-cognition's prose. — As the classical heathendom neared its downfall, the Neoplatonic speculation attempted a new soaring toward ideality's Olympus, in order to make the Christian heaven superfluous; but the Neoplatonists were so far from being able to bring about a true union of Plato's intuition and the Aristotelian concept, that they much rather mixed mythology up with philosophy, and ended in eclecticism. — It follows from the nature of the case that the more profound the philosophical fundamental thought is, the more difficult it is to find its right forms, and untie the logical knots; to exhaust one's content in clear, graspable turns must certainly be far easier for an Aristippus than a Plato, for a Locke than a Leibnitz, for a Feuerbach than a Hegel. But philosophy asks not what is easiest, but what is most thorough; for the kind of truths that are immediately to appeal to the superficial consciousness dare not be very deep. If it is not at all philosophy's task to veil, but to unveil, the riddle, then this has become still more a law for its development from the time when Christianity, with its revelation and its mysteries, began its historical dominion. For the opposition between the ideal and the real world can then no longer be regarded as a dualism that dawns in half-clear visions upon a solitary thinker, but shows itself as a difference, stamped out in determinate features, between the heavenly and the earthly, God's kingdom and the world's kingdom, which has penetrated the general consciousness. — The medieval philosophy was not merely subjected to an outward constraint; thought was in itself unfree; hence Scholasticism took up both a traditional typus and a traditional form, the former from church doctrine, the latter from Aristotle; and with this fusing of heterogeneous elements the medieval thinkers wavered unbrokenly between a formal idealism, which dissolved everything in a divine *actus purus*, and a crass realism, which even made the Trinity itself into three things. — The Protestant philosophy began by testing thinking's own certainty; but the first attempts it made to justify the theistic typus showed themselves wholly insufficient. After Cartesius had set so cutting a dualism between the ideal and the

real world that the beasts were even transformed into mere machines, Spinoza established the formal identity, and reduced the two worlds to two sides of one and the same actuality (jfr. Pag. 163–66). With the Leibnitzian doctrine of monads (jfr. Pag. 168–70) the two world-sides became, however, again two worlds, and the theistic typus was victorious. But the philosophical form was still imperfect; the metaphysical inquiries lost themselves in the doctrine of cognition, and the critique of reason ended by presupposing an other-worldly ideal world's existence, without however being able to determine its content. When the Fichtean I had fought with the metaphysical barriers, and Schelling found speculation's point of departure in an indifferent unity of the ideal and the real, the logical idea came at last to breaking-forth in the Hegelian dialectic, and "Das Urtheil des Begriffs" gave promise of a decisive solution of the ancient Platonic problem; but the solution dissolved itself in — an amphiboly.

As dialectician Hegel is clear; as speculative philosopher, a logical mystic. The Hegelian philosophy's mysticism lies in its hovering ground-typus. The philosophical typus must be clear and determinate; the dialectical concept-forms' amphiboly, on the contrary, cannot be removed, for thought's vision is a double vision, and dialectic two-edged. The dialectical amphiboly is so far from darkening clarity that it on the contrary makes up reflection's light; instead of reproaching Hegel with his dialectic, we must much rather acknowledge it as a philosophical discovery, which can as little be driven out of philosophy as the Keplerian laws out of astronomy.

The amphiboly in the Hegelian ground-typus shows itself in this, that he now presents the essential relations (whole and parts, inner and outer, substantiality, causality) as though the whole universe were separated into two relatively independent totalities, so that those who apprehend him from a theistic point of view everywhere believe they glimpse an other-worldly ideal world's light through the finite actuality's medium; now again transforms the relative totalities into abstract sides, so that those who embrace the pantheistic way of seeing find therein a confirmation that the intelligible world is only actuality's own immanent reason. The ground of this is that the whole Hegelian logic keeps itself in a middle sphere between dialectical category-analysis and metaphysics proper. As the one category relieves the other, the one relation is annulled in the other, so the dualism also continually vanishes as moment in a higher identity, so that he who with special interest for the fundamental view has followed the development's course from "das reine Seyn" all the way to "die absolute

Idee" must, perplexed, ask himself: is it now a pantheist or a theist, a Spinoza or a Leibnitz, who has here wanted to stamp out his typus in the concept's adequate form? The ambiguity rests upon Hegel's always holding his totality-antitheses so abstract that they hold with determinateness neither of the whole universe (the macrocosm), nor exclusively of any separate existence (the microcosm). If we lay before Hegel, for example, the question: does the ground merge into its existence? then he answers without reserve: "das Setzen ist die Herausbewegung des Grundes zu sich selbst, und das einfache Verschwinden desselben" (Wissens. d. Log. Werke. III Band. Pag. 118). If we apply the antithesis microcosmically, so that it holds precisely of this finite ground and this determinate existence, then the answer is correct; for so long as one has ground to build a house, one has not yet built it, and when the house is built, then there is, as regards this house, no longer any ground to build; or: so long as a poetic work rests in the poet-heart's ground, it has as yet no actual existence; if on the contrary the work has got its existence, then the poet has with the same stroke exhausted his ground, and composes it no longer. But if the antithesis is applied macrocosmically, then the answer does not fit at all, for all-existence's ground is an inexhaustible depth (jfr. Pag. 128–29). "The inner," it is said further, "is only in reflection different from its outer." If we hold the antithesis microcosmically, we come to a double explanation; for nature has everywhere an immediate identity of the inner and the outer, "die Natur hat weder Kern noch Schaale, Alles ist sie mit einem Male," while the opposed members, on the contrary, in freedom's realm separate into two relatively independent totalities. If the antithesis is next applied *macrocosmically*, then herein lies an uncertainty as to whether it is nature's or freedom's typus that is to be laid at the ground. If one lays nature's typus at the ground, then the meaning is this, that as the inner (the ideal) and the outer (the real) make up two sides of one and the same nature-organism, so also the inner and the outer universe are only two sides of one and the same actuality, and Hegel becomes then a reflected-through Spinoza. If on the contrary we lay freedom's typus at the ground, then we come to the result that, as the inner and the outer in reflection's and spirit's sphere everywhere separate into two independent totalities, so also the whole macrocosm is in itself separated into two independent regions, and Hegel shows himself to us as the reflected-through Leibnitz. That Hegel's real opinion was theistic can be seen from his philosophy of religion; but on a philosopher's private opinion nothing properly turns at all, and when the

concept has been able to move through the whole of the logic without separation of the central monad and the relative monads, of the comprehending selfhood and the concept's content, then it is too late to want to clear up the relation in the philosophy of religion by a declaration like this, that the divine play of thought goes on, so to speak, in different places (i.e. both in heaven and on earth).

Remark 3. The world is an infinite totality, an actual concept-content, which presupposes its causality as *comprehending selfhood*, hence an intermediate hypostasis. If we now hold fast the antithesis between ideality and reality macrocosmically, then the more general ontological question: What can we hypostatize? transforms itself into the more determinate cosmological question: *Have we only one world, or have we two worlds?* — As it is theism's essential mark to posit an independent world-doubling, so it is on the other side pantheism's and atheism's common criterion to hypostatize the world's unity. When atheism is thought idealistically, it becomes pantheism, and loses interest for the empirical actuality (Spinoza); when pantheism is carried through realistically, it becomes atheism, and transforms truth into sensuousness (Feuerbach). In the solution of the cosmological problem we thus meet three fundamental views: a) *One sets a sharp separation between the ideal, which is thought but not sensed (univers. in mente nostra), and the real, which is sensed but not thought, hypostatizes the thing's objectual actuality, and drives the consequence to atheism.* b) *One presupposes a general identity of the ideal (univ. in mente nostra) and the real (univers. in re), hypostatizes reflection and the essential relation, and comes by this method to pantheism.* c) *One reduces the essential unity and the actual difference between the ideal and the real to the original cause of both (universalia in mente divina), hypostatizes the central monad's comprehending selfhood, and comes by this way to assert theism.* Only these three theories are possible; we shall now test their validity.

a) In "Grundsätze der Philosophie der Zukunft" L. Feuerbach has under several turns criticized the Hegelian dialectic. Thus it says § 26: "das Sein ist an und für sich selbst Nichts. Aber eben deswegen ist auch das Sein, wie es die speculative Philosophie in ihr Gebiet hereinzieht und dem Begriffe vindicirt, ein pures Gespenst, das absolut im Widerspruch steht mit dem wirklichen Sein und dem, was der Mensch unter Sein versteht"; further (§ 28): "welch ein gewaltiger Unterschied ist zwischen dem Diesen, wie es Object des abstracten Denkens, und eben demselben, wie es Object der Wirklichkeit ist! *Dieses Weib z. B. ist mein Weib, dieses Haus mein Haus*, obgleich

jeder von seinem Weibe und seinem Hause wie ich sagt: dieses Haus, dieses Weib Das Sein, gegründet auf lauter solche Unsagbarkeiten, ist darum selbst etwas Unsagbares"; furthermore (§ 31): "Weil aber gleichwohl *bewußt* von der Wahrheit des Gedankens ausgegangen wird, so wird die Wahrheit der Sinnlichkeit erst hintendrein ausgesprochen, und die Sinnlichkeit nur zu einem Attribut der Idee gemacht, was aber ein Widerspruch ist; Von diesem Widerspruch erlösen wir uns nur, wenn wir das Reale, das Sinnliche, zum *Subject seiner selbst* machen, wenn wir demselben absolut selbstständige, göttliche, primitive, nicht erst von der Idee abgeleitete Bedeutung geben." If we now hold these presuppositions together with the logical concept-deduction, which has compelled us to seek the principle of all our comprehending in the central monad's comprehending selfhood, then we come to this, as it seems, very disheartening result: "The speculative philosophy begins with being; but this thought being is an unactual thought. The thought being is universal, the actual being is individual; the thought being has its empty, mediate certainty in reflection; the actual being has its immediate, living certainty in sense. As the thoughts are, so is also the thinker. When the speculative thinker has thought through all his concepts, then he comprehends at last that they must have a middle-point, a comprehending selfhood; then he becomes at the close himself 'the divine central monad.' But since now the thought being is as far from actuality as heaven from earth, the speculative monad too is only a phantom, which the theological imagination sets down in the universe's middle-point; while in actuality it exists only in the thinker's own head. Hence 'the divine self' is an optical illusion, speculation a deuterostrophy, and the other-worldly ideal world an airy counter-image of *universalia in mente nostra*." — If, however, we recollect ourselves a little more closely upon these objections, they vanish again of themselves; for atheism, which would overturn the speculative philosophy, builds upon a principle of cognition that makes the word meaningless and truth dumb. As the sensuously overstrained realism gives up thought's actuality, in order to hypostatize the thing, it transforms itself with the same stroke into a meaningless nominalism, which volatilizes *universalia in mente nostra* into empty *nomina* and *flatus vocis* (Jfr. Pag. 33, 34, 49, 78). He who asks after the things' ground asks not after his own thought, but after all-existence's essential presupposition. The real ground is nonetheless the inner and ideal, existence the outer, immediately real; if now the ground's concept falls merely within thought, existence, "das Unsagbare," wholly

outside thought, then the things have no ground, and it is meaningless to ask after grounds. He who examines the real possibility reflects not upon his own conjectures, but upon the active inwardness, hence upon the ideal. If now possibility falls merely within thought, while actuality, “das Unsagbare,” lies wholly outside thought, then actuality itself is without possibility, and it is meaningless to ask after possibilities. If finally anyone would cognize the truth, then he cannot possibly be satisfied with his own subjective thoughts, but must trace out existence’s principle and life’s original idea. If now the idea and the ideal fall merely within thought, while the whole outer universe stands for the sensory eye as “das Unsagbare,” then life is without truth, and it is meaningless to ask after truth (*flatus vocis*). — The endeavor to establish a philosophy of sensuousness has driven Feuerbach to the extremity of confusing the intellectual intuition with the sensory, materializing reason, mystifying the word, and calling the genial immediacy by sensuousness’s name. “Genie,” it says in the treatise cited (§ 39), ist unmittelbares, sinnliches Wissen.” This “sinnliches Wissen” cannot possibly be what one in the proper sense calls sensuous; for to distinguish between “mein Haus” and “dein Haus,” “mein Weib” and “dein Weib,” one need just not be any philosopher, still less a genius.

b) If one gives up the ill-advised undertaking of waging war against reason and truth, then one is also compelled to acknowledge the idea’s validity, and concede the reason-logic’s reality. Since the idea is in everything, and all things in the idea, one can now already from this explain to oneself the thought concepts’ agreement with the existing things; for the same idea that penetrates nature and effects the things’ existence also forms the soul, and thinks itself in the human thought. From this standpoint there can thus be talk of a universal difference between the idea and actuality, between the inner and the outer world-totality; but since this difference is not grounded in any true opposition, the totality-dialectic dissolves itself at last, for all that, in an empty formalism. In the outer world the idea is to be realized; but since the monadic *principium individuationis* is lacking, all single existences are only substrates and passage-points for the idea’s self-activity; the accent must thus fall upon the inner totality, in which the idea unceasingly “takes itself back.” But the inner totality has no independence either; *universalia* cannot hover in empty space, and the ideal world wants its intellectual medium, since the idea’s selfhood is only a figurative phrase (jfr. Anm. 1). The ideal vanishes at all points as reflex in the outer actuality’s reality; every

actual and determinate existence loses itself as substrate and moment in the inner's ideality. The relation between the inner and outer is hypostatized; but the opposed members lack independence, and the relation dissolves itself in an ironic reflection. Formalism's result is that the whole world-totality must burn up in a Heraclitean "πῦρ ἀεὶ ζῶον, ἀπτόμενον μέτρα καὶ ἀποσπεννύμενον μέτρα."

c) As the actual difference presupposes the ground's unity, so the ground's identity is in turn conditioned by the true difference. Without an existential opposition between ideality and reality, every synthesis of the ideal and the real is unthinkable. The concept-pantheism makes itself in this respect guilty of a remarkable inconsistency. One embarks upon a dialectical concept-deduction; one assumes an inner totality of grounds and possibilities, which slumber in the idea's bosom, gradually to be actualized in the outer totality; one does not decline, then, to acknowledge the antithesis's macrocosmic significance, so long as the talk is merely of ground and existence, possibility and actuality. But as soon as one comes to the Spinozistic substance, one breaks off at once the macrocosmic antithetic, and explains the opposition between the monadic selfhood and the relative substances partly half-figuratively, partly microcosmically, in such wise that the actual subjectivity can be found only in mankind, the immediate objectivity in nature. — The substance is hypostasis, and before I have an assurance of what lets itself be hypostatized, I have not yet sufficiently thought through substantiality's concept, and cannot pass over to higher concept-forms without sinking back into a Heraclitean ῥοή. When on the contrary hypostatizing's two poles are found, then the theistic typus is grounded, and the world-view clear. The ideal world is then no longer a mystical totality, resting in a mystified "Ansich," for its clear medium is the central monad's comprehending selfhood; *universalia in mente divina* are not abstract, resting forms, from which no movement lets itself be explained, but moments in "the Mover's" free, energetic intelligence, which sunders, preforms and actualizes all possibilities. Nor is the outer world-totality an incomprehensible product of a frail idea that has fallen from itself into countless fragments, as little as it is an empty semblance in which essentiality mirrors itself in idle theory. If the ideal selfhood were merely a pure essentiality, then matter would be semblance and finitude reflex; if the intelligent causality merely had the overpower, but, like a Δημιουργός, not also the sole power, then it would have to presuppose its material as pre-existing ὕλη. But in omnipotence's concept lies the concept of substrate; for the substrate is the lowest

form in which the absolute power can hold its object — the material that is brought forth by the energetically overreaching ideality, in order that the real development may begin. The more the substrate gets itself into its own power, the more it becomes subordinated to omnipotence. The relative monads are therefore so far from setting the central monad barriers that they much rather reveal omnipotence's true reality. (The divine will has a far greater power over a human soul than over wood and stone.) If the antithesis between the ideal and the real world is to merge into any synthesis, then this must not be sought in a mythical representation of *fall* and *impotence*, but in revelation's concept of *creation* and *omnipotence*.

Remark 4. The contradiction that the world is at once both eternal and temporal (jfr. Pag. 122) finds its higher solution in the antithesis between the uncreated ideal world, which mirrors its content in selfhood's depth, and the created real world, which forms out the ideal totality in finitude's material. As the temporal becoming with all its endowments and measures is anticipated in eternity's rest, so the creating energy consummates its esoteric determinations in the forces' obscure ferment, the possibilities' sundering and the real movements' unrest. The relation between the inner and the outer world-totality consists in a subordinating interaction, which can be comprehended only according to a rational unity of other-worldly causality and immanent reason-ground. a) *If the eternal world-principle is posited one-sidedly as causality, then the temporal actuality vanishes in ideality's concept; the divine freedom is apprehended abstractly, and finitude is subjected to a fatal necessity.* b) *If one holds fast with dialectical one-sidedness the concept of an immanent world-ground, then the development's necessity can indeed become organic; but since the anticipation lacks ideality's freedom, the real movement will lose itself in endless progress.* c) *If we on the contrary acknowledge the original unity of causality and ground, then the world is freed to independent development, and temporality finds its measure and its close in eternity's complete reality.*

a) The truth that the world's origin is comprehending selfhood and free causality has often carried with it a representation of the all-reason's infinite perfection, which can entangle the thinker in the most various contradictions. If the all-reason, one says, is an eternal intelligence, then it must indeed have seen through everything; and if the intelligence is at the same time one with that central self-determination and self-power of the will whereby all existence's measures are separated and determined,

then all rational possibilities must from eternity be actualized, as with one stroke, in the divine *voûç*. Thus a temporal development becomes not merely superfluous, but even impossible. This ontological way of seeing lies at the ground both of the sterile doctrine of predestination (Calvin) and of the deistic theory of the eternal world-laws. The difference is only this, that the predestinarian absorbs temporality in eternity, and holds fast the central cause's immediate effects at all points so abstractly that the intermediate causes wholly lose their significance, while the deist on the contrary draws eternity's content down into temporality, and lets the divine selfhood (*l'être suprême*) hover as an idle spectator over its work, brought forth once for all, so that the central cause cannot come to work at all, for sheer intermediate causes. In the abstract doctrine of predestination the actual world loses its reality, because it cannot be emancipated from causality's sole power to relative independence, and in the midst of this shadow-existence the energetic ideal determinations themselves are transformed into shadows. According to deism the ideal world's content is only a system of world-laws; but just thereby the actual world is at the same time robbed of its true reality, and repeats its vicissitudes in a meaningless circuit. Both theories thus agree in the contradiction that the result should be finished with the beginning itself, and the true possibility lost in formal necessity.

b) In Schelling's polemic against Jacobi (*Denkmal der Schrift von den göttlichen Dingen*) the principle is urged that the absolute Being must go through an inner process of development from potential to actual perfection. Thus it says (Pag. 77): "Gott muß Etwas vor sich haben, nemlich sich selber, so gewiß er *causa sui* ist. *Ipse se ipso prior sit necesse est*, wenn es nicht ein leres Wort ist, Gott sey absolut;" further (Pag. 85): "Was aber der Anfang einer Intelligens (in ihr selber) ist, kann nicht wieder intelligent seyn, indem sonst keine Unterscheidung wäre, es kann aber auch nicht schlechthin nichtintelligent seyn, eben weil es die Möglichkeit einer Intelligenz ist. Also wird es ein Mittleres seyn, d. e. es wird mit Weisheit wirken, aber gleichsam mit einer eingebornen, instinktartigen, blinden, noch nicht bewußten Weisheit, so wie wir oft Begeisterte wirken sehen, die Sprüche reden voll Verstand, reden sie aber nicht mit Besinnung, sondern wie durch Eingebung." This way of seeing lies at the ground of Schelling's inquiries "über das Wesen der menschlichen Freiheit," and repeats itself in the Hegelian concept of the immediate "Ansich." Whether now this quasi-anticipation is most nearly apprehended in intuition's forms, as an obscure "presentiment," a

“longing” and “urge,” or in the concept’s form, as a logical contradiction with which the idea’s “Ansich” is originally encumbered, the result is still this, that the immanent reason-ground not only with organic necessity thrusts finitude and reality from itself, but also with organic necessity must itself sink down into finitude, and half-blindly try all temporality’s ways, in order at last to reach its free “An= und für=sich=seyn.” Since the eternal central movement is immediately identical with the temporal series-movement, the whole development is only an advance from the more imperfect to the more perfect, and existence loses itself in endless progress. If it lies in the ideal world’s energetic reflection that its pure light eternally presupposes the ground’s darkness, so that the rays break themselves only in finitude’s material, then the dialectical energy must also cease when the empirical finitude vanishes. Every time the idea has therefore relatively cleared itself out of the forces’ ferment, and won a more concrete content and a deeper self-reflection, it must again dive under in temporality’s stream, and begin the strife with new barriers. The formal identity of the ideal and the real transforms itself, in the principle itself, into an equally abstract dualism. The perfect *shall* be reached, but it *can* nevertheless never be reached; for the ideal energy is outwardly conditioned by the real barrier; the movement’s immanent rest is just as abstractly an unceasing unrest; the first “Mover” is moved by need, and contradiction’s worm gnaws at selfhood’s inmost kernel.

c) The endless progress points to an equally endless regress. If one concedes the possibility that the divine freedom can gradually become more perfect, then one also presupposes that after an infinite time’s lapse it must be able to reach absolute perfection. One embarks, then, upon the series-movement, and does not get out beyond the “bad” infinity. But according to the outer infinity an infinite interval has always already elapsed (cfr. Pag. 122); we find ourselves at every point in the development’s middle; consequently the inner perfection must already be given. This means, in other words, that the successive development is infinitely subordinated to the central movement. Since the ground-act whereby omnipotence eternally grasps itself as self-power is exalted above finitude’s series, there is in the depth itself no transition from imperfection to perfection, but an inexhaustible productivity, which anticipates temporality’s measure. By means of the anticipation and the sundering overpower, imperfection and finitude fall, on the contrary, to the outer world. This cannot be finished with one stroke, for omnipotence’s immediate product is substrate, and first

in temporal becoming can the substrate win substantiality and relative independence. As the other-worldly cause thrusts off the outer totality, and lays existence in the bonds of the laws and of necessity, it also wraps its immanent reason-ground in all actuality's endowments and possibilities, and prepares the created world's freedom. Therefore the finite barriers can again be overcome, without individuation ceasing, and temporality end, without the eternal reality being lost.

§ 17.

Subjectivity and Objectivity.

§ 18.

Teleology.

Third Chapter.

The Fullness of the Objective Concept: the Logic of the Idea.

§ 19.

The Originality of the Idea.

§ 20.

The Interaction of the Ideas.

§ 21.**Idea and God.**

Errata

Page 80 line 3 from above Omsætningen read: Oversætningen

- 92 — 13 — A er ei = A, — A er ci = — A
- 93 — 7 — Betingelser — Betingethed
- 112 — 4 from below Daddel — Dadel
- 152 — 8 — med — ved
- 154 — 15 — Dyr=Rige — Dyre=Rige
- 187 — 9 — εἶδη — εἶδη
- 206 — 9 — en miniatur — en miniature
- 241 — 1 — θετον — θεῖον